

INDIAN TRADITIONS, CULTURE AND SOCIETY

- India is a diverse country with a rich and varied heritage of languages, religions, arts, cuisines, philosophies, and customs. India has been influenced by various cultures and civilizations throughout its history, such as the Indus Valley Civilization, the Vedic period, the Mauryan Empire, the Gupta Empire, the Islamic invasions, the Mughal Empire, the British colonial rule, and the modern independence movement. India is also home to many indigenous and tribal communities, each with their own distinct traditions and practices.
- Some of the main aspects of Indian culture and society are:
 - **Arts and Language:** India has a long and vibrant tradition of literature, poetry, music, dance, drama, painting, sculpture, architecture, and other forms of artistic expression. India has 22 official languages and hundreds of regional languages and dialects, each with their own literature and scripts. Some of the oldest and most influential languages in India are Sanskrit, Tamil, Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, and Telugu. Some of the famous literary works in India include the Vedas, the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, the Panchatantra, the Bhagavad Gita, the Upanishads, the Kamasutra, and the works of Kalidasa, Kabir, Mirabai, Rabindranath Tagore, and many others. Some of the popular forms of music and dance in India include Carnatic, Hindustani, folk, classical, devotional, Bollywood, bhangra, kathak, bharatanatyam, odissi, kuchipudi, and many others. Some of the renowned forms of drama and theatre in India include Sanskrit drama, natak, rasa, koodiyattam, yakshagana, tamasha, nautanki, and many others. Some of the notable forms of painting and sculpture in India include Ajanta and Ellora caves, Khajuraho temples, Mughal miniatures, Rajput paintings, Tanjore paintings, Madhubani paintings, Pattachitra paintings, and many others. Some of the remarkable forms of architecture in India include the Indus Valley Civilization, the Buddhist stupas, the Hindu temples, the Islamic mosques, the Mughal monuments, the British buildings, and the modern skyscrapers.
 - **Philosophy and Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major world religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. India is also home to many other religions, such as Islam, Christianity, Zoroastrianism, Judaism, and Baha'i. India has a rich and diverse tradition of philosophical thought, ranging from the ancient schools of Hindu philosophy, such as Vedanta, Samkhya, Yoga, Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Mimamsa, and Charvaka, to the Buddhist schools of Madhyamaka, Yogacara, and Vajrayana, to the Jain schools of Anekantavada, Syadvada, and Saptabhengi, to the Sikh school of Gurmat, to the mod-

ern schools of Indian logic, ethics, aesthetics, and social and political thought. India has also been influenced by various foreign philosophies, such as Greek, Persian, Chinese, Arabic, and Western. Some of the prominent philosophers and thinkers in India include the Buddha, Mahavira, Adi Shankara, Ramanuja, Madhva, Nagarjuna, Dignaga, Dharmakirti, Vasubandhu, Asanga, Patanjali, Gautama, Kanada, Jaimini, Bhartrihari, Abhinavagupta, Kumarila Bhatta, Akbar, Guru Nanak, Kabir, Ramananda, Mirabai, Ramakrishna, Vivekananda, Gandhi, Tagore, Ambedkar, Radhakrishnan, and many others.

- **Food and Drink:** The cuisine of India varies considerably across its various regions and ethnic communities. India has a rich and diverse culinary heritage, influenced by various factors, such as geography, climate, history, religion, culture, and trade. Some of the common ingredients and spices used in Indian cuisine include rice, wheat, millet, lentils, beans, vegetables, fruits, dairy products, ghee, oil, sugar, salt, turmeric, cumin, coriander, chili, ginger, garlic, onion, cardamom, clove, cinnamon, saff

Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

This module covers the following topics:

- The origin and evolution of the state in ancient India
- The political ideals and institutions of ancient India
- The social structure and diversity of Indian society
- The challenges and opportunities of Indian society in the modern era

The origin and evolution of the state in ancient India

- Political thinkers have attempted to explain the origin of the state in various ways. When, where and how the state came into existence have not been recorded anywhere in history.
- Some of the theories that have been proposed are:
 - Evolutionary theory: The state is a natural and gradual development of human society from primitive to civilized stages. The state emerged as a result of the growth of population, territory, economy, and culture.
 - Force theory: The state is a product of conquest and domination by a powerful individual or group over the weaker ones. The state was established by force and maintained by coercion.
 - Mystical theory: The state is a divine creation and a manifestation of God's will. The state is sacred and the ruler is the representative of God on earth. The state has a religious and moral authority over the people.

- Contract theory: The state is a voluntary and rational agreement among the people to form a political community for their common good. The state is based on the consent and sovereignty of the people.
- The stages of state formation in ancient India can be traced from the Vedic period to the Mauryan period. The state evolved from a tribal polity to a territorial monarchy. The state was influenced by the social, economic, religious, and cultural factors of the time.
- The main features of the state in ancient India were:
 - Kingship: The king was the supreme authority and the head of the state. The king was responsible for the protection, welfare, and justice of the people. The king was assisted by a council of ministers and a bureaucracy.
 - Administration: The state was divided into various administrative units such as provinces, districts, towns, and villages. The state had a well-organized system of revenue collection, law and order, public works, and defense.
 - Political ideals: The state was guided by the principles of dharma (righteousness), artha (material prosperity), and kama (pleasure). The state aimed to achieve the four goals of human life: dharma, artha, kama, and moksha (liberation). The state also followed the concept of rajadharma (duty of the king), which included the seven limbs of the state: the king, the minister, the territory, the fort, the treasury, the army, and the ally.

The political ideals and institutions of ancient India

- The political thought of ancient India was influenced by the philosophical and religious traditions of the time, such as Vedas, Upanishads, Buddhism, Jainism, and Kautilya's Arthashastra.
- Some of the political ideals and institutions of ancient India were:
 - Dharma: Dharma was the moral and ethical code of conduct for the individual and the society. Dharma was the basis of law and justice. Dharma was also the duty and responsibility of the king and the people towards each other and the state.
 - Democracy: Democracy was practiced in some forms of ancient India, such as the republics (ganas) and the assemblies (sabhas and samitis). The republics were autonomous and self-governing communities of people who elected their leaders and made decisions collectively. The assemblies were the deliberative and representative bodies of the people who discussed and decided on various matters of public interest.
 - Welfare: Welfare was the primary objective and function of the state. The state was expected to provide for the basic needs and happiness of the people. The state also undertook various measures to promote the social, economic, and cultural development of the people.
 - Tolerance: Tolerance was the attitude and practice of accepting and

respecting the diversity and differences of people, religions, and cultures. Tolerance was the hallmark of the Indian civilization and culture. Tolerance also fostered the spirit of harmony and peace among the people and the state.

The social structure and diversity of Indian society

- The social structure of Indian society was based on the varna (class) and jati (caste) system. The varna system divided the society into four classes: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and Shudras (servants and labor)

State in Ancient India

- The state in ancient India was a social organization with political power that ensured peace, order and happiness.
- The origin of the state in ancient India is not clear, but there are three main theories: social contract theory, divine origin theory and organic theory.
- Social contract theory: This theory holds that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among the people who gave up some of their rights and freedoms to a ruler or a group of rulers in exchange for protection and welfare.
- Divine origin theory: This theory holds that the state was created by God or gods who appointed a king or a dynasty to rule over the people with divine sanction and authority.
- Organic theory: This theory holds that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the growth and development of human society, which needed a central authority to regulate its affairs and maintain harmony.
- The types of states in ancient India were loosely categorized into monarchy, republican and oligarchy.
- Monarchy: This was the most prevalent type of state in ancient India, where a king or a queen ruled over a territory with absolute or limited power, depending on the constitution and the law. The king was usually assisted by a council of ministers, a chief priest, a chief judge and a chief commander of the army. The king was also the protector of dharma (righteousness) and the upholder of justice.
- Republican: This was a type of state where the people elected their representatives or leaders to govern them, without a hereditary ruler. The republics were usually small and independent, and often formed confederations or alliances with other republics for mutual defense and trade. The republics had assemblies or councils where the decisions were made by majority vote or consensus. Some examples of republics in ancient India are the Shakyas, the Koliyas, the Mallas and the Vrijiis.
- Oligarchy: This was a type of state where a few powerful individuals or families controlled the government and the resources, without regard

for the welfare of the common people. The oligarchs were often wealthy landowners, merchants or nobles who exploited the masses and oppressed the weaker sections of the society. The oligarchies were usually unstable and prone to internal conflicts and external invasions. Some examples of oligarchies in ancient India are the Nandas, the Mauryas and the Sungas.

- The earliest state in ancient India was the Indus Valley Civilization, also known as the Harappan Civilization, which flourished from 3300 BCE to 1300 BCE in present-day Pakistan and northwest India . The Indus Valley Civilization was a highly advanced and urbanized culture that had a well-planned and organized administration, a sophisticated system of writing, a standardized system of weights and measures, a remarkable skill in seal carving and metallurgy, and a flourishing trade and commerce with other regions .
- The Indus Valley Civilization declined around 1300 BCE, possibly due to environmental changes, natural disasters, internal conflicts or foreign invasions . After its collapse, a new wave of migrants called the Aryans entered India from the northwest and settled in the Indo-Gangetic plains. The Aryans brought with them a new culture, language, religion and social system, which gradually influenced and transformed the existing societies in India.
- The Aryan period (1500 BCE to 600 BCE) saw the emergence of the Vedic culture, which was based on the sacred texts called the Vedas, which contained hymns, rituals, myths and philosophy. The Vedic culture was characterized by a patriarchal and hierarchical social order, where the society was divided into four varnas (classes) based on occupation and birth: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers) and Shudras (servants and laborers). The Vedic culture also gave rise to the concept of karma (action and consequence) and samsara (cycle of rebirth), which influenced the later religious and philosophical developments in India.
- The later Vedic period (1000 BCE to 600 BCE) witnessed the expansion and consolidation of the Aryan states, which were called janapadas (

Theories of origin of State in India

The origin of state in India is a subject of debate among scholars of political science and history. There are different theories that attempt to explain how the state emerged and evolved in ancient India. Some of the prominent theories are:

- **Social Contract Theory:** This theory holds that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among individuals who gave up some of their natural rights and freedoms in exchange for security and order. The state was seen as a human creation that served the common good of the people. This theory is based on the writings of ancient Indian thinkers like Manu, Kautilya and Yajnavalkya, who advocated the idea of a social contract

between the king and the people. The king was expected to rule according to the principles of dharma (righteousness) and protect the interests of the people. The people, in turn, were expected to obey the king and pay taxes. If the king failed to fulfill his duties, the people had the right to overthrow him and choose a new ruler. This theory is also supported by some Buddhist texts, such as the Digha Nikaya, which describe the election of a mahasammata (grand elect) by the people as the origin of republican governance.

- **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory holds that the state was established by the will of God or gods, who chose a particular person or family to rule over the people. The state was seen as a sacred institution that derived its authority and legitimacy from the divine source. The king was regarded as the representative or incarnation of God or gods on earth, who had the right to rule by virtue of his birth or divine sanction. The people were expected to obey the king and worship him as a god. The king was not bound by any laws or rules, except those given by God or gods. This theory is based on the writings of ancient Indian thinkers like Valmiki, Vyasa and Kalidasa, who depicted the kings as the descendants or avatars of gods, such as Rama, Krishna and Ravana. The theory of divine rights of the kings also known as the Divine Origin theory is one of the oldest theory of the origin of the state.
- **Organic Theory:** This theory holds that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the social and historical development of human society. The state was seen as a living organism that grew and changed according to the needs and circumstances of the people. The state was not a product of human will or choice, but a result of the laws of nature and history. The state had its own personality and interests, which were distinct from those of the individuals or groups. The state was the highest and most perfect form of social organization, which had the right and duty to regulate and control all aspects of human life. This theory is based on the writings of ancient Indian thinkers like Bhartrihari, Bharata and Patanjali, who viewed the state as a manifestation of the cosmic order and harmony. The state was the expression of the rita (universal law) and the loka-sangraha (welfare of the world).

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the theories of origin of state in India are:

- To remember the three theories, use the acronym SOD (Social contract, Organic, Divine).
- To remember the main features of each theory, use the following phrases:
 - Social contract: People give up rights for security and order.
 - Organic: State grows and changes like a living organism.
 - Divine: State is established by the will of God or gods.

- To remember the names of some ancient Indian thinkers who supported each theory, use the following associations:
 - Social contract: Manu, Kautilya and Yajnavalkya are the three wise men who made the contract.
 - Organic: Bhartrihari, Bharata and Patanjali are the three organic brothers who grew the state.
 - Divine: Valmiki, Vyasa and Kalidasa are the three divine poets who sang the glory of the state.

Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

- The Evolutionary Theory of origin of State is the most widely accepted theory that explains how the state came into being as a result of historical and social development over a long period of time.
- The theory is based on the assumption that the state is not a creation of any person or contract, but a natural and inevitable outcome of the evolution of human society from simple to complex forms of organization.
- The theory traces the origin of the state from the primitive stage of family, clan, tribe, village, and city-state to the modern nation-state.
- The theory identifies several factors that contributed to the evolution of the state, such as kinship, religion, war, migration, economic activities, and political consciousness.
- The theory also recognizes the role of historical events, such as revolutions, wars, and reforms, that shaped the state and its functions over time.
- The theory is supported by historical evidence, anthropological studies, and comparative analysis of different types of states across the world.
- The theory is more scientific, realistic, and comprehensive than other theories of origin of state, such as the Divine Right Theory, the Force Theory, the Social Contract Theory, and the Patriarchal and Matriarchal Theories.
- The theory, however, has some limitations, such as:
 - It does not explain the origin of the state in a precise and definite manner, but only in a general and vague way.
 - It does not account for the diversity and variation of states in different regions and cultures, and tends to generalize the stages of evolution.
 - It does not address the ethical and moral aspects of the state and its authority, and focuses more on the factual and historical aspects.
 - It does not consider the possibility of alternative forms of political organization, such as anarchism, communism, or federalism, that may challenge or replace the state in the future.

Force Theory of origin of State

- The force theory of origin of state is one of the theories that explain how states emerged in human history.
- According to this theory, states were formed when one person or group

of people used force or violence to subjugate others and establish their authority over a territory.

- The force theory implies that the state is based on coercion, domination and submission, and that the people have no say in the formation or governance of the state.
- Some examples of states that are said to have originated by force are:
 - Ancient empires, such as the Roman Empire, the Persian Empire, the Mongol Empire, etc.
 - Colonial states, such as the British Empire, the French Empire, the Spanish Empire, etc.
 - Totalitarian states, such as Nazi Germany, Soviet Union, North Korea, etc.
- Some advantages of the force theory are:
 - It provides a simple and realistic explanation of how states emerged in a violent and chaotic world.
 - It accounts for the diversity and inequality of states in terms of power, size, culture, etc.
 - It recognizes the role of human agency, ambition and leadership in state formation.
- Some disadvantages of the force theory are:
 - It ignores the role of consent, cooperation and compromise in state formation and maintenance.
 - It overlooks the social, economic and political factors that influence state formation and development.
 - It justifies the use of force and violence as legitimate means of state creation and expansion.
- A possible mnemonic to remember the force theory is:
 - F: Force or violence
 - O: One person or group
 - R: Rule over others
 - C: Coercion and domination
 - E: Empire or state

Mystical Theory of origin of State

- The mystical theory of origin of state is also known as the **divine origin theory** or the **theory of divine right of kings**.
- The exponents of this theory believe that the state did not come into being by any effort of man. It is **created by God**.

- The king who rules over the state is an **agent of God** on earth and has absolute authority over his subjects .
- The subjects have a duty to obey the king without question, as he is the **representative of God's will** .
- The theory was popular in ancient and medieval times, especially in Europe and Asia, and was used to justify the **monarchical form of government** .
- Some of the prominent advocates of this theory were **Plato, Aristotle, Augustine, Aquinas, Bossuet, Filmer, and Hobbes** .
- The theory was challenged by the **enlightenment thinkers** and the **democratic revolutions** of the 17th and 18th centuries, who argued for the **natural rights of man** and the **social contract theory** of the state .
- The theory is now largely **discredited** and **rejected** by modern political science, as it is based on **unscientific** and **irrational** assumptions .
- A possible mnemonic to remember the main points of this theory is:

Mystical theory = **M**onarchy by **M**andate of God

Divine origin theory = **D**uty to obey the **D**ivine king

Theory of divine right of kings = **T**otal authority of the **T**yrant

- A possible learning trick to understand this theory is to imagine a scenario where you are a subject of a king who claims to be appointed by God. How would you feel? What would you do? What are the advantages and disadvantages of living under such a system? How would you compare it with other forms of government?

Contract Theory of origin of State

- The contract theory of origin of state is one of the theories that explains how the state came into being by a contract or agreement between people.
- The contract theory assumes that the original state of human beings was the state of nature, where there was no state, no law, no authority, but only natural conditions and natural rights.
- The state of nature was characterized by freedom, equality, and independence, but also by insecurity, violence, and fear, as everyone was in a constant state of war with everyone else.
- To escape from the state of nature and to ensure their safety, security, and welfare, people decided to enter into a contract or agreement with each other, by which they gave up some of their natural rights and powers to a common authority, which became the state.

- The state, in turn, was bound to protect and promote the remaining rights and interests of the people, and to maintain peace and order in the society.
- The contract theory of origin of state has been developed and elaborated by different philosophers, such as Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, and Jean-Jacques Rousseau, who gave different versions and interpretations of the contract and the state.
- The contract theory of origin of state has been criticized by some scholars, who argue that there is no historical or empirical evidence of such a contract, that the state of nature is a hypothetical and unrealistic assumption, that the contract is not voluntary or unanimous, but imposed by the powerful, and that the state is not a neutral or benevolent authority, but a source of oppression and exploitation.
- A possible mnemonic to remember the main features of the contract theory of origin of state is:
 - **C**ontract: people agreed to form the state by a contract
 - **O**rigin: the state originated from the state of nature
 - **N**ature: the state of nature was a condition of war and fear
 - **T**ransfer: people transferred some of their rights and powers to the state
 - **R**ights: the state was obliged to protect and promote the rights of the people
 - **A**uthority: the state became the common authority over the people
 - **C**riticism: the contract theory faced criticism from various perspectives
 - **T**heorists: the contract theory was developed by different theorists, such as Hobbes, Locke, and Rousseau

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

- The state formation in ancient India is a complex and contested topic that has been debated by various scholars and historians.
- There are different theories and perspectives on how and when the state emerged in ancient India, such as the Aryan invasion theory, the indigenous origin theory, the hydraulic theory, the trade theory, the class theory, etc.
- However, a general consensus is that the state formation in ancient India was a gradual and uneven process that involved various factors such as geography, ecology, economy, society, culture, religion, and politics.
- Based on the available sources, such as the Vedic texts, the Buddhist and Jain literature, the epics, the inscriptions, the coins, etc., the state formation in ancient India can be divided into four broad stages:

1. The Vedic Period (c. 1500-600 BCE): This was the earliest phase of state formation in ancient India, marked by the arrival and settlement of the Indo-Aryan tribes in the northwestern and northern regions of the subcontinent. The Vedic society was organized into clans (jana) and tribes (vish), which were led by chiefs (rajan) and priests (brahman). The Vedic polity was based on kinship, ritual, and sacrifice, and lacked a centralized authority, bureaucracy, or taxation. The Vedic states were called janapadas, meaning the land of the people.
2. The Mahajanapada Period (c. 600-300 BCE): This was the phase of transition from tribal to territorial states in ancient India, marked by the expansion and consolidation of the Vedic states into larger and more complex political units. The Mahajanapadas, meaning the great states, were sixteen in number, and covered most of the northern and central regions of the subcontinent. The Mahajanapadas were characterized by urbanization, trade, coinage, taxation, law, and administration. The Mahajanapadas also witnessed the emergence of alternative religious and philosophical movements, such as Buddhism and Jainism, which challenged the Vedic orthodoxy and the brahmanical hierarchy. The Mahajanapadas were either monarchies or republics, and often engaged in wars and alliances with each other.
3. The Mauryan Period (c. 300-200 BCE): This was the phase of imperial state formation in ancient India, marked by the rise and fall of the Mauryan Empire, which was the first and largest pan-Indian empire in history. The Mauryan Empire was founded by Chandragupta Maurya, who defeated the Nanda dynasty and the Greek invaders, and expanded his domain from Afghanistan to Bengal. The Mauryan Empire reached its zenith under Ashoka, who conquered most of the subcontinent and promoted Buddhism as a state religion. The Mauryan Empire was characterized by a centralized and bureaucratic administration, a large and professional army, a network of roads and communication, a uniform system of weights and measures, and a welfare-oriented policy. The Mauryan Empire collapsed after the death of Ashoka, due to internal and external factors.
4. The Post-Mauryan Period (c. 200 BCE-300 CE): This was the phase of regional state formation in ancient India, marked by the fragmentation and diversification of the political landscape. The Post-Mauryan Period saw the emergence and decline of various dynasties and kingdoms, such as the Sungas, the Kanvas, the Satavahanas, the Kushanas, the Sakas, the Parthians, the Guptas, etc., which ruled over different parts of the subcontinent. The Post-Mauryan Period was characterized by cultural and economic integration, artistic and scientific achievements, religious and philosophical developments, and social and political changes. The Post-Mauryan Period also witnessed the spread of Indian culture and influence to other regions, such as Central Asia, Southeast Asia, and China, through trade, mi-

gration, and missions.

- A possible mnemonic to remember the four stages of state formation in ancient India is:
 - **Very Many Mighty People**: Vedic, Mahajanapada, Mauryan, Post-Mauryan.

Kingship in states in Ancient India

- Kingship in ancient India was a sovereignty over a territory by a king who functioned as its protector, a role which involved both secular and religious power.
- The meaning and significance of kingship changed dramatically between the Vedic and Later Vedic period, and underwent further development under the times of the Jain and Buddhist rulers.
- In the Vedic period, the king was seen as a representative of the gods, who performed sacrifices and rituals to ensure the welfare of his people and the cosmos. He was also a leader of the tribe or clan, who defended them from enemies and maintained law and order.
- In the Later Vedic period, the king became more powerful and centralized, as he expanded his territory through conquest and alliance. He also acquired more wealth and prestige, and claimed divine or semi-divine status. He was assisted by a council of ministers and a bureaucracy, and regulated the social and economic life of his subjects.
- The Jain and Buddhist texts challenged the legitimacy and morality of kingship, and advocated for non-violence, equality, and renunciation. They also presented alternative models of governance, such as republics and federations, where the people had more voice and autonomy. However, they also recognized the necessity and inevitability of kingship, and prescribed ethical and spiritual duties for the king, such as protecting the dharma, promoting justice, and ensuring the welfare of all beings.
- Some of the famous kings and dynasties of ancient India include the Mauryans, who ruled over most of the subcontinent under Ashoka the Great; the Kushans, who controlled the northwestern regions and facilitated trade and cultural exchange with Central Asia; the Guptas, who ushered in a golden age of art, literature, and science; and the Cholas, who dominated the south and expanded their influence to Southeast Asia.
- A possible mnemonic to remember the names of these four dynasties is: **My Kind Grandfather Chose** (Mauryan, Kushan, Gupta, Chola).

Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The council of ministers was an important institution of governance in ancient India. It was composed of various officials who assisted the king in administration, policy-making, and military affairs.
- The council of ministers was also known as **mantri-parishad** or **mantri-mandal** in Sanskrit. The term **mantri** means a counselor or adviser, and **parishad** or **mandal** means an assembly or group.
- The council of ministers was not a fixed or permanent body. It varied in size, composition, and functions depending on the needs and preferences of the king. The king had the authority to appoint, dismiss, or replace any minister at his will.
- The council of ministers was usually headed by a **prime minister** or **mahamantri**, who was the chief adviser and coordinator of the other ministers. He was often the most trusted and influential person in the kingdom, next to the king. He was responsible for the general administration, finance, diplomacy, and security of the state.
- The other ministers who served in the council of ministers included:
 - **senapati** or **senani**: the commander-in-chief of the army, who was in charge of the military affairs, defense, and war strategy of the state.
 - **danda-nayaka** or **danda-pati**: the chief justice or law minister, who was in charge of the judicial system, legal matters, and enforcement of law and order in the state.
 - **purohita** or **rajapurohita**: the chief priest or religious minister, who was in charge of the religious affairs, rituals, ceremonies, and spiritual guidance of the king and the state.
 - **sachiva** or **mantri**: the secretary or minister of state, who was in charge of the correspondence, records, documents, and communication of the state.
 - **sumanta** or **sandhi-vigrahika**: the foreign minister or ambassador, who was in charge of the foreign relations, treaties, alliances, and negotiations of the state.
 - **kosha-adhyaksha** or **koshadhyaksha**: the treasurer or finance minister, who was in charge of the revenue, expenditure, taxation, and budget of the state.
 - **akshapatala-adhyaksha** or **akshapataladhyaksha**: the accountant or auditor, who was in charge of the accounts, audits, and checks and balances of the state finances.
 - **bhandagaradhyaksha** or **bhandara-adhyaksha**: the storekeeper or supply minister, who was in charge of the storage, distribution, and inventory of the state resources, such as food, weapons, and materials.
 - **pratihara** or **pratihari**: the doorkeeper or security minister, who was in charge of the protection, surveillance, and intelligence of the king and the state.

- **mahattara** or **mahattama**: the elder or senior minister, who was in charge of the supervision, guidance, and advice of the other ministers and officials.
- The council of ministers was not a democratic or representative body. It was a consultative and advisory body, whose role was to assist and advise the king, who was the supreme authority and decision-maker in the state. The king was not bound by the opinions or suggestions of the council of ministers, and could overrule or ignore them at his discretion.
- The council of ministers was not a uniform or standardized institution. It varied in different regions, periods, and dynasties of ancient India. Some of the famous councils of ministers in ancient India were:
 - The **navaratnas** or nine gems of the court of King Vikramaditya of the Gupta dynasty, who were renowned for their excellence in various fields of art, literature, science, and politics.
 - The **ashtadiggajas** or eight elephants of the court of King Krishnadevaraya of the Vijayanagara empire, who were celebrated for their poetry and scholarship in Telugu language and literature.
 - The **ashtapradhan** or eight ministers of the administration of King Shivaji of the Maratha empire, who were instrumental in the expansion and consolidation of the Maratha power and resistance against the Mughal empire.

Administration in Ancient India

- Administration in ancient India was an extremely well-organized one, going back to about five thousand years or more. The earliest reference can be traced to the Indus Valley civilization, where government in Mohenjodaro and Harappa was systematic.
- The principal form of government in ancient India was monarchy, where the king (raja) was the supreme head of the legislative, executive and judiciary branches. He was assisted in administration by a number of officials, such as ministers, councillors, generals, governors, judges, etc .
- The king was also the protector of dharma (righteousness), the upholder of justice, and the maintainer of social order. He was expected to rule according to the shastras (scriptures) and the advice of his wise men. He was also supposed to perform various religious ceremonies and sacrifices to ensure the welfare of his subjects .
- The king was not an absolute ruler, but was bound by certain checks and balances. He had to respect the rights and privileges of various social groups, such as the brahmins (priests), the kshatriyas (warriors), the vaishyas (merchants), and the shudras (servants). He also had to consult the sabha (assembly) and the samiti (council) on important matters of state. These bodies were composed of representatives of different classes and regions, and had some elements of democracy in their administration .
- The king also had to deal with the external threats and challenges from

other kingdoms and invaders. He had to maintain a strong army and navy, and forge alliances and treaties with friendly rulers. He also had to expand his territory and influence through conquests and annexations. He had to collect taxes and tributes from his subjects and vassals, and distribute them among his officials and allies .

- The administration of ancient India was not centralized, but decentralized. The big empires, such as the Mauryan, the Gupta, and the Mughal, were divided into provinces and districts for the sake of administrative convenience. The provinces were governed by governors (rajukas, kumaramatyas, subahdars, etc) who were appointed by the king or the central authority. The districts were governed by local officials (vishayapatis, rashtrapatis, amils, etc) who were either appointed by the governors or elected by the people. The provinces and districts had their own courts, police, and revenue systems, and enjoyed a considerable degree of autonomy .
- The small kingdoms, such as the Pallavas, the Vakatakas, and the Gahadavalas, had only one type of division, viz. the districts, known by different names like vishaya or rashtra. These districts were governed by local officials who were either appointed by the king or elected by the people. The districts also had their own courts, police, and revenue systems, and enjoyed a considerable degree of autonomy.
- The administration of ancient India was also influenced by the religious and cultural diversity of the land. There were different sects and schools of thought, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Islam, etc, that coexisted and interacted with each other. The king and the officials had to respect the beliefs and practices of different faiths, and grant them freedom and protection. The king and the officials also had to promote the arts and sciences, and patronize the scholars and artists. The administration of ancient India was thus a complex and dynamic one, that reflected the richness and diversity of the Indian civilization .

Some mnemonics and learning tricks for the administration in ancient India are:

- To remember the four main social groups in ancient India, use the acronym BVS (Brahmins, Vaishyas, Shudras) and add K (Kshatriyas) in the middle.
- To remember the names of the two bodies that the king had to consult, use the rhyme “Sabha and Samiti, the king’s committee”.
- To remember the names of the local officials who governed the districts, use the alliteration “Vishayapati, Rashtrapati, Amil”.
- To remember the names of the governors who governed the provinces, use the association ”Rajuka, Kumaramatya, Subahdar, they are the

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

- Ancient India had a rich tradition of political thought and practice that spanned from the Vedic period to the medieval period.
- Some of the main political ideals that emerged in ancient India were:
 - **Dharma:** The concept of dharma, or duty, was the basis of social

and moral order in ancient India. Dharma was not a fixed set of rules, but a dynamic and context-specific principle that guided the actions of individuals and groups. Dharma also implied a balance between rights and responsibilities, and a respect for the diversity of life forms and beliefs.

- **Rajadharma:** The concept of rajadharma, or the duty of the king, was the core of political governance in ancient India. Rajadharma prescribed the qualities and functions of a good ruler, such as protecting the people, upholding justice, promoting welfare, maintaining law and order, and performing sacrifices. Rajadharma also emphasized the importance of consultation, delegation, and accountability in administration.
- **Arthashastra:** The concept of arthashastra, or the science of politics, was developed by various thinkers and writers, such as Kautilya, Usanas, and Shukra. Arthashastra dealt with the practical aspects of statecraft, such as diplomacy, war, economy, taxation, espionage, and law. Arthashastra also advocated a pragmatic and rational approach to politics, based on the analysis of costs and benefits, and the use of various means to achieve the desired ends.
- **Lokasangraha:** The concept of lokasangraha, or the welfare of the world, was the ultimate goal of political action in ancient India. Lokasangraha implied a holistic and inclusive vision of society, where the interests of all beings, human and non-human, were taken into account. Lokasangraha also implied a sense of responsibility and compassion for the well-being of others, and a commitment to peace and harmony.
- The political ideals of ancient India have a relevance and significance in modern times, as they offer insights and lessons for the contemporary challenges and opportunities of political life. Some of the ways in which they can be applied are:
 - **Dharma:** The concept of dharma can inspire us to act ethically and responsibly in our personal and professional lives, and to respect the diversity and dignity of others. Dharma can also help us to balance our rights and duties, and to seek the common good of society.
 - **Rajadharma:** The concept of rajadharma can guide us to elect and support leaders who are competent, benevolent, and accountable, and who work for the welfare of the people. Rajadharma can also encourage us to participate actively and constructively in the democratic process, and to demand transparency and accountability from the government.
 - **Arthashastra:** The concept of arthashastra can help us to understand and analyze the complex and dynamic nature of politics, and to devise effective and efficient strategies and policies for various issues and situations. Arthashastra can also help us to be aware and vigilant of the threats and opportunities in the political environment, and to use various means and resources to achieve our goals.

- **Lokasangraha:** The concept of lokasangraha can motivate us to work for the welfare of the world, and to contribute to the global issues and causes that affect humanity and the planet. Lokasangraha can also help us to develop a sense of solidarity and cooperation with other people and nations, and to promote peace and harmony in the world.

Conditions of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was based on the concept of **Dharma**, which means the moral and ethical duty of an individual or a group. Dharma was the guiding principle for the social, political, economic and religious life of the people.
- The ancient Indian society was divided into four **Varnas** or classes: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers) and Shudras (servants and laborers). Each Varna had its own Dharma to follow according to their occupation and status. The Varna system was not rigid or hereditary, but flexible and based on one's qualities and actions.
- The ancient Indian society also followed the system of **Ashramas** or stages of life. There were four Ashramas: Brahmacharya (student life), Grihastha (householder life), Vanaprastha (retired life) and Sannyasa (renounced life). Each Ashrama had its own Dharma to fulfill according to one's age and situation. The Ashramas helped the people to balance their worldly and spiritual pursuits.
- The ancient Indian society also performed various **Samskaras** or sacraments to mark the important events and transitions in one's life. There were 16 Samskaras, such as Garbhadhana (conception), Jatakarma (birth), Upanayana (initiation), Vivaha (marriage), Antyeshti (funeral) etc. The Samskaras were meant to purify and sanctify the individual and the society.
- The ancient Indian society was based on the institution of **family**, which was the basic unit of social organization. The family was patriarchal, joint and extended, with the elders having authority and respect. The family was responsible for the education, upbringing, welfare and protection of its members. The family also performed various rituals and ceremonies for the ancestors and the gods.
- The ancient Indian society had different rules and customs for **marriage**, which was considered a sacred and lifelong bond between a man and a woman. The marriage was arranged by the parents or elders of the bride and groom, based on their compatibility, horoscope, caste, profession, etc. The marriage was solemnized by various rites and vows, such as Kanyadan (giving away the bride), Saptapadi (seven steps around the fire), etc. The marriage was also a social and economic contract between the two families.
- The ancient Indian society had a varied and complex position of **women**,

who enjoyed respect and freedom in some aspects, but also faced discrimination and oppression in others. Women had the right to education, property, inheritance, remarriage, etc. in the early Vedic period, but gradually lost these rights in the later periods. Women also had to follow the norms of Pativrata (devoted wife), Sati (self-immolation of widow), Purdah (veil), etc. in some regions and times. Women also contributed to the welfare of the society by performing various roles, such as mother, wife, daughter, sister, teacher, poet, etc.

- The ancient Indian society had a rich and diverse culture of **dresses and ornaments**, which reflected the climate, geography, occupation, status and taste of the people. The people wore various types of garments, such as Dhoti, Sari, Kurta, Salwar, etc. made of cotton, silk, wool, etc. The people also adorned themselves with various types of ornaments, such as earrings, necklaces, bracelets, rings, etc. made of gold, silver, copper, etc. The dresses and ornaments also had symbolic and religious significance.
- The ancient Indian society had a varied and nutritious **food habits**, which depended on the availability, season, region, caste, etc. of the people. The people ate various types of grains, such as rice, wheat, barley, millet, etc. The people also ate various types of vegetables, fruits, pulses, dairy products, etc. The people also ate various types of meat, fish, eggs, etc. in some regions and times. The people also drank various types of beverages, such as water, milk, juice, wine, etc. The people also followed various rules and

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

- The Seven Limbs of the State (Saptanga) is a political theory formulated by Kautilya in his treatise Arthashastra, which describes the essential elements of a successful and stable state .
- The seven limbs are:
 - **King (Swamin)**: The ruler of the state, who is responsible for the peace, justice and stability of the society. He is the supreme authority and the source of law. He should be virtuous, wise, courageous and benevolent .
 - **Minister (Amatya)**: The chief advisor and administrator of the state, who assists the king in policy making and governance. He should be loyal, competent, experienced and trustworthy .
 - **Territory (Janapada)**: The land and the people of the state, who provide the resources and manpower for the state. The territory should be fertile, prosperous, populous and well-protected .
 - **Fortress (Durga)**: The defensive structure and the capital of the state, which serves as the seat of power and the center of administration. The fortress should be strong, secure, accessible and well-equipped .
 - **Treasury (Kosha)**: The financial and economic system of the state, which provides the revenue and expenditure for the state. The trea-

sury should be abundant, well-managed, transparent and fair .

- **Army (Danda)**: The military and coercive force of the state, which protects the state from external and internal threats and enforces the law and order. The army should be disciplined, trained, loyal and well-armed .
- **Ally (Mitra)**: The friendly and supportive state or power, which helps the state in times of need and shares common interests and goals. The ally should be reliable, respectful, compatible and cooperative .
- According to Kautilya, all the seven limbs should be in harmony and balance with each other, and any weakness or defect in any of them can lead to the downfall of the state .
- A possible mnemonic to remember the seven limbs is: **King Minister Territory Fortress Treasury Army Ally**, or **KMTFTAA**. Alternatively, one can use the first letters of the Sanskrit terms: **Swamin Amatya Janapada Durga Kosha Danda Mitra**, or **SAJDKDM**.

Society in Ancient India

- Society in ancient India was based on the concept of **varna** and **ashrama**, which divided the people into four main classes (Brahmins, Kshatriyas, Vaishyas and Shudras) and four stages of life (student, householder, retiree and renunciant).
- The **Vedic society** was the earliest phase of ancient Indian society, which emerged from the Indo-Aryan migration into the Indus Valley around 1500 BCE. The Vedic society was characterized by the worship of nature gods, the performance of sacrifices, the composition of hymns and the development of the Sanskrit language.
- The **Aryan society** was the second phase of ancient Indian society, which developed after the decline of the Indus Valley Civilization around 1000 BCE. The Aryan society was characterized by the expansion of agriculture, the emergence of kingdoms, the codification of laws and the development of the caste system.
- The **Iron Age civilization** was the third phase of ancient Indian society, which coincided with the rise of Buddhism and Jainism around 600 BCE. The Iron Age civilization was characterized by the growth of urban centers, the emergence of empires, the spread of trade and the development of literature and art.
- Society in ancient India was influenced by various factors such as geography, religion, culture, economy and politics. Society in ancient India was also diverse and dynamic, as it witnessed the interaction of different groups such as the Dravidians, the Greeks, the Kushans, the Guptas and the Huns.

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

- Purusārtha (Sanskrit: पुरुषार्थ) literally means “object (ive) of men” or “human pursuit”.
- It is a key concept in Hinduism, and refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. The four puruṣārthas are Dharma (righteousness, moral values), Artha (prosperity, economic values), Kama (pleasure, love, psychological values) and Moksha (liberation, spiritual values).
- The concept of puruṣārtha is a fundamental principle of social ethics. Like four classes in the society and four stages in the life of an individual, the ancient Indian seers conceived of four aims or purposes of a man- the puruṣārtha. These are not only meant to set an ideal objective but also to convey the right means to achieve them.
- The concept of puruṣārtha is also a way to seek truth and attain salvation. It is based on the belief that human life is a journey of the soul, and the four puruṣārthas are the milestones that guide the soul towards its ultimate destination.
- The four puruṣārthas are interrelated and interdependent. They are not mutually exclusive or contradictory. They are meant to be pursued in a balanced and harmonious way, according to one’s nature, stage and circumstances in life.
- The four puruṣārthas are also hierarchical in nature. Dharma is the foundation of all the other puruṣārthas, as it ensures the moral and social order. Artha and Kama are the means to fulfill one’s material and emotional needs, but they are also regulated by Dharma. Moksha is the highest and ultimate puruṣārtha, as it transcends the cycle of birth and death and leads to the realization of one’s true self.
- The concept of puruṣārtha reflects the ancient Indian vision of life, which is holistic, dynamic and spiritual. It also provides a framework for personal and social development, as well as a guide for ethical and moral conduct.

A possible mnemonic to remember the four puruṣārthas is:

Do All Kind Matters

D for Dharma, A for Artha, K for Kama and M for Moksha.

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

- The Varnāshrama system was a concept of social and moral order in ancient Hindu society, based on the division of people into four varnas (classes) and four ashramas (stages of life).
- The four varnas were:
 - Brahman: the class of priests, teachers and scholars, who performed rituals and preserved the sacred texts.
 - Kshatriya: the class of kings, warriors and nobles, who protected the society and maintained law and order.

- Vaishya: the class of traders, merchants and artisans, who engaged in commerce and production.
- Sudra: the class of servants, laborers and peasants, who served the other three classes and performed menial tasks.
- The four ashramas were:
 - Brahmacharya: the stage of studentship, where one learned the scriptures and the duties of one's varna under a guru (teacher).
 - Grihastha: the stage of householdership, where one married, raised a family and fulfilled one's social and economic obligations.
 - Vanaprastha: the stage of forest dwelling, where one retired from worldly affairs and pursued spiritual goals in solitude or in the company of other renunciants.
 - Sannyasa: the stage of renunciation, where one renounced all attachments and sought liberation from the cycle of birth and death.
- The Varnāshrama system was meant to provide a framework for the harmonious functioning of the society and the individual, by assigning different roles and responsibilities according to one's aptitude, ability and stage of life.
- The Varnāshrama system was also based on the concept of dharma, which means duty, righteousness, law or morality. Each varna and ashrama had its own dharma, which was prescribed by the scriptures and the tradition. By following one's dharma, one could achieve happiness, prosperity and spiritual merit in this life and the next.
- The Varnāshrama system was not rigid or fixed, but flexible and dynamic, allowing for mobility and change according to one's circumstances, qualifications and achievements. For example, a person could change one's varna by performing heroic deeds, acquiring knowledge or wealth, or undergoing initiation. Similarly, a person could change one's ashrama by fulfilling the requirements of the previous stage, or by following a special call or inspiration.
- The Varnāshrama system was not a system of oppression or discrimination, but a system of cooperation and mutual respect, where each varna and ashrama contributed to the welfare of the whole society and the individual. The varnas and ashramas were not ranked hierarchically, but interdependently, as the limbs of a body. The varnas and ashramas were not based on birth or caste, but on character and conduct, as determined by one's karma (actions and their consequences).
- The Varnāshrama system was not a system of isolation or segregation, but a system of integration and diversity, where different varnas and ashramas interacted and exchanged with each other in various spheres of life, such as education, religion, politics, economy and culture. The varnas and ashramas were not exclusive or closed, but inclusive and open, allowing for

the participation and contribution of people from different backgrounds, regions and faiths.

- A possible mnemonic to remember the four varnas is: **Be Kind Very Soon** (Brahman, Kshatriya, Vaishya, Sudra).
- A possible mnemonic to remember the four ashramas is: **Be Good Very Seriously** (Brahmacharya, Grihastha, Vanaprastha, Sannyasa).

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

- Āshrama (Sanskrit: आश्रम) is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras.
- The four āshramas are: Brahmacharya (student), Gr̥hastha (householder), Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller), and Sannyasa (renunciate).
- The Āshrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism, which prescribes the duties and responsibilities of each stage of life.
- The purpose of the Āshrama system is to prepare one for the spiritual journey of life and to attain liberation (moksha) from the cycle of birth and death (samsara).
- The following table summarizes the main features of each āshrama:

Āshrama	Meaning	Duration	Duties	Goals
Brahmacharya	Student	12 years or until completion of education	To study the Vedas and other sacred texts, to serve the teacher (guru), to observe celibacy and discipline	To acquire knowledge and skills for the next stage of life, to develop moral and spiritual values

Āshrama	Meaning	Duration	Duties	Goals
Gṛhastha	Householder	Until the age of 50 or the birth of the first grandchild	To marry and raise a family, to perform household and social duties, to earn wealth and enjoy pleasures in a lawful manner	To fulfill the worldly and material desires, to support the other three stages of life, to perform sacrifices and charity
Vanaprastha	Forest walker/forest dweller	Until the age of 75 or the detachment from worldly affairs	To retire from active life and hand over the responsibilities to the next generation, to withdraw to the forest or a secluded place, to practice meditation and self-discipline	To renounce the attachments and desires, to prepare for the final stage of life, to seek spiritual wisdom

Āshrama	Meaning	Duration	Duties	Goals
Sannyasa	Renunciate	Until the end of life or the attainment of liberation	To renounce all worldly possessions and relations, to wander as a mendicant or live in an ashram, to devote oneself to the supreme reality	To realize the ultimate truth, to attain liberation from the cycle of birth and death, to merge with the supreme reality

- A possible mnemonic to remember the four āshramas is: **B**e a **S**tudent, **G**et a **H**ouse, **V**isit the **F**orest, **S**eeK **R**elease.
- A possible learning trick to remember the order of the four āshramas is: The first letter of each āshrama is the same as the first letter of the corresponding stage of life in English. For example, **B**rahmacharya corresponds to **B**eing a student, **G**ṛhastha corresponds to **G**etting a house, and so on.

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

- Marriage was considered a sacred duty and a social obligation in ancient India. It was not only a union of two individuals, but also of two families and two lineages.
- The main purpose of marriage was to ensure the continuity of the family and the caste, and to provide a suitable partner for the performance of religious and moral duties.
- The ideal age for marriage was 16 for girls and 25 for boys. Child marriage was not prevalent in the Vedic period, but became common in later times.
- The choice of the partner was usually made by the parents or elders of the family, based on the compatibility of horoscopes, caste, social status, and family reputation. The consent of the bride and groom was not always necessary or sought.
- There were eight types of marriage recognized by the ancient lawgivers, ranging from the most honorable to the most dishonorable. They were:
 - **Brahma**: The bride was given by her father to a learned and virtuous groom after decking her with ornaments and clothes. This was the most respected form of marriage.

- **Daiva:** The bride was given by her father to a priest as a fee for performing a sacrifice. This was considered inferior to Brahma, as it implied that the bride was not worthy of a suitable groom.
 - **Arsha:** The bride was given by her father to a sage or a rishi after receiving a cow and a bull from him. This was also considered inferior to Brahma, as it implied that the bride was sold for a price.
 - **Prajapatya:** The bride was given by her father to the groom with a blessing that they should perform their duties together. This was similar to Brahma, but without any ornaments or clothes for the bride.
 - **Gandharva:** The bride and groom married each other by mutual consent and love, without the involvement of their families. This was considered a marriage of passion and romance, but not of duty or respect.
 - **Asura:** The bride was bought by the groom from her father or guardian by paying money or gifts. This was considered a marriage of force and greed, and was condemned by the lawgivers.
 - **Rakshasa:** The bride was abducted by the groom from her family by force or deception, and married after subduing her resistance. This was considered a marriage of violence and cruelty, and was also condemned by the lawgivers.
 - **Paisacha:** The bride was seduced by the groom while she was asleep, intoxicated, or insane, and married without her consent or knowledge. This was considered the most sinful and shameful form of marriage, and was punishable by death.
- The most common forms of marriage in ancient India were Brahma, Daiva, Arsha, and Prajapatya. Gandharva was also practiced by some people, especially the kshatriyas (warriors) and the gandharvas (celestial musicians). Asura, Rakshasa, and Paisacha were rare and despised forms of marriage, and were usually resorted to by the lower castes or the enemies of the bride's family.
 - The marriage ceremony was a solemn and elaborate affair, involving various rituals and rites. Some of the main steps were:
 - **Vivaha-sankalpa:** The formal declaration of the intention to marry by the bride's father or guardian and the groom's father or guardian.
 - **Kanya-dana:** The gift of the bride by her father or guardian to the groom, symbolizing the transfer of her guardianship and responsibility.
 - **Panigrahana:** The holding of the bride's hand by the groom, symbolizing their union and acceptance.
 - **Saptapadi:** The taking of seven steps by the bride and groom around the sacred fire, symbolizing their vows and commitments to each other.
 - **Homa:** The offering of oblations to the fire, invoking the blessings

of various gods and goddesses.

- **Ashirvada:** The blessing of the newly married couple by the priests, elders, and relatives.
- The marriage was considered complete and valid after the saptapadi, and the bride and groom became husband and wife. They were expected to live together in harmony and fidelity, and to perform their respective duties as householders.
- The status and role of women in ancient India varied according to the period, region, caste, and class. In general, women were subordinate to men, and had limited rights and freedoms. They were expected to be obedient, loyal, chaste, and devoted to their husbands and families. They were also expected to be virtuous, modest, gentle, and

Understanding Gender as a social category in Society in Ancient India

- Gender is a social category that refers to the roles, expectations and norms associated with being male or female in a given society.
- In ancient India, gender roles were not fixed or rigid, but varied according to different contexts, such as class, caste, religion, region and time period.
- In general, ancient India's society greatly favored men over women, and women were often subordinate to men in terms of rights, status and opportunities. For instance, when a mother was going to give birth, everyone hoped that the baby would turn out to be a boy.
- However, there were also some exceptions and variations in this patriarchal pattern. For example, in the Vedic period (1500-600 BCE), women were considered with respect and dignity, and some of them were even scholars, poets and philosophers. There were women rishis (sages) who composed hymns in the Rig Veda, such as Gargi, Maitreyi and Lopamudra .
- In the later periods, such as the Mauryan (321-185 BCE) and the Gupta (320-550 CE) periods, women's status declined and they faced more restrictions and discrimination. They were expected to be obedient, loyal and devoted to their husbands and families, and to follow the norms of pativrata (chaste wife) and sati (self-immolation of widows). They were also denied access to education, property and public life.
- However, even in these periods, there were some exceptions and variations in women's roles and rights. For example, some women were able to participate in religious or philosophical debates, such as the Buddhist nun Bhadda Kundalakesa and the Jain scholar Mallibai. Some women were also able to rule or influence political affairs, such as the Mauryan empress Asoka's daughter Sanghamitra and the Gupta queen Kumaradevi.
- Therefore, gender as a social category in ancient India was not a monolithic or static concept, but a dynamic and diverse one, that changed according to different factors and circumstances. Women in ancient India faced many challenges and inequalities, but they also had some opportunities

and achievements, depending on their social and historical context.

The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India were not a homogeneous group, but had diverse experiences and roles depending on the time period, region, class, caste, religion and culture.
- In general, women in ancient India enjoyed high status and respect in the early Vedic period (1500-1000 BCE), where they were considered as equal partners of men in performing religious rites and ceremonies, and had access to education and property rights .
- However, women's status and freedom gradually declined in the later Vedic period (1000-600 BCE) and the post-Vedic period (600 BCE-300 CE), where they were subjected to patriarchal norms and restrictions, such as the subordination to their husbands and fathers, the prohibition of widow remarriage, the practice of sati (self-immolation of widows on their husband's funeral pyre), the enforcement of strict codes of purity and chastity, and the denial of education and inheritance rights .
- Women's condition further deteriorated in the classical period (300-1200 CE), where they were confined to the domestic sphere and had limited social and economic opportunities. They were also exploited and oppressed by various institutions and practices, such as child marriage, polygamy, prostitution, devadasi system (dedication of young girls to temples as servants of gods), and the Manusmriti (a legal text that prescribed harsh punishments and discriminations for women) .
- Women's representation in the historical traditions of ancient India was also influenced by the dominant religious and cultural ideologies of the time, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Islam. Each of these traditions had different views and values regarding women's roles and rights, and some of them offered alternative spaces and opportunities for women to express themselves and participate in society .
- For example, Hinduism had a complex and contradictory attitude towards women, where they were revered as goddesses and mothers, but also despised as temptresses and sinners. Hinduism also had a variety of female figures and role models, such as Sita (the ideal wife of Rama), Draupadi (the heroic wife of the Pandavas), Savitri (the loyal wife who saved her husband from death), Gargi (the learned female sage who debated with Yajnavalkya), and Mirabai (the devotional poet and saint who defied social norms).
- Buddhism and Jainism, on the other hand, offered more egalitarian and liberating views on women, where they were considered as capable of attaining enlightenment and salvation as men, and were allowed to join the

monastic orders and become nuns and teachers. However, they also faced some challenges and prejudices within these traditions, such as the inferiority complex, the eight special rules (garudhammas) that regulated their conduct and status, and the denial of full ordination and leadership roles.

- Islam, which arrived in India in the 8th century CE, had a mixed impact on women's condition and representation. On one hand, it introduced some reforms and rights for women, such as the prohibition of female infanticide, the recognition of women's consent in marriage, the provision of dowry and maintenance, and the right to divorce and inheritance. On the other hand, it also imposed some restrictions and regulations on women, such as the veil (purdah), the segregation (zenana), the polygamy, and the sharia law.
- A possible mnemonic to remember the main points of this topic is:

WISH - Women in ancient India had diverse experiences and roles depending on the time period, region, class, caste, religion and culture.

VCD - Women's status and freedom gradually declined from the Vedic period to the Classical period.

HBJI - Women's representation in the historical traditions was influenced by the dominant religious and cultural ideologies of Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Islam.

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India did not share an equal position with men. They were recognised only as wives and mothers. Their position was as subordinate to men.
- Women had limited economic freedom and were dependent on their husbands or fathers for their livelihood. They were not allowed to inherit property or engage in trade. They were also expected to perform domestic duties and obey their husbands.
- Women had restricted access to education and religious knowledge. They were not allowed to study the Vedas or participate in rituals. They were also discouraged from reading or writing. Only a few women, such as Gargi and Maitreyi, were exceptions to this rule.
- Women had to follow strict social norms and customs that restricted their mobility and autonomy. They had to observe purdah (veil), sati (self-immolation of widows), child marriage, polygamy, and dowry. They were also subjected to violence and harassment from their husbands or in-laws.
- Women had little or no voice in political or social affairs. They were excluded from the public sphere and had no say in the matters of state or community. They were also denied the right to vote or participate in elections.

A possible mnemonic to remember these challenges is:

Wives and mothers only

Economic dependence

Restricted education and religion

Social norms and customs

Excluded from politics and society

W.E.R.S.E. - Women's challenges in ancient India were worse than men's.

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

- The four-class classification of society in ancient India is also known as the **varna system** or the **caturvarnya**.
- It is a system of social stratification that divided the people into four classes based on their **vocation** or **profession**.
- The four classes were:
 - **Brahmins**: the priests, scholars, teachers, and gurus who performed religious rituals and imparted knowledge.
 - **Kshatriyas**: the kings, warriors, rulers, administrators, and protectors who maintained law and order and defended the society from external threats.
 - **Vaishyas**: the cattle herders, agriculturists, artisans, merchants, and traders who produced and distributed goods and services.
 - **Shudras**: the laborers, servants, and workers who performed menial and manual tasks for the other classes.
- The varna system was based on the concept of **dharma** or duty, which prescribed different sets of obligations and responsibilities for each class.
- The varna system was also influenced by the concept of **karma** or action, which determined the status and rebirth of a person according to their deeds in their previous life.
- The varna system was not rigid or fixed, but allowed for some mobility and flexibility based on individual merit, education, and occupation.
- The varna system was not the same as the **caste system** or **jati**, which was a later development that divided the society into thousands of sub-groups based on birth, lineage, occupation, and region.
- A possible mnemonic to remember the four classes is **Be Kind Very Soon**, where the first letter of each word corresponds to the first letter of each class.
- A possible learning trick to remember the four classes is to use a table like this:

Class	Vocation	Example
Brahmin	Priest	Guru
Kshatriya	Warrior	King
Vaishya	Merchant	Farmer
Shudra	Laborer	Servant

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- Slavery in ancient India was a complex and varied phenomenon that involved different types of servitude, bondage and exploitation of various groups of people.
- The earliest evidence of slavery in India comes from the Rig Veda, which mentions the non-Aryan enemies of the Aryans as Dasyu and Dasa, who were captured and enslaved in war. The term Dasa later came to mean a domestic servant or a slave in general.
- The Smritis and other Hindu law books provide more details about the sources, types and conditions of slavery in ancient India. According to these texts, slaves could be obtained from various ways, such as conquest, debt, sale, gift, inheritance, kidnapping, self-sale, birth and punishment.
- The types of slaves included agricultural workers, domestic servants, artisans, concubines, entertainers, soldiers, officials and eunuchs. Some slaves were attached to temples, monasteries, royal households or feudal lords, while others were privately owned by individuals or families.
- The conditions of slavery varied depending on the status, occupation and gender of the slaves. Some slaves enjoyed certain privileges and rights, such as receiving wages, owning property, marrying, having children, being freed or manumitted, and even rising to high positions in society. For example, the Slave dynasty of Delhi was founded by Qutb al-Din Aibak, a former slave of Muhammad of Ghur.
- Other slaves, however, faced harsh and oppressive treatment, such as being exploited, abused, tortured, mutilated, sold, branded, castrated or killed. Women and children were especially vulnerable to sexual violence and exploitation by their masters or others.
- Slavery in ancient India was not based on racial or ethnic differences, but rather on social, economic and political factors. Slaves could belong to any caste, religion or region, although some groups were more prone to enslavement than others, such as the low castes, the tribals, the foreigners and the prisoners of war.
- Slavery in ancient India was also influenced by the religious and cultural norms of the society. Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism and Islam had different views and rules regarding slavery, which affected the treatment and status of the slaves. For example, Hinduism prescribed certain duties and obligations for both the masters and the slaves, and also advocated the liberation of slaves as a meritorious act. Buddhism and Jainism denounced slavery as a form of violence and advocated compassion and non-violence

towards all living beings. Islam allowed slavery, but also imposed certain restrictions and regulations on the acquisition, treatment and emancipation of slaves, and also encouraged the freeing of slaves as a charitable deed.

- Slavery in ancient India declined gradually with the changes in the political, social and economic conditions of the society. The rise of feudalism, the emergence of new classes and castes, the expansion of trade and commerce, the growth of urbanization and the spread of education and culture reduced the demand and supply of slaves in India. The abolition of slavery by the British colonial authorities in the 19th century marked the end of this institution in India.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for remembering the main points of this topic are:

- DASA: Dasa was the term for slave in ancient India, and it also stands for the four main sources of slavery: Debt, Acquisition (by conquest, gift, etc.), Self-sale and Ancestry (by birth, inheritance, etc.).
- PETS: PETS are the four main types of slaves in ancient India: Peasants (agricultural workers), Entertainers (concubines, musicians, etc.), Troops (soldiers, officials, etc.) and Servants (domestic, temple, etc.).
- RACE: RACE is the four main factors that influenced slavery in ancient India: Religion, Administration (political and legal system), Culture and Economy.

Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices

- Indian literature is one of the oldest and richest in the world, spanning across various languages, genres, and periods. It reflects the diversity and complexity of Indian culture, tradition, and practices.
- Some of the major features of Indian literature are:
 - It is influenced by various sources, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the epics, the Puranas, the Bhakti movement, the Islamic invasion, the colonial rule, the modernization, and the independence movement.
 - It is written in various languages, such as Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, Tamil, Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Marathi, Gujarati, Kannada, Telugu, Malayalam, and English.
 - It covers various genres, such as poetry, drama, prose, fiction, non-fiction, biography, autobiography, essay, criticism, and translation.
 - It expresses various themes, such as religion, philosophy, ethics, morality, social issues, political issues, historical issues, cultural issues, and personal issues.
 - It employs various styles, such as oral, written, classical, folk, modern, postmodern, realistic, romantic, symbolic, allegorical, and experimental.

- Some of the major works and authors of Indian literature are:
 - The Vedas, the Upanishads, the Ramayana, and the Mahabharata are the ancient scriptures and epics that form the foundation of Indian literature and culture. They contain the spiritual, philosophical, ethical, and cultural wisdom of the ancient Indians.
 - Kalidasa, Bharavi, Bhasa, Ashvaghosha, and Banabhatta are some of the classical Sanskrit poets and dramatists who wrote masterpieces such as *Abhijnanashakuntalam*, *Kiratarjuniya*, *Swapnavasavadatta*, *Buddhacharita*, and *Kadambari*. They enriched the Indian literature with their poetic beauty, dramatic skill, and literary elegance.
 - Thiruvalluvar, Andal, Nammalvar, and Manikkavachakar are some of the Tamil poets and saints who wrote works such as *Thirukkural*, *Thiruppavai*, *Thiruvaimozhi*, and *Thiruvagasam*. They contributed to the Indian literature with their devotional, ethical, and social teachings.
 - Kabir, Tulsidas, Surdas, Mirabai, and Guru Nanak are some of the Hindi and Punjabi poets and saints who wrote works such as *Dohas*, *Ramcharitmanas*, *Sur Sagar*, *Bhajans*, and *Japji Sahib*. They influenced the Indian literature with their bhakti, or devotion, to God and humanity.
 - Amir Khusrau, Mir Taqi Mir, Mirza Ghalib, and Allama Iqbal are some of the Urdu and Persian poets and scholars who wrote works such as *Khamsa*, *Ghazals*, *Diwan*, and *Shikwa*. They enriched the Indian literature with their lyrical, mystical, and patriotic expressions.
 - Rabindranath Tagore, Bankim Chandra Chattopadhyay, Sarat Chandra Chattopadhyay, and Kazi Nazrul Islam are some of the Bengali writers and poets who wrote works such as *Gitanjali*, *Anandamath*, *Devdas*, and *Bidrohi*. They shaped the Indian literature with their artistic, nationalistic, and revolutionary visions.
 - Mahatma Gandhi, Jawaharlal Nehru, R.K. Narayan, Mulk Raj Anand, and Raja Rao are some of the English writers and leaders who wrote works such as *My Experiments with Truth*, *The Discovery of India*, *Malgudi Days*, *Untouchable*, and *Kanthapura*. They influenced the Indian literature with their autobiographical, historical, fictional, and social perspectives.
 - Munshi Premchand, Sharat Chandra Bose, Bhisham Sahni, and Mahadevi Varma are some of the Hindi writers and poets who wrote works such as *Godan*, *Parineeta*, *Tamas*, and *Yama*. They contributed to the Indian literature with their realistic, romantic, tragic, and feminist portrayals.
 - Nandalal Bose, Jamini Roy, Raja Ravi Varma, and M.F. Husain are some of the Indian painters and artists who created works such as *Shantiniketan Murals*, *Kalighat Paintings*, *Shakuntala*, and *Bharat Mata*. They expressed the Indian culture, tradition, and practices through their artistic styles and themes.

Evolution of script in India

- A script is a written symbolisation of speech. A language is a method of communication. A script refers to a collection of characters used to write one or more languages .
- India has a long history of writing. The ancient Hindu scriptures, the Vedas, were composed orally and transmitted orally for centuries before being written down.
- The earliest known scripts in India are the Indus script, which is still undeciphered, and the Brahmi script, which is the ancestor of most modern Indian scripts .
- The Brahmi script was developed under Semitic influence around the 7th century BC and was originally written from left to right. It was used to write various languages, such as Prakrit, Sanskrit, Pali, and Tamil.
- The Brahmi script evolved into different regional variants over time, depending on the culture, region, and medium of writing . Some of the factors that influenced the evolution of Brahmi script are:
 - The use of monumental inscriptions versus the use of manuscripts. Monumental inscriptions required more angular and rigid shapes, while manuscripts allowed more cursive and rounded shapes .
 - The use of palm leaves versus the use of paper. Palm leaves required more rounded and smooth shapes, while paper allowed more angular and sharp shapes .
 - The phonetic and grammatical features of the languages. Different languages had different sounds and rules, which required the addition, modification, or deletion of some characters in the script .
- Some of the major scripts that developed from Brahmi are:
 - Kharosthi: A script that was used in northwest India and Central Asia from the 3rd century BC to the 4th century AD. It was derived from Aramaic script and was written from right to left .
 - Devanagari: A script that is used to write Hindi, Sanskrit, Marathi, Nepali, and other languages. It is the most widely used script in India and is written from left to right. It developed from the Gupta script, a variant of Brahmi, around the 7th century AD .
 - Bengali: A script that is used to write Bengali, Assamese, and other languages. It is written from left to right and developed from the Siddham script, a variant of Brahmi, around the 10th century AD .
 - Tamil: A script that is used to write Tamil, Malayalam, and other languages. It is written from left to right and developed from the Vatteluttu script, a variant of Brahmi, around the 7th century AD .
 - Kannada: A script that is used to write Kannada, Telugu, and other languages. It is written from left to right and developed from the Kadamba script, a variant of Brahmi, around the 5th century AD .
 - Gurumukhi: A script that is used to write Punjabi and other languages. It is written from left to right and developed from the Landa script, a variant of Brahmi, around the 16th century AD .

- The evolution of Brahmi into so many scripts over time in India shows the diversity and richness of the Indian culture and languages. It also shows the awareness and adaptation of the scribes and writers to the changing needs and preferences of the society.

Evolution of languages in India

- India is a multilingual country with over 780 languages spoken by its people.
- The languages of India belong to four major language families: Indo-Aryan, Dravidian, Austroasiatic and Sino-Tibetan.
- The Indo-Aryan languages are derived from the Indo-European languages that were brought to India by the Indo-Aryan migrations around 1500 BCE. They are spoken by about 75% of the population and include Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Marathi, Gujarati, Punjabi, etc.
- The Dravidian languages are the native languages of South India and are spoken by about 20% of the population. They include Tamil, Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam, etc. They have no known genetic relation to the Indo-Aryan languages, but have been influenced by them through contact and cultural exchange.
- The Austroasiatic languages are spoken by about 1.2% of the population, mostly in the eastern and central regions of India. They include Santali, Munda, Khasi, etc. They are related to the languages of Southeast Asia and have been in India since the Neolithic period.
- The Sino-Tibetan languages are spoken by about 1.4% of the population, mostly in the northeastern and Himalayan regions of India. They include Meitei, Bodo, Tibetan, etc. They are related to the languages of China and have been in India since the first millennium BCE.
- The languages of India have evolved over time due to various factors such as migration, invasion, trade, colonization, religion, education, etc. They have borrowed words, grammar, and scripts from each other and from foreign languages such as Sanskrit, Persian, Arabic, Portuguese, English, etc .
- Some of the languages of India have been recognized as classical languages by the government of India for their ancient and rich literary heritage. They are Tamil, Sanskrit, Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam and Odia.
- Some of the languages of India have also been given the status of official languages by the constitution of India or by the states and union territories. They are Hindi, English, Assamese, Bengali, Gujarati, Kannada, Kashmiri, Konkani, Malayalam, Manipuri, Marathi, Nepali, Odia, Punjabi, Sanskrit, Sindhi, Tamil, Telugu and Urdu.

: Tracing evolution of India's rich linguistic history | Deccan Herald

Languages of India - New World Encyclopedia

How India changed the English language - BBC Culture

Linguistic history of India - Wikipedia

Harappan Script

- The Harappan script, also known as the Indus script, is a corpus of symbols produced by the Indus Valley Civilisation, which flourished in the northwest of the Indian subcontinent from c. 2500 to 1900 BCE.
- The script is found on seals, tablets, pottery, copper plates and other artefacts, mostly in the Indus cities of Harappa and Mohenjo-daro.
- The script has not been deciphered yet, and therefore the language(s) it represents is unknown . Some scholars have suggested that it was a logo-syllabic system, where some symbols expressed ideas or words while others represented sounds.
- The script consists of about 400 signs, which vary in shape, size and orientation . Some signs are pictographic, depicting animals, plants, human forms and objects . Others are geometric, such as circles, squares, triangles and lines .
- The script was written from right to left, as evidenced by the direction of the animal motifs on the seals. Most inscriptions are very short, consisting of four or five signs on average . The longest inscription has 26 signs.
- The script may have been used for various purposes, such as recording trade transactions, religious rituals, personal names, titles, dates, or messages . However, the exact meaning and function of the script remains a mystery.

: https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Indus_script <https://nashikcorporation.in/discussion/the-harappan-script-was-written-from/>
<https://www.britannica.com/topic/Harappan-script>
https://www.worldhistory.org/Indus_Script/

Brahmi Script

- Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script. It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi.
- Brahmi script is an abugida, which means that each consonant has an inherent vowel sound, and that vowel can be modified by adding diacritical marks. The vowel sound can also be suppressed by adding a virama sign. For example, the letter (ka) can be modified to (ki), (ku), (ke), (ko), etc. by adding different vowel marks. To write (k), a virama sign is added below the letter.
- Brahmi script is written from left to right, and has a basic set of 33 consonants and 12 vowels. The consonants are arranged in a logical order, based on the place and manner of articulation. The vowels are also arranged in a logical order, based on the height and backness of the tongue. For example, the consonants (ña), (ñā), (ṇa), (ṇā), and (ma) are

all nasal sounds, and are grouped together. The vowels (a), (ā), (i), (ī), (u), and (ū) are all short and long pairs, and are grouped together.

- Brahmi script has several regional and historical variants, such as Kharosthi, Gupta, Siddham, and Sharada. Some of these variants have different shapes, forms, and numbers of letters, but they all share the same basic principles of Brahmi script. Some of these variants also influenced the development of other scripts, such as Tibetan, Thai, and Khmer.
- Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations. For example, the 10th chapter of the Lalitavistara Sūtra (c. 200-300 CE), titled the Lipisala samdarshana parivarta, lists 64 lipi (scripts), with the Brahmi script starting the list.
- Brahmi script is also the source of many inscriptions, coins, seals, and manuscripts, dating from the 3rd century BCE to the 6th century CE. Some of the most famous inscriptions in Brahmi script are the edicts of Ashoka, the king of the Mauryan Empire, who ruled most of South Asia from 268 to 232 BCE. The edicts contain his messages of dhamma (righteousness), and are found in various locations across India, Nepal, Pakistan, Afghanistan, and Bangladesh.
- Brahmi script is a valuable source of historical, linguistic, and cultural information, as it records the names, titles, dates, events, beliefs, and practices of various people and dynasties in ancient India and beyond. It also reflects the diversity and dynamism of the Indian subcontinent, as it shows the interaction and influence of different languages, religions, and regions.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the Brahmi script are:

- To remember the order of the consonants, use the acronym VARGA, which stands for Velar, Retroflex, Dental, Labial, and Approximant. These are the five main categories of consonants in Brahmi script, based on the place of articulation. For example, the velar consonants are (ka), (kha), (ga), (gha), and (ña), and they are written with a vertical stroke on the left side.
- To remember the order of the vowels, use the acronym AIUEO, which stands for A, I, U, E, and O. These are the five main vowels in Brahmi script, based on the height and backness of the tongue. For example, the vowel (a) is written with a horizontal stroke on the top, and the vowel (i) is written with a dot on the left side.
- To remember the shapes of the letters, use visual associations or stories that relate to the sounds. For example, the letter (ca) looks like a cat, and the letter (ja) looks like a jar. The letter (da) looks like a door

The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India .
- The Vedas are composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism .
- The word Veda means “knowledge” in Sanskrit, as the Vedas are thought to contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence .
- The Vedas are divided into four collections: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda .
- Each Veda consists of four parts: the Samhitas (hymns), the Brahmanas (rituals), the Aranyakas (forest texts) and the Upanishads (philosophy) .
- The Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day. All the obligatory duties of Hindus at birth, marriage, death etc. are guided by Vedic rituals.
- The Vedas are considered to be revealed by the gods to the sages (rishis), who transmitted them orally to their disciples. The Vedas were preserved by oral tradition for centuries before being written down .
- The Vedas are regarded as the highest authority in Hinduism and the source of all dharma (moral law) .

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the Vedas are:

- To remember the four Vedas, use the acronym RYSA (Rig, Yajur, Sama, Atharva).
- To remember the four parts of each Veda, use the acronym SUBA (Samhita, Upanishad, Brahmana, Aranyaka).
- To remember the meaning of the word Veda, use the phrase “Veda is knowledge”.
- To remember the origin of the Vedas, use the phrase “Vedas are from the gods to the sages”.

The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are ancient Hindu scriptures that explore the nature of reality, the self, and the supreme being.
- The word Upanishad means “to sit down near” or “to sit close to”, implying the transmission of knowledge from a teacher to a student.
- The Upanishads are considered the end or the essence of the Vedas, the oldest and most authoritative Hindu texts. They are also known as Vedanta, meaning “the end of the Veda”.
- There are more than 200 Upanishads, but only 13 are considered the principal or the most important ones. They are: Isa, Kena, Katha, Prasna, Mundaka, Mandukya, Taittiriya, Aitareya, Chandogya, Brhadaranyaka, Svetasvatara, Kausitaki, and Maitri.
- The Upanishads are composed in Sanskrit and date from around the 8th

to the 6th century BCE, although some may be later additions or interpolations.

- The Upanishads are not systematic or coherent treatises, but rather dialogues, stories, poems, and aphorisms that reveal various aspects of the ultimate reality, called Brahman, and the individual self, called Atman.
- The Upanishads teach that Brahman is the source, the sustainer, and the essence of everything that exists. Brahman is not a personal god, but a transcendent and immanent reality that is beyond description or definition.
- The Upanishads also teach that Atman is the true self of every living being, and that it is identical with Brahman. The individual self is not the body, the mind, or the ego, but the pure consciousness that witnesses them.
- The Upanishads assert that the realization of the identity of Atman and Brahman is the highest goal of human life, and that it leads to liberation from the cycle of birth and death, called samsara. This realization is achieved through various methods, such as meditation, ethical conduct, self-inquiry, and devotion.
- The Upanishads have influenced many schools of Hindu philosophy, such as Advaita Vedanta, Vishishtadvaita Vedanta, Dvaita Vedanta, and Yoga. They have also inspired many thinkers and writers from other traditions, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, and Western philosophy.

The Ramayana

- The Ramayana is a Hindu epic that narrates the life and adventures of Rama, the prince of Kosala, and his wife Sita.
- The Ramayana is composed of seven books, or kandas, that span from Rama's birth to his ascension to the throne after defeating the demon king Ravana.
- The Ramayana is one of the two major epics of India, along with the Mahabharata, and has influenced the culture, literature, art, and religion of India and other countries in Asia.
- The Ramayana is attributed to the sage Valmiki, who is said to have composed it based on the oral tradition and the divine inspiration of the god Brahma.
- The Ramayana has many versions and adaptations in different languages and regions, but the most widely accepted one is the Valmiki Ramayana, which consists of about 24,000 verses in Sanskrit.

Summary of the Ramayana

- The first book, or Bala Kanda, introduces the main characters and the setting of the story. Rama is the eldest son of King Dasaratha of Kosala, and is the incarnation of the god Vishnu. He has three brothers: Bharata, Lakshmana, and Shatrughna. Rama is married to Sita, the daughter of

King Janaka of Mithila, who is the incarnation of the goddess Lakshmi. Rama wins Sita's hand by breaking the bow of Shiva, a feat that no one else could accomplish.

- The second book, or Ayodhya Kanda, depicts the events that lead to Rama's exile. Dasaratha decides to crown Rama as his successor, but his second wife Kaikeyi, who is influenced by her maid Manthara, demands that her son Bharata be made king instead, and that Rama be banished for fourteen years. Dasaratha reluctantly agrees, and Rama leaves for the forest with Sita and Lakshmana, his loyal brother. Bharata refuses to accept the throne, and goes to the forest to persuade Rama to return, but Rama insists on obeying his father's command. Bharata takes Rama's sandals and places them on the throne as a symbol of his authority, and vows to rule as Rama's regent until he comes back.
- The third book, or Aranya Kanda, describes Rama's life in the forest and his encounter with the demons. Rama, Sita, and Lakshmana wander from one hermitage to another, meeting sages and performing rites. They also face many attacks from the rakshasas, or demons, who are the enemies of the gods and the sages. The most notable of these is Surpanakha, the sister of Ravana, who tries to seduce Rama and Lakshmana, but is rejected and mutilated by them. She then incites her brothers Khara and Dushana to avenge her, but they are killed by Rama. Surpanakha then goes to Ravana and tells him about Sita's beauty, and urges him to abduct her.
- The fourth book, or Kishkindha Kanda, narrates Rama's alliance with the monkey king Sugriva and his search for Sita. Rama and Lakshmana reach the kingdom of Kishkindha, where they meet Hanuman, the faithful servant of Sugriva. Sugriva is the rightful king of the monkeys, but he has been ousted by his brother Vali, who has also taken his wife. Rama agrees to help Sugriva regain his throne and his wife, in exchange for his assistance in finding Sita. Rama kills Vali with a single arrow, and Sugriva becomes the king. He then sends his monkey army to search for Sita in all directions. Hanuman, along with Angada, the son of Vali, and Jambavan, the king of the bears, go to the south, where they learn from a vulture named Sampati that Sita is in Lanka, the island fortress of Ravana. Hanuman then leaps across the ocean and reaches Lanka, where he finds Sita in a grove, guarded by demonesses. He gives her Rama's ring as a token, and assures her that Rama will come to rescue her. He also sets fire to Lanka, after killing some of Ravana's generals and ministers, and returns to Rama with the news of Sita's whereabouts.
- The

The Mahabharata

- The Mahabharata is one of the two major Sanskrit epics of India, along with the Ramayana. It is valued for its literary merit and its religious inspiration. It is regarded as both a historical account of Hinduism's birth and a code of ethics for the faithful .

- The Mahabharata tells the story of the struggle for supremacy between two groups of cousins, the Kauravas and the Pandavas, who belong to the Kuru dynasty. The Kauravas are the sons of Dhrtarastra, the blind king of Hastinapura, and the Pandavas are the sons of Pandu, his younger brother who renounced the throne due to a curse .
- The main plot of the Mahabharata revolves around the Kurukshetra War, a great war that lasted for 18 days and involved many kingdoms and allies on both sides. The war was triggered by the Kauravas' refusal to share the kingdom with the Pandavas, who were exiled for 13 years after losing a dice game. The war ended with the victory of the Pandavas, but also with the death of many heroes and the destruction of families and social order .
- The Mahabharata is not just a war story, but also a collection of many sub-stories, legends, myths, and philosophical discourses that explore various aspects of human life, such as duty, morality, justice, love, loyalty, friendship, fate, free will, and spirituality. Some of the most famous episodes in the Mahabharata include the Bhagavad Gita, a dialogue between the Pandava prince Arjuna and the god Krishna on the eve of the war; the Churning of the Ocean, a mythological account of how the gods and demons obtained the nectar of immortality; the Sabha Parva, a description of the magnificent hall built by the Pandavas and the events that led to their exile; and the Saughtika Parva, a gruesome account of how the Kauravas' survivors killed the Pandavas' sleeping army on the last night of the war .
- The Mahabharata is a very long and complex work, consisting of about 74,000 verses divided into 18 books, plus some additional material. The original authorship of the Mahabharata is attributed to the sage Vyasa, who is also a character in the story. However, the Mahabharata is also the result of centuries of oral transmission, interpolation, and redaction by various poets and scribes. The oldest parts of the Mahabharata date back to the 4th or 3rd century BCE, while the final form of the text was probably completed by the 4th century CE .
- The Mahabharata is a rich and diverse source of cultural, religious, and literary inspiration for Hindus and non-Hindus alike. It has been translated, adapted, and retold in many languages and media, such as drama, dance, film, television, comics, and novels. It has also influenced the art, architecture, sculpture, and painting of India and other countries. The Mahabharata is considered to be one of the greatest epics in world literature and a masterpiece of Indian civilization .

Puranas

- Puranas are a vast genre of Indian literature that contain stories, legends, myths, cosmology, genealogy, ethics, rituals, and other topics related to Hinduism .
- Puranas are considered as the fifth Veda, after the four Vedas (Rig, Yajur, Sama, and Atharva), and are part of the Smriti (remembered) tradition .

- Puranas are classified into two categories: Mahapuranas (major Puranas) and Upapuranas (minor Puranas). There are 18 Mahapuranas and 18 Upapuranas, although some sources mention more or less .
- Each Purana is devoted to a particular deity, such as Vishnu, Shiva, Brahma, Ganesha, Shakti, etc., and narrates their stories, attributes, incarnations, and worship methods .
- Puranas also contain information about the creation and destruction of the universe, the cycles of time (yugas), the dynasties of kings and sages, the holy places and rivers, the festivals and ceremonies, and the moral and spiritual teachings .
- Puranas are written in Sanskrit verse, but some of them have been translated into other languages, such as Tamil, Telugu, Kannada, etc. Puranas are also the source of many popular stories and characters in Indian culture, such as the Dashavatara of Vishnu, the Shiva-Parvati romance, the churning of the ocean of milk, etc .
- Puranas are not meant to be taken literally, but rather symbolically and allegorically. They are meant to convey the essence of Hindu philosophy and spirituality through stories and narratives that appeal to the common people .

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the Puranas are:

- To remember the names of the 18 Mahapuranas, one can use the acronym **VBSPLNSMAGBMSKVNLP**. Each letter stands for the first letter of a Purana, such as V for Vishnu Purana, B for Bhagavata Purana, S for Shiva Purana, etc .
- To remember the five subjects or signs (pancha-lakshana) of the Puranas, one can use the acronym **SCGMR**. Each letter stands for the first letter of a subject, such as S for sarga (primary creation), C for pratisarga (secondary creation), G for vamsha (genealogy), M for manvantara (reigns of Manus), and R for vamshanucharita (history of dynasties).
- To remember the classification of the Puranas according to the three modes of nature (guna), one can use the table below. The three modes are sattva (goodness), rajas (passion), and tamas (ignorance). Each mode is associated with a set of six Puranas that glorify a particular deity .

Mode	Deity	Puranas
Sattva	Vishnu	Vishnu, Bhagavata, Narada, Garuda, Padma, Varaha
Rajas	Brahma	Brahma, Brahmanda, Brahma-vaivarta, Markandeya, Bhavishya, Vamana
Tamas	Shiva	Shiva, Linga, Skanda, Agni, Matsya, Kurma

Buddhist Literature in Pali,Prakrit And Sanskrit

- Buddhist literature is the collection of writings that preserve the teachings and traditions of Buddhism in various languages and genres.
- Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit are three of the most important languages in which Buddhist literature was composed and transmitted in ancient and medieval India.
- Pali is an old Prakrit dialect that combines several regional dialects. It is said that Lord Buddha delivered his sermons in Pali, and they have been recorded in the same language. Pali is also the canonical language of Theravada Buddhism, the dominant school of Buddhism in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia.
- Prakrit is a generic term for any language that differs from the mainstream Sanskrit. Prakrit languages such as Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi and Gandhari were spoken by various people and regions in India. Prakrit literature reflects the diversity and richness of the cultural and religious life of India. Prakrit literature includes both Buddhist and non-Buddhist works, such as dramas, poems, inscriptions, grammars and lexicons.
- Sanskrit is the classical and literary language of India, which was used by scholars, poets and religious authorities. Sanskrit literature encompasses a vast range of genres and themes, such as epics, myths, philosophy, law, science, art and aesthetics. Sanskrit literature also includes Buddhist works, especially of the Mahayana and Vajrayana schools, which developed new doctrines, practices and scriptures in Sanskrit.

Some of the main features and examples of Buddhist literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit are:

- Pali literature consists mainly of the Pali Canon, also known as the Tipitaka or the Three Baskets, which contains the authoritative scriptures of Theravada Buddhism. The Pali Canon is divided into three sections: the Vinaya Pitaka (the Basket of Discipline), which contains the rules and regulations for the monastic community; the Sutta Pitaka (the Basket of Discourses), which contains the sermons and dialogues of the Buddha and his disciples; and the Abhidhamma Pitaka (the Basket of Higher Teaching), which contains the systematic and analytical exposition of the Buddhist doctrine. Pali literature also includes commentaries, sub-commentaries, chronicles, biographies, poems and stories that explain and illustrate the teachings of the Pali Canon.
- Prakrit literature comprises a variety of texts that are either written in Prakrit languages or translated from other languages into Prakrit. Prakrit literature includes both canonical and non-canonical works of Buddhism, as well as secular and non-Buddhist works. Some of the canonical works of Buddhism in Prakrit are the Agamas, which are the counterparts of the Pali Suttas; the Jatakas, which are the stories of the previous lives of the Buddha; the Avadanas, which are the stories of the deeds and merits of the Buddha and his followers; and the Gandhari Dharmapada, which

is a collection of verses on ethics and wisdom. Some of the non-canonical works of Buddhism in Prakrit are the Asokan edicts, which are the inscriptions of the emperor Asoka, who patronized and propagated Buddhism; the Milindapanha, which is a dialogue between the Greek king Menander and the Buddhist monk Nagasena; and the Gathasaptasati, which is a collection of love poems attributed to the Buddhist nun Matrceta. Some of the secular and non-Buddhist works in Prakrit are the plays of Bhasa, Kalidasa and Sudraka, which depict the social and political life of ancient India; the Kavyadarsa, which is a treatise on poetics by Dandin; and the Prakrit Prakasa, which is a grammar of Prakrit languages by Vararuci.

- Sanskrit literature encompasses a vast and diverse body of texts that are either written in Sanskrit or translated from other languages into Sanskrit. Sanskrit literature includes both canonical and non-canonical works of Buddhism, as well as works of other religious and philosophical traditions. Some of the canonical works of Buddhism in Sanskrit are the Mahayana Sutras, which are the scriptures of the Mahayana school, which emphasize the ideal of the bodhisattva, the compassionate being who strives for the liberation of all sentient beings; the Tantras, which are the scriptures of the Vajrayana school, which employ esoteric methods and rituals to achieve enlightenment; and the Prajnaparamita S

Jain Literature in Pali,Prakrit And Sanskrit

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion, which is one of the oldest religions in India.
- Jain literature is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally by the teachers and disciples of the Jain faith.
- Jain literature can be broadly classified into two categories: canonical and non-canonical.
- Canonical literature consists of the sacred scriptures of the Jains, which are believed to contain the teachings of the Tirthankaras, the enlightened beings who founded the Jain path.
- Non-canonical literature consists of various works of literature, philosophy, history, art, science, and ethics, written by Jain monks, scholars, and poets over the centuries.
- Jain literature is written in various languages, such as Prakrit, Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, and others.
- Prakrit, Pali, and Sanskrit are the three main languages of Jain literature, which have influenced and enriched each other over time.
- Prakrit is a term used to refer to the vernacular languages that evolved from Sanskrit, the classical language of ancient India. Prakrit languages

were spoken by the common people and used for various purposes, such as administration, trade, and literature.

- Pali is a form of Prakrit that was used in the region of Magadha, where the Buddha and Mahavira, the 24th Tirthankara of Jainism, lived and preached. Pali became the main language of Buddhist literature, but it was also used by some Jain writers, especially in the early period.
- Sanskrit is the refined and standardized form of the ancient Indo-Aryan languages, which was used for religious, literary, and scientific purposes. Sanskrit was the language of the Brahmins, the priestly class of Hinduism, but it was also adopted by the Jains and the Buddhists, who composed many works in Sanskrit to reach a wider audience and to compete with the Hindu tradition.
- The canonical Jain literature is mostly written in Prakrit, especially in Ardhamagadhi, which was the language spoken by Mahavira and his followers. The canonical Jain literature consists of 45 texts, which are divided into two groups: the Angas and the Angabahas.
- The Angas are the 12 primary texts, which are considered to be the most authoritative and authentic sources of Jain doctrine and practice. The Angas include the Acharanga Sutra, the Sutrakritanga, the Sthananga Sutra, the Samavayanga Sutra, the Vyakhya Prajnapti, the Jnata Dharma Kathanga, the Upasaka Dashanga, the Antakriddasha, the Anuttaraupapattika, the Prashna Vyakarana, the Vipaka Sutra, and the Drishtivada.
- The Angabahas are the 34 secondary texts, which are considered to be supplementary and explanatory to the Angas. The Angabahas include the 12 Upangas, the 4 Mula Sutras, the 6 Cheda Sutras, the 2 Culika Sutras, the 10 Prakirnakas, and the Nandisutra.
- The canonical Jain literature is also known as the Agamas, which means “that which has come down”. The Jains believe that the Agamas were originally revealed by Mahavira and his immediate disciples, and were transmitted orally for several centuries, until they were compiled and written down by the council of Jain monks in the 5th century BCE.
- The canonical Jain literature is also known as the Shrut Jnana, which means “the knowledge that is heard”. The Jains consider the Shrut Jnana to be the highest form of knowledge, which can lead to liberation from the cycle of birth and death.
- The non-canonical Jain literature is written in various languages, such as Prakrit, Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, and others. The non-canonical Jain literature consists of various works of literature, philosophy, history, art, science, and ethics, written by Jain monks, scholars, and poets over the centuries.
- Some of the most prominent works of non-canonical Jain literature are:

- The Kalpa Sutra, a Prakrit text that narrates the life stories of the Tirthankaras, the rules of monastic conduct, and the history of the Jain community.

Kautilya's Arthashastra

- Kautilya's Arthashastra is a Sanskrit treatise on politics, economics, military strategy, and statecraft, attributed to Kautilya (also known as Chanakya or Vishnugupta), who was a professor at Taxila University and later the prime minister of the Mauryan Empire under Chandragupta Maurya (c. 321-c. 297 BCE).
- The Arthashastra is divided into 15 books, 150 chapters, and 180 topics, covering various aspects of governance, administration, diplomacy, war, law, taxation, trade, agriculture, industry, welfare, and ethics. It is considered one of the earliest and most comprehensive manuals on the art of politics and statecraft in the world.
- The Arthashastra reflects the political, social, and economic conditions of ancient India, as well as the worldview and values of Kautilya, who was influenced by Hinduism, Buddhism, and Jainism. It also incorporates elements of Greek, Persian, and Chinese thought and practices, as India was in contact with these civilizations during the Mauryan period.
- The Arthashastra advocates a pragmatic and utilitarian approach to politics and statecraft, based on the principle of artha (material gain or welfare). It emphasizes the need for a strong and centralized state, led by a wise and benevolent king, who is assisted by a loyal and efficient bureaucracy, and supported by a well-trained and disciplined army. It also prescribes various methods and techniques for maintaining internal order and external security, as well as for expanding the state's territory and influence through conquest or alliance.
- The Arthashastra also provides guidance on various aspects of public and private life, such as education, marriage, family, health, hygiene, agriculture, industry, trade, taxation, law, justice, and charity. It advocates a balance between the four goals of human life: dharma (duty or righteousness), artha (material gain or welfare), kama (pleasure or desire), and moksha (liberation or salvation). It also recognizes the diversity and complexity of human society, and accommodates different classes, castes, religions, and regions.
- The Arthashastra is a valuable source of information and insight into the political, social, and economic history of ancient India, as well as the intellectual and cultural heritage of Indian civilization. It is also relevant and applicable to the contemporary world, as it offers timeless principles and practical advice on various issues and challenges faced by modern states and societies.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the Arthashastra are:

- To remember the name and meaning of the treatise, think of ARTHA

(material gain or welfare) + SHAstra (science or manual).

- To remember the author and his other names, think of KAU (cow) + TILYA (sesame) = KAUTILYA, or CHAN (moon) + AKYA (famous) = CHANAKYA, or VISHNU (a Hindu god) + GUPTA (hidden or secret) = VISHNUGUPTA.
- To remember the number of books, chapters, and topics in the treatise, think of 15-150-180 as a sequence of multiples of 15, or as a pattern of adding and subtracting 30.
- To remember the four goals of human life, think of DAKM (duty, gain, pleasure, liberation) as an acronym, or as a word meaning “to give” in Hindi.
- To remember the main principle and approach of the treatise, think of PRAG (pragmatic and utilitarian) as an acronym, or as a word meaning “practical” in German.

Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

- Sanskrit is one of the oldest and most influential languages in India. It is the language of Hindu scriptures, classical literature, philosophy, and science. Sanskrit has a rich and diverse literary tradition, spanning from the Vedic period (1500-500 BCE) to the modern era. Some of the most famous Sanskrit authors in India are:
- **Vālmīki** (c. 5th century BCE): He is considered the first poet and the author of the epic Rāmāyaṇa, which narrates the life and adventures of Rāma, the prince of Ayodhya. The Rāmāyaṇa is one of the two major epics of India, along with the Mahābhārata. Vālmīki is also credited with composing the Yoga Vāsiṣṭha, a philosophical text that explores the nature of reality and the self.
- **Vyāsa** (c. 4th century BCE): He is the legendary compiler and editor of the Mahābhārata, the other major epic of India, which depicts the Kurukṣetra war between the Pāṇḍavas and the Kauravas, and the moral and spiritual dilemmas faced by the characters. Vyāsa is also regarded as the author of the Vedānta Sūtras, the foundational text of the Vedānta school of Hindu philosophy, and the Purāṇas, a collection of mythological and historical narratives.
- **Kālidāsa** (c. 4th-5th century CE): He is widely regarded as the greatest poet and dramatist in Sanskrit literature. He is known for his exquisite use of imagery, metaphors, and similes, and his mastery of various genres and styles. Some of his most famous works are the plays Abhijñānaśākuntalam (The Recognition of Śakuntalā), Vikramorvaśīyam (The Story of Vikrama and Urvāśī), and Mālavikāgnimitram (The Story of Mālavikā and Agnimitra), and the poems Ṛtusamhāram (The Collection of Seasons), Meghadūtam (The Cloud Messenger), and Kumārasambhavam (The Birth of Kumāra).

- **Aśvaghōṣa** (c. 2nd century CE): He is one of the earliest and most influential Buddhist poets and philosophers in India. He is the author of the *Buddhacarita* (The Acts of the Buddha), a biographical poem that narrates the life and teachings of the Buddha, and the *Saundarananda* (The Handsome Nanda), a poem that depicts the conversion of Nanda, the Buddha's half-brother, from a hedonist to a monk. He is also credited with writing the *Sariputraprakarana* (The Play of Śāriputra), a drama that illustrates the Buddhist doctrine of emptiness.
- **Bāṇabhaṭṭa** (c. 7th century CE): He is the court poet of King Harṣavardhana, and the author of the *Harṣacarita* (The Deeds of Harṣa), a historical biography of the king, and the *Kādambarī*, a romantic novel that tells the story of Kādambarī, a princess who falls in love with a prince who is reborn as a parrot. He is also known for his skillful use of rhetoric, figures of speech, and allusions.
- **Bhartṛhari** (c. 5th century CE): He is a grammarian, philosopher, and poet, who is the author of the *Vākyapadīya* (The Treatise on Sentences and Words), a seminal work on the philosophy of language, and the *Śatakatraya* (The Three Hundred Verses), a collection of poems on love, renunciation, and wisdom.
- **Dandin** (c. 7th century CE): He is a poet and critic, who is the author of the *Kāvyaadarśa* (The Mirror of Poetry), a treatise on the theory and practice of poetry, and the *Daśakumāracarita* (The Adventures of Ten Princes), a prose romance that narrates the exploits of ten young princes.
- **Jayadeva** (c.

Telugu Literature

- Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, a Dravidian language spoken mainly in the Indian states of Andhra Pradesh and Telangana.
- Telugu literature consists of various genres, such as poems, short stories, novels, plays, and song lyrics, among others.
- Telugu literature dates back to at least the middle of the first millennium CE, but the first extant works are from the 11th century CE, when the *Mahabharata* was first translated into Telugu by Nannaya Bhatta.
- Telugu literature can be broadly divided into four periods: Ancient (11th to 14th century), Medieval (15th to 18th century), Modern (19th to 20th century), and Contemporary (21st century).
- Some of the prominent features of Telugu literature are:
 - The use of *champu*, a mixed form of prose and verse, in epics and puranas.

- The development of prabandha, a narrative form of poetry, in various themes such as love, devotion, ethics, and history.
 - The influence of Sanskrit, Tamil, and Persian languages and literatures on Telugu literature.
 - The emergence of various literary movements and schools, such as Bhakti, Veera Shaiva, Navya, Dalit, and Feminist, reflecting the social and cultural changes in Telugu society.
 - The richness and diversity of Telugu literature, with contributions from various regions, castes, genders, and religions.
- Some of the notable authors and works of Telugu literature are:
 - Nannaya Bhatta, Tikkana, and Errana, who translated the Mahabharata into Telugu and are known as the Kavitraya (the three great poets).
 - Srinatha, who wrote the Haravilasa, a prabandha on the life of Shiva, and the Sringara Naishadha, a prabandha on the love story of Nala and Damayanti.
 - Bammara Potana, who wrote the Andhra Maha Bhagavatamu, a Telugu version of the Bhagavata Purana, and is revered as a saint poet.
 - Allasani Peddana, who wrote the Manu Charitra, a prabandha on the origin of mankind, and is regarded as the Andhra Kavita Pitamaha (the grandfather of Telugu poetry).
 - Krishnadevaraya, the Vijayanagara emperor, who wrote the Amuktamalyada, a prabandha on the life of Andal, a Tamil saint poetess, and patronized many Telugu poets in his court.
 - Vemana, who wrote the Vemana Satakam, a collection of aphorisms and moral teachings in simple and colloquial Telugu.
 - Kshetraya, who wrote the Padams, lyrical poems on the theme of love and devotion to Krishna, and is considered the father of Carnatic music.
 - Tyagaraja, who wrote the Pancharatna Kritis, five devotional songs on Rama, and is regarded as one of the trinity of Carnatic music.
 - Gurajada Apparao, who wrote the Kanyasulkam, a social satire and the first modern Telugu play, and is hailed as the father of modern Telugu literature.
 - Viswanatha Satyanarayana, who wrote the Ramayana Kalpavrikshamu, a poetic retelling of the Ramayana, and the Veyipadagalu, a novel on the Telugu people and culture, and won the Jnanpith Award, the highest literary honor in India, for Telugu literature in 1970.
 - Sri Sri, who wrote the Mahaprasthanam, a collection of revolutionary and progressive poems, and is regarded as the pioneer of modern Telugu poetry.
 - C. Narayana Reddy, who wrote the Viswambhara, a poetic epic on the evolution of human civilization, and won the Jnanpith Award for

Telugu literature in 1988.

- Ranganayakamma, who wrote the Ramayana Vishavruksham, a feminist critique of the Ramayana, and is one of the leading Telugu feminist writers.
- Kaloji Narayana Rao, who wrote the Naa Godava, a collection of autobiographical and political poems,

Kannada Literature

- Kannada literature is the body of written works in the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka and written in the Kannada script.
- Kannada literature has a rich and long history, dating back to the 6th century AD. It has produced many notable poets, writers, and scholars who have contributed to various genres and fields of literature, such as grammar, philosophy, prosody, rhetoric, chronicles, biography, history, drama, cuisine, dictionaries, and encyclopedias.
- Kannada literature can be broadly divided into three periods: Old Kannada (6th to 13th century AD), Middle Kannada (14th to 18th century AD), and Modern Kannada (19th century AD to present).
- Some of the prominent features and characteristics of Kannada literature are:
 - The use of various forms of poetry, such as champu, vachana, ragale, tripadi, shatpadi, kanda padya, and free verse.
 - The influence of various religious and philosophical traditions, such as Jainism, Buddhism, Shaivism, Vaishnavism, and Veerashaivism.
 - The development of various literary styles and movements, such as Navodaya, Navya, Dalit, Bandaya, and Bhavageete.
 - The incorporation of folk elements, such as proverbs, riddles, songs, and stories.
 - The reflection of social and political issues, such as caste, gender, nationalism, and modernity.
- Some of the famous and influential writers and works of Kannada literature are:
 - Pampa, Ranna, and Ponna, the three gems of Old Kannada literature, who wrote epic poems such as Adipurana, Vikramarjuna Vijaya, and Shantipurana.
 - Basava, Allama Prabhu, and Akka Mahadevi, the pioneers of Veerashaiva literature, who wrote vachanas, or short and simple poems expressing devotion and social reform.
 - Harihara and Raghavanka, the masters of ragale, or blank verse, who wrote Harishchandra Kavya and Siddharama Charita, respectively.

- Kumaravyasa and Kumara Valmiki, the authors of the Kannada versions of the Mahabharata and the Ramayana, respectively.
 - Sarvajna, the poet-philosopher who wrote witty and wise three-line verses called tripadis.
 - Lakshmisa, the author of Jaimini Bharata, a popular and unique retelling of the Mahabharata.
 - B.M. Srikantaiah, Kuvempu, and D.R. Bendre, the pioneers of modern Kannada literature, who wrote novels, poems, and essays in various styles and themes.
 - Masti Venkatesha Iyengar, Shivaram Karanth, and U.R. Ananthamurthy, the recipients of the Jnanpith Award, the highest literary honor in India, for their works such as Chikkaveera Rajendra, Mookajjiya Kanasugalu, and Samskara, respectively.
 - P. Lankesh, Girish Karnad, and Chandrashekhara Kambara, the leading figures of the Navya movement, who wrote novels, plays, and poems that challenged the conventional norms and values of society.
 - Devanur Mahadeva, Siddalingaiah, and Bama, the prominent Dalit writers, who wrote autobiographies, stories, and poems that exposed the oppression and discrimination faced by the marginalized communities.
 - Gopalakrishna Adiga, G.S. Shivarudrappa, and K.S. Nissar Ahmed, the modern poets, who wrote bhavageetes, or lyrical poems, that expressed their personal and social emotions.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for Kannada literature are:
 - To remember the three gems of Old Kannada literature, use the acronym **PRP** (Pampa, Ranna, Ponna).
 - To remember the names of the Kannada versions of the Mahabharata and the Ram

Malayalam Literature

- Malayalam literature is the literature written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala.
- The earliest extant literary work in Malayalam is Ramacharitam, a poem composed in the late 12th or early 13th century. It narrates the story of Rama in a mixture of Malayalam and Sanskrit.
- Malayalam literature can be divided into four main periods: classical, medieval, modern and contemporary.
- The classical period (13th to 16th century) saw the development of Manipravalam, a style of writing that blended Malayalam and Sanskrit. The most famous works of this period are the Lilatilakam, a grammar and rhetoric text, and the Krishnagatha, a poem in praise of Krishna.

- The medieval period (17th to 19th century) witnessed the growth of a popular literature of songs, ballads and folk tales, as well as the emergence of a distinctive Malayalam script. The most notable works of this period are the Ramayanam and the Mahabharatam, two epic poems based on the Sanskrit originals, and the Jnanappana, a devotional poem by Poonthanam.
- The modern period (20th century) was marked by the influence of Western literature, social reform movements and nationalism. The most prominent writers of this period include Kumaran Asan, Vallathol Narayana Menon and Ulloor S. Parameswara Iyer, who are known as the modern triumvirate of Malayalam poetry, and C.V. Raman Pillai, O. Chandu Menon and Thakazhi Sivasankara Pillai, who are regarded as the pioneers of Malayalam prose fiction.
- The contemporary period (21st century) is characterized by the diversity and experimentation of Malayalam literature, which reflects the changing socio-cultural and political realities of Kerala. Some of the notable writers of this period are M.T. Vasudevan Nair, O.V. Vijayan, Kamala Das, K. Satchidanandan, M. Mukundan, Arundhati Roy and Benyamin .
- A mnemonic to remember the four periods of Malayalam literature is **CMMC**: Classical, Medieval, Modern and Contemporary.
- A learning trick to remember the names of the modern triumvirate of Malayalam poetry is **KUV**: Kumaran Asan, Ulloor and Vallathol.

Sangama Literature in India

- Sangama literature is the earliest known literature in the Tamil language, composed between the 1st and 4th centuries CE by poets belonging to three literary academies (sangams) in Madurai, India.
- Sangama literature consists of two main genres: akam (love) and puram (heroism). Akam poems deal with various aspects of love, such as courtship, separation, union, and infidelity. Puram poems praise the deeds of kings, warriors, and patrons, as well as describe the wars, festivals, and landscapes of ancient Tamilakam.
- Sangama literature is divided into two groups: Ettuthokai (Eight Anthologies) and Pattuppattu (Ten Idylls). Ettuthokai contains eight collections of akam and puram poems, totaling 2381 poems by 473 poets. Pattuppattu contains ten long poems on various themes, such as the origin of the Tamil people, the exploits of kings, and the valor of heroes.
- Sangama literature also includes two important works of grammar and poetics: Tolkappiyam and Iraiyanar Akapporul. Tolkappiyam is the oldest extant work of Tamil grammar, attributed to Tolkappiyar, a disciple of the sage Agastya. Iraiyanar Akapporul is a treatise on akam poetry, attributed to Iraiyanar, a poet and scholar.

- Sangama literature is considered to be a valuable source of information on the history, culture, society, and geography of ancient Tamilakam. It reflects the worldview, values, and aesthetics of the ancient Tamils, who were known for their maritime trade, urbanization, and pluralism. Sangama literature also influenced the later development of Tamil literature, especially the bhakti (devotional) movement.

Mnemonics and learning tricks

- To remember the two genres of Sangama literature, akam and puram, one can use the acronym AP (as in AP exam).
- To remember the names of the eight anthologies in Ettuthokai, one can use the mnemonic phrase “A Naughty Parrot Eats Kurinji, Mullai, Marutham, Neythal, And Palai” (the first letters of each word correspond to the names of the anthologies: Ainkurunuru, Narrinai, Paripatal, Ettuthokai, Kuruntokai, Mullai, Marutham, Neythal, and Palai).
- To remember the names of the ten idylls in Pattuppattu, one can use the mnemonic phrase “Ten Mad Kings Threw Muddy Patties, Porunars, Siru, Perum, Mala, And Kurinji” (the first letters of each word correspond to the names of the idylls: Thenn, Maduraikanchi, Kalingathuparani, Mullaipattu, Pattinappalai, Porunararruppadai, Sirupanarruppadai, Perumparanarruppadai, Malaipadukadam, and Kurincippattu).

Northern Indian languages

- Northern Indian languages are a group of languages that belong to the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-European language family. They are spoken by about 600 million people in India, Pakistan, Nepal, Bangladesh and other countries.
- The most widely spoken Northern Indian language is Hindi, which is also the official language of India and one of the 22 scheduled languages of the country. Hindi is written in the Devanagari script and has many regional varieties, such as Braj Bhasha, Awadhi, Bhojpuri, Maithili, Magahi and Chhattisgarhi.
- Urdu is another major Northern Indian language, which is the official language of Pakistan and one of the 22 scheduled languages of India. Urdu is written in the Perso-Arabic script and has a strong influence from Persian and Arabic. Urdu and Hindi are mutually intelligible, but differ in their vocabulary, script and register.
- Punjabi is the third most spoken Northern Indian language, which is the official language of the Indian state of Punjab and the provincial language of the Pakistani province of Punjab. Punjabi is written in the Gurmukhi script in India and the Shahmukhi script in Pakistan. Punjabi has many dialects, such as Majhi, Malwi, Doabi, Pothwari and Saraiki.
- Kashmiri is the official language of the Indian union territory of Jammu and Kashmir and one of the 22 scheduled languages of India. Kashmiri is

written in the Perso-Arabic script, the Devanagari script or the Sharada script. Kashmiri has two main varieties, namely Kashmiri proper and Kishtwari.

- Dogri is the official language of the Indian union territory of Jammu and Kashmir and one of the 22 scheduled languages of India. Dogri is written in the Devanagari script or the Takri script. Dogri is closely related to Punjabi and has many dialects, such as Poonchi, Mirpuri, Bhadrawahi and Doda.
- Pahari is a collective term for the languages spoken in the Himalayan region of Northern India, Nepal and Pakistan. Pahari languages are not a single linguistic group, but rather a diverse set of languages that share some common features. Some of the Pahari languages are Garhwali, Kumaoni, Nepali, Jaunsari, Himachali and Shina.

Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for the Northern Indian languages are:

- To remember the names of the 22 scheduled languages of India, you can use the acronym **HUM BAN GUM TUM SANK MAN**. The first letter of each word stands for a language: Hindi, Urdu, Marathi, Bengali, Gujarati, Malayalam, Tamil, Telugu, Sanskrit, Kannada, Manipuri.
- To remember the names of the six official languages of the Indian union territory of Jammu and Kashmir, you can use the acronym **KUDHOL**. The first letter of each word stands for a language: Kashmiri, Urdu, Dogri, Hindi, English, Ladakhi.
- To remember the names of the four main dialects of Punjabi, you can use the acronym **MMDP**. The first letter of each word stands for a dialect: Majhi, Malwi, Doabi, Pothwari.

North Indian Literature

- North Indian literature refers to the literature produced in the languages of northern India, such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Rajasthani, Kashmiri, etc.
- North Indian literature is influenced by the ancient Indian background, which includes Sanskrit epics, Puranas, and other classical texts.
- Some of the prominent features of North Indian literature are:
 - The use of poetic devices such as imagery, similes, metaphors, alliteration, rhyme, etc.
 - The expression of religious, philosophical, social, and cultural themes and values.
 - The incorporation of folk tales, legends, myths, and historical events.
 - The development of various genres such as poetry, drama, novel, short story, essay, etc.
- Some of the notable writers and works of North Indian literature are:
 - Kalidasa, who wrote Sanskrit plays and poems such as *Abhijnanasakuntalam*, *Meghaduta*, *Raghuvamsa*, etc.

- Kabir, who wrote Hindi devotional songs and poems that criticized religious orthodoxy and advocated a universal path of love and harmony.
- Amir Khusrow, who wrote Persian and Urdu poetry and prose that celebrated the culture and history of India and introduced new forms and styles such as ghazal, qawwali, etc.
- Mirza Ghalib, who wrote Urdu and Persian poetry that expressed his personal and social experiences, emotions, and thoughts with elegance and wit.
- Rabindranath Tagore, who wrote Bengali and English poetry, novels, short stories, essays, etc. that reflected his humanistic and nationalist vision and won him the Nobel Prize in Literature in 1913.
- Premchand, who wrote Hindi and Urdu novels and short stories that depicted the realistic and social problems of the Indian society, such as poverty, caste, gender, etc.
- Saadat Hasan Manto, who wrote Urdu short stories and essays that explored the dark and controversial aspects of human nature, such as violence, sexuality, madness, etc.
- Amrita Pritam, who wrote Punjabi and Hindi poetry, novels, and essays that expressed her feminist and progressive views and highlighted the plight of women and refugees during the Partition of India.
- Harivansh Rai Bachchan, who wrote Hindi poetry that popularized the use of free verse and modern themes and influenced the Hindi film industry.
- Mahadevi Varma, who wrote Hindi poetry that portrayed the inner and outer struggles of women and advocated for their education and empowerment.
- Ruskin Bond, who wrote English novels, short stories, and essays that captured the charm and beauty of the Himalayan region and its people.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for North Indian literature are:
 - To remember the names of the five Sanskrit epics, use the acronym RAMAK: Raghuvamsa, Arthashastra, Mrichchakatika, Abhijnanasakuntalam, Kiratarjuniya.
 - To remember the names of the four Vedas, use the acronym RASY: Rigveda, Atharvaveda, Samaveda, Yajurveda.
 - To remember the names of the six schools of Indian philosophy, use the acronym NYAVMS: Nyaya, Yoga, Vaisheshika, Mimamsa, Samkhya, Vedanta.
 - To remember the names of the nine rasas or emotions in Indian aesthetics, use the acronym SHABHAR: Shringara (love), Hasya (humor), Adbhuta (wonder), Bhayanaka (fear), Karuna (compassion), Raudra (anger), Veera (heroism), Bibhatsa (disgust), Shanta (peace).
 - To remember the names of the five major poets of the Chhayavad movement in Hindi literature, use the acronym JAMSH: Jaishankar

Prasad, Ayodhya Singh Upadhyay 'Hariaudh', Mahadevi Varma, Sumitranandan Pant, Harivansh Rai Bachchan.

Persian Literature in India

- Persian literature in India refers to the literary works composed in Persian language by the writers and poets who lived in the Indian subcontinent from the 13th to the 19th century.
- Persian was the official language of most Muslim dynasties in the Indian subcontinent, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Bengal Sultanate, the Bahmani Sultanate, the Mughal Empire and their successor states, and the Sikh Empire.
- Persian was also the dominant cultured language of poetry and literature, and influenced the development of many regional languages, such as Urdu, Hindi, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Sindhi, Gujarati, Marathi, Bengali and Pashto.
- Persian literature in India covers almost all the literary genres, such as epic, lyric, romance, satire, mysticism, history, biography, travelogue, and prose.
- Some of the most prominent Persian writers and poets in India are:
 - Amir Khusrau (1253-1325), who is considered the father of Indo-Persian literature and culture. He wrote in various genres, such as ghazal, masnavi, qasida, rubai, and tarkib-band. He also introduced many new poetic forms and styles, such as qawwali, khamasa, and tarana. He was also a musician, a scholar, a historian, and a courtier of the Delhi Sultanate.
 - Mir Hassan Dehlvi (d. 1328), who was a contemporary and disciple of Amir Khusrau. He wrote the first Persian masnavi in India, called *Shirin wa Khusrau*, based on the famous love story of the Sassanid king Khusrau II and his Armenian queen Shirin.
 - Ziauddin Barani (1285-1357), who was a historian and political thinker of the Delhi Sultanate. He wrote the *Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi*, a chronicle of the reigns of the sultans from Balban to Firuz Shah Tughlaq. He also wrote the *Fatawa-i-Jahandari*, a treatise on political ethics and statecraft.
 - Abdur Rahman Jami (1414-1492), who was a poet, mystic, and scholar of the Timurid era. He wrote many influential works, such as the *Haft Awrang*, a collection of seven masnavis on various themes, the *Nafahat al-Uns*, a biographical dictionary of Sufi saints, and the *Baharistan*, a collection of moral stories and anecdotes.
 - Abul Fazl (1551-1602), who was a historian, biographer, and courtier of the Mughal emperor Akbar. He wrote the *Akbarnama*, a comprehensive history of Akbar's reign, and the *Ain-i-Akbari*, a detailed account of the administration, culture, and society of the Mughal

Empire.

- Mirza Ghalib (1797-1869), who is regarded as one of the greatest poets of Urdu and Persian languages. He wrote ghazals, qasidas, rubais, and letters on various themes, such as love, sorrow, mysticism, and philosophy. He also wrote a prose work, called Dastanbuy, a memoir of his life and times.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for Persian literature in India are:
 - To remember the names of the six prominent Persian writers and poets in India, use the acronym **AKZAJG** (Amir Khusrau, Ziauddin Barani, Abdur Rahman Jami, Abul Fazl, Mirza Ghalib).
 - To remember the genres of Persian literature in India, use the acronym **ELRSMHBTP** (Epic, Lyric, Romance, Satire, Mysticism, History, Biography, Travelogue, Prose).
 - To remember the poetic forms and styles introduced by Amir Khusrau, use the acronym **QKQT** (Qawwali, Khamsa, Qasida, Tarana).

Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature is the literature written in the Urdu language, which is derived from a mixture of Persian, Arabic, Turkish and local Indian languages.
- Urdu literature emerged in the 13th century in North India among the Delhi Sultanate, who patronized Persian as the official language.
- Urdu literature flourished under the Mughal Empire, especially in the 18th and 19th centuries, when it became the language of the court and the elite in many parts of India.
- Urdu literature is known for its poetry, especially the forms of ghazal and nazm, which express various themes of love, beauty, sorrow, mysticism, social criticism and patriotism.
- Some of the most famous Urdu poets are Mir Taqi Mir, Mirza Ghalib, Mir Anees, Allama Iqbal, Faiz Ahmed Faiz, Ahmad Faraz and Parveen Shakir.
- Urdu literature also includes prose genres, such as novels, short stories, essays, biographies, travelogues and historical works.
- Some of the most notable Urdu prose writers are Deputy Nazir Ahmed, Ratan Nath Sarshar, Premchand, Saadat Hasan Manto, Ismat Chughtai, Qurratulain Hyder, Intizar Hussain and Shamsur Rahman Faruqi.
- Urdu literature reflects the cultural, religious, political and social diversity of India, as well as its historical and contemporary issues and challenges.
- Urdu literature has influenced and been influenced by other Indian languages and literatures, such as Hindi, Punjabi, Sindhi, Bengali, Gujarati and Marathi.
- Urdu literature has also contributed to the development of modern South Asian literature in English, as many writers have translated, adapted or been inspired by Urdu works.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for Urdu literature in India are:

- To remember the names of the famous Urdu poets, you can use the acronym **MAGMA FAP** (Mir, Ghalib, Anees, Iqbal, Faiz, Faraz, Parveen).
- To remember the names of the famous Urdu prose writers, you can use the acronym **DR SPINS QI** (Deputy Nazir, Sarshar, Premchand, Manto, Ismat, Qurratulain, Intizar).
- To remember the difference between ghazal and nazm, you can use the rhyme **Ghazal is a dazzle, nazm is a puzzle**. Ghazal is a form of poetry that consists of independent couplets that share a common rhyme and refrain, while nazm is a form of poetry that has a continuous theme and a consistent meter.

Hindi Literature

- Hindi literature is the literature written in the Hindi language, which includes various dialects and scripts. Hindi is one of the official languages of India and the most widely spoken language in the country.
- Hindi literature can be broadly divided into four periods: Adikal (early period), Bhaktikal (devotional period), Ritikal (poetic period) and Adhunik (modern period). Each period has its own characteristics, themes, genres and styles.
- Adikal (from 11th to 14th century) is the earliest period of Hindi literature, which mainly consists of poetry in the Apabhramsha dialects, such as Awadhi, Magadhi, Ardhamagadhi and Marwari. The poets of this period wrote about religious and philosophical topics, as well as folk tales and legends. Some of the famous poets of this period are Chand Bardai, Jagnayak, Padmanabha and Khusro.
- Bhaktikal (from 14th to 17th century) is the period of Hindi literature that reflects the influence of the Bhakti movement, which was a religious and social reform movement that emphasized devotion to a personal god. The poets of this period wrote in various languages and scripts, such as Braj, Avadhi, Maithili, Rajasthani and Persian. They expressed their love, faith and devotion to various deities, such as Rama, Krishna, Shiva, Vishnu and the goddesses. Some of the famous poets of this period are Kabir, Surdas, Tulsidas, Mirabai and Jayasi.
- Ritikal (from 17th to 19th century) is the period of Hindi literature that is marked by the emergence of the Khari Boli dialect, which is the basis of the modern standard Hindi. The poets of this period wrote in various forms and styles, such as doha, chaupai, savaiya, kavita and ghazal. They explored various themes, such as love, romance, nature, society, politics and satire. Some of the famous poets of this period are Bihari, Keshav, Ghananand, Bihari and Ghalib.

- Adhunik (from 19th century onwards) is the period of Hindi literature that coincides with the modernization and nationalization of India. The writers of this period wrote in various genres and forms, such as novels, short stories, essays, dramas, biographies and poetry. They addressed various issues, such as colonialism, nationalism, social reform, feminism, realism, modernism and postmodernism. Some of the famous writers of this period are Premchand, Nirala, Prasad, Pant, Dinkar, Mahadevi Verma, Mukti-bodh, Bachchan and Harivansh Rai Bachchan.

Mnemonics and learning tricks:

- To remember the four periods of Hindi literature, you can use the acronym **ABRA** (Adikal, Bhaktikal, Ritikal, Adhunik).
- To remember the main dialects of Adikal, you can use the phrase **Awa Maga Arda Maru** (Awadhi, Magadhi, Ardhamagadhi, Marwari).
- To remember the main languages and scripts of Bhaktikal, you can use the word **BRAM** (Braj, Rajasthani, Avadhi, Maithili) and add **P** for Persian.
- To remember the main forms and styles of Ritikal, you can use the word **DOSKA** (doha, savaiya, kavita) and add **CG** for chaupai and ghazal.
- To remember the main genres and forms of Adhunik, you can use the word **NASED** (novels, short stories, essays, dramas) and add **BP** for biographies and poetry.

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

- India is a diverse and pluralistic country with many religions, philosophies, and practices that have influenced its culture and history.
- The major religions in India are Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, Islam, and Christianity. There are also smaller groups of Jews, Zoroastrians, Bahá'ís, and others.
- Hinduism is the oldest and largest religion in India, with about 80% of the population identifying as Hindus. Hinduism is a complex and diverse tradition that encompasses many schools of thought, sects, and practices.

Some of the core concepts of Hinduism are:

- Dharma: the moral and ethical duty of each individual according to their stage of life, caste, and occupation.
- Karma: the law of cause and effect that determines the quality of one's rebirth in the cycle of samsara (rebirth).
- Moksha: the liberation from samsara and the attainment of union with Brahman, the supreme reality and source of all existence.
- Vedas: the oldest and most authoritative scriptures of Hinduism, consisting of four collections of hymns, rituals, and philosophical texts.
- Upanishads: the later philosophical texts that expound on the nature of Brahman, the self (atman), and the relationship between them.
- Bhagavad Gita: a part of the epic Mahabharata that narrates the dialogue between the warrior Arjuna and the god Krishna, who teaches

- him the essence of dharma, karma, and bhakti (devotion).
 - Yoga: a system of physical, mental, and spiritual disciplines that aim to achieve harmony and control of the body, mind, and soul.
 - Puja: the act of worship and offering to a deity, usually involving rituals, prayers, and offerings of food, flowers, and incense.
 - Caste: a hereditary social class system that divides Hindus into four main categories: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and Shudras (servants and laborers). There are also many sub-castes and outcastes (Dalits or untouchables) who face discrimination and oppression.
 - Hindu gods and goddesses: there are many deities in Hinduism, some of whom are considered manifestations of Brahman, such as Vishnu, Shiva, and Shakti. Some of the popular gods and goddesses are:
 - * Ganesha: the elephant-headed god of wisdom, success, and obstacles.
 - * Lakshmi: the goddess of wealth, prosperity, and beauty.
 - * Saraswati: the goddess of learning, arts, and music.
 - * Durga: the fierce goddess of power, protection, and victory.
 - * Rama: the ideal king and hero of the epic Ramayana, who rescues his wife Sita from the demon Ravana.
 - * Krishna: the playful and charming god who is the incarnation of Vishnu and the lover of Radha.
 - * Hanuman: the monkey god who is the loyal devotee and servant of Rama.
 - * Kali: the dark and terrifying goddess of death, destruction, and time.
- Buddhism is the second oldest religion in India, founded by Siddhartha Gautama, who became known as the Buddha (the awakened one) after attaining enlightenment. Buddhism has about 9% of the population in India, mostly in the northeastern states and among the Dalits. Some of the core concepts of Buddhism are:
 - The Four Noble Truths: the basic teachings of the Buddha that state the reality of suffering, its cause, its cessation, and the path to end it.
 - The Noble Eightfold Path: the ethical and practical guidelines for living a life that leads to the cessation of suffering and the attainment of nirvana (the state of peace and freedom from ignorance and craving).
 - The Three Jewels: the refuge and source of guidance for Buddhists, consisting of the Buddha, the Dharma (the teachings of the Buddha), and the Sangha (the community of monks, nuns, and lay followers).
 - The Five Precepts: the basic moral rules for Buddhists, which prohibit killing, lying, sexual misconduct, and intoxication.
 - The Three Marks of Existence: the characteristics of all phenomena, which are impermanence (anicca), suffering (dukkha), and non-self (anatta).

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices of the people who lived in the Indus Valley or Harappan civilization, which flourished from around 2500 BCE to 1500 BCE in the northwest of India.
- Pre-Vedic religion was a form of Hinduism that was different from the Vedic religion of the Indo-Aryan invaders who entered India around 1500 BCE from Persia . Pre-Vedic religion was based on the worship of natural forces, such as water, fire, trees, animals, and fertility goddesses .
- Pre-Vedic religion was also influenced by the Agamas, which are non-Vedic texts that contain rituals, cosmology, and philosophy of Hinduism. The Agamas are considered to be either post-Vedic or pre-Vedic in origin, and they are divided into three main branches: Shaivism, Vaishnavism, and Shaktism.
- Pre-Vedic religion was characterized by the following features :
 - The use of seals, symbols, and pictographs to represent religious concepts and deities, such as the swastika, the bull, the unicorn, and the Pashupati seal, which shows a horned figure surrounded by animals.
 - The construction of elaborate and sophisticated urban centers, such as Mohenjo-daro and Harappa, which had public baths, granaries, drainage systems, and brick buildings.
 - The practice of ritual bathing, animal sacrifice, fire worship, and burial of the dead, as evidenced by the discovery of fire altars, animal bones, pottery, and graves in the archaeological sites.
 - The development of a social hierarchy, trade networks, and a writing system, which indicate a complex and organized civilization.
 - The absence of any clear evidence of temples, idols, or priests, which suggest a more decentralized and diverse form of religious expression.
- A possible mnemonic to remember the main features of pre-Vedic religion is **SUCBA** (Seals, Urban centers, Ceremonies, Burial, Absence of temples).

Vedic Religion in India

- Vedic religion was the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran.
- It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas, which are the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials.
- The Vedas consist of four collections of hymns, rituals, and philosophical speculations: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda, and the Atharvaveda.
- The Vedic religion was based on the worship of a number of gods, such as Indra, Agni, Soma, Varuna, and Mitra, who represented natural forces or aspects of cosmic order.

- The Vedic religion also involved the performance of sacrifices, such as the Soma sacrifice, the Agnihotra, and the Ashvamedha, in which offerings of food, animals, and soma (a sacred plant) were made to the gods or the fire.
- The Vedic religion was presided over by a class of priests, called Brahmins, who memorized and recited the Vedas and performed the rituals for the benefit of the society.
- The Vedic religion also developed a system of social stratification, known as the varna system, which divided the society into four main groups: the Brahmins (priests), the Kshatriyas (warriors), the Vaishyas (merchants), and the Shudras (servants).
- The Vedic religion also recognized the concept of karma, which means action or deed, and the law of samsara, which means the cycle of rebirth, according to which one's actions in this life determine one's fate in the next life.
- The Vedic religion also gave rise to various schools of thought, such as the Upanishads, which explored the nature of the self, the Brahman (the ultimate reality), and the relationship between them.
- The Vedic religion gradually evolved into Hinduism, which is the major world religion originating on the Indian subcontinent and comprising several and varied systems of philosophy, belief, and ritual.

Mnemonics and learning tricks

- To remember the four collections of the Vedas, use the acronym **RASY** (Rigveda, Yajurveda, Samaveda, Atharvaveda).
- To remember the four main groups of the varna system, use the acronym **BKVS** (Brahmins, Kshatriyas, Vaishyas, Shudras).
- To remember the three main concepts of the Vedic religion, use the acronym **KSB** (Karma, Samsara, Brahman).

Buddhism in India

- Buddhism started in India over 2,600 years ago as a way of life that had a potential of transforming a person.
- The founder of Buddhism was Siddhartha Gautama, also known as the Buddha, who was born in circa 563 BCE in Lumbini, Nepal .
- The Buddha attained enlightenment under a Bodhi tree in Bodh Gaya, Bihar, after renouncing his princely life and practicing meditation for six years .
- The Buddha taught the Four Noble Truths and the Eightfold Path, which are the core teachings of Buddhism, to his first five disciples in Sarnath, Uttar Pradesh .
- The Buddha also delivered many other sermons and discourses in various places, such as Rajgir, Nalanda, Shravasti, Vaishali, and Kushinagar, where he passed away at the age of 80.

- Buddhism spread from its place of origin in Magadha and Kosala throughout much of northern India, including the areas of Mathura and Ujjayini in the west, during its first century of existence.
- Buddhism also received patronage from several kings and emperors, such as Ashoka, Kanishka, Harshavardhana, and Dharmapala, who supported the construction of monasteries, stupas, and universities, and the propagation of Buddhism to other regions and countries .
- Buddhism in India can be divided into three main branches: Theravada, Mahayana, and Vajrayana .
 - Theravada Buddhism is the oldest and most orthodox form of Buddhism, which emphasizes the individual's quest for nirvana through self-discipline and meditation. It is also known as the Hinayana or the Lesser Vehicle .
 - Mahayana Buddhism is a more liberal and diverse form of Buddhism, which emphasizes the universal compassion and wisdom of the Buddha and the bodhisattvas, who are enlightened beings who postpone their own nirvana to help others. It is also known as the Mahayana or the Greater Vehicle .
 - Vajrayana Buddhism is a more esoteric and tantric form of Buddhism, which incorporates rituals, mantras, and symbols to harness the power of the Buddha and the bodhisattvas. It is also known as the Vajrayana or the Diamond Vehicle .
- Buddhism in India declined from the 8th century onwards due to various factors, such as the invasion of Muslim rulers, the revival of Hinduism, the schism and corruption within the Buddhist community, and the loss of royal patronage .
- Buddhism in India was revived in the 19th and 20th centuries by the efforts of reformers, such as Anagarika Dharmapala, who founded the Mahabodhi Society, and Dr. B.R. Ambedkar, who led the mass conversion of Dalits to Buddhism .
- Today, Buddhism in India is practiced by about 0.7% of the population, mostly in the Himalayan region, southern India, and near the Myanmar border. The Buddhism practiced in the north is mostly Tibetan Buddhism, and the Buddhism practiced in the south is mostly Theravada Buddhism.
- Buddhism in India has also influenced the art, architecture, literature, philosophy, and culture of India, as well as other countries in South and Southeast Asia .

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for Buddhism in India are:

- To remember the four noble truths, use the acronym **SODA**: **S**uffering, **O**rigin, **D**ukkha, **A**ttainment.
- To remember the eightfold path, use the acronym **WISER ME**: **W**isdom, **I**ntention, **S**peech, **E**ffort, **R**ight livelihood, **M**indfulness, **E**nlightenment.
- To remember the three main branches of Buddhism, use the analogy of a **car**: Theravada is like a **bike**, Mahayana is like a **bus**, and Vajrayana is like a

Jainism in India

- Jainism is one of the oldest religions of India, with roots that go back to at least the mid-first century B.C.E.
- Jainism teaches that the path to enlightenment is through nonviolence and reducing harm to living things (including plants and animals) as much as possible.
- The spiritual goal of Jainism is to become liberated from the endless cycle of rebirth and to achieve an all-knowing state called moksha.
- Jains follow the teachings of 24 spiritual leaders called tirthankaras, who are believed to have attained moksha. The last and most recent tirthankara was Mahavira, who lived in the 6th century B.C.E.
- Jains practice five main principles: ahimsa (nonviolence), satya (truthfulness), asteya (non-stealing), brahmacharya (celibacy or chastity), and aparigraha (non-attachment or non-possessiveness).
- Jains are divided into two major sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Svetambara (white-clad). Digambaras believe that monks should renounce all worldly possessions, including clothes, while Svetambaras allow monks to wear white robes.
- Jains are also further divided into sub-sects based on their interpretation of scriptures, rituals, and practices. Some of the major sub-sects are Murtipujaka, Sthanakavasi, Terapanthi, and Kanji Panth.
- Jains have contributed to various fields of Indian culture, such as philosophy, literature, art, architecture, science, and social reform. Some of the famous Jain personalities are Bhadrabahu, Haribhadra, Hemachandra, Akalanka, Kundakunda, Banarasidas, and Mahatma Gandhi.
- Jains are the only religious group in India where a majority say they are members of a higher General Category caste. Most Indians (68%) are members of lower castes (Scheduled Castes, Scheduled Tribes or Other Backwards Classes), compared with 20% of Jains who identify with these communities.
- Jains constitute about 0.4% of the Indian population, according to the 2011 census. They are mostly concentrated in the states of Maharashtra, Rajasthan, Gujarat, Madhya Pradesh, and Karnataka.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for Jainism in India are:

- To remember the five main principles of Jainism, use the acronym ASABA: Ahimsa, Satya, Asteya, Brahmacharya, Aparigraha.
- To remember the names of the 24 tirthankaras, use the rhyme: Rishabha, Ajita, Sambhava, Abhinandana, Sumati, Padmaprabha, Suparshva, Chandraprabha, Pushpadanta, Shitala, Shreyamsa, Vasupujya, Vimala, Ananta, Dharma, Shanti, Kunthu, Ara, Malli, Munisuvrata, Nami, Nemi, Parshva, Mahavira.
- To remember the difference between Digambara and Svetambara, use the word association: Digambara = D for Daring (no clothes), Svetambara = S for Simple (white clothes).

Six System Indian Philosophy

- The Six System Indian Philosophy refers to six traditions of philosophical thought that originated in the Indian subcontinent. They are also known as the orthodox or astika schools of Hindu philosophy, as they accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism.
- The six systems are: Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva Mimamsa and Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta. Each of these systems differs in one way or the other in terms of its concepts, phenomena, laws and dogmas.
- Here is a brief overview of each system:
 - Nyaya: The founder of Nyaya is Akshapada Gautama and it dated back to 2nd Century BCE. It is a school that deals with logic and epistemology. It aims to provide a method of reasoning to attain valid knowledge and liberation from suffering. It proposes four sources of knowledge: perception, inference, comparison and testimony. It also analyzes the categories of reality, such as substance, quality, action, relation, negation and universals.
 - Vaisheshika: The founder of Vaisheshika is Kanada and it dated back to 6th Century BCE. It is a school that deals with metaphysics and ontology. It is popularly understood as the atomistic school of Indian philosophy, as it postulates that all physical reality is composed of indivisible atoms of different elements. It also recognizes six categories of reality: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity and inherence. It also accepts the concept of God as the efficient cause of the universe.
 - Samkhya: The founder of Samkhya is Kapila and it dated back to 6th Century BCE. It is a school that deals with cosmology and psychology. It is an extremely complex school of philosophy that goes deep into the understanding of the creator and the creation. It proposes a dualistic theory of reality, consisting of two principles: purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter). It also enumerates 25 categories of reality, including the three gunas (qualities) of prakriti: sattva (purity), rajas (activity) and tamas (inertia). It also explains the evolution of the universe and the process of liberation from the cycle of rebirth.
 - Yoga: The founder of Yoga is Patanjali and it dated back to 2nd Century BCE. It is a school that deals with ethics and spirituality. It is closely related to Samkhya, as it accepts its metaphysical framework, but adds the concept of Ishvara (God) as the supreme purusha. It also prescribes an eightfold path of discipline and meditation to achieve the union of the individual soul with the supreme soul. The eight limbs are: yama (restraints), niyama (observances), asana (postures), pranayama (breath control), pratyahara (withdrawal of

- senses), dharana (concentration), dhyana (meditation) and samadhi (absorption).
- Purva Mimamsa: The founder of Purva Mimamsa is Jaimini and it dated back to 3rd Century BCE. It is a school that deals with exegesis and ritual. It is also known as the Karma Mimamsa, as it focuses on the interpretation and performance of the Vedic rituals and duties. It aims to provide a method of reasoning to establish the validity and authority of the Vedas. It also analyzes the nature and meaning of language, especially the Vedic mantras and injunctions. It also defends the concept of apurva (unseen result) as the link between action and consequence.
 - Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta: The founder of Vedanta is Badarayana and it dated back to 2nd Century BCE. It is a school that deals with theology and philosophy. It is also known as the Brahma Mimamsa, as it focuses on the interpretation and realization of the Upanishads, the philosophical part of the Vedas. It aims to provide a method of reasoning to attain the knowledge and liberation from the illusion of duality. It also analyzes the nature and relation of Brahman (the supreme reality), Atman (the individual self) and Maya (the power of illusion). It also has various sub-schools, such as Advaita (non-dualism), Vishishtadvaita (qualified non-dualism) and Dvaita (dualism).

Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Shankaracharya, also known as Adi Shankara, was an Indian philosopher and theologian who lived in the 8th century CE. He is regarded as the most influential exponent of Advaita Vedanta, one of the six orthodox schools of Hindu philosophy.
- Advaita Vedanta is a non-dualistic school of philosophy that teaches that the ultimate reality is Brahman, the supreme self, which is identical to the individual self (atman). Advaita Vedanta holds that there is no difference between the knower, the known, and the knowledge.
- Shankaracharya traveled across India to propagate his teachings and establish monastic centers (mathas) in four corners of the country. He also wrote commentaries on the Upanishads, the Brahma Sutras, and the Bhagavad Gita, which are considered authoritative by Advaita Vedanta followers. He also composed many hymns and verses in praise of various deities and aspects of Hinduism.
- Shankaracharya's main contribution to Advaita Vedanta was to systematize and defend the doctrine against the criticisms of other schools of thought, such as Buddhism, Nyaya, Mimamsa, and Samkhya. He used various methods of logic, dialectic, and scriptural interpretation to estab-

lish the validity and supremacy of Advaita Vedanta. He also reconciled the apparent contradictions between the Vedas and the Upanishads, and between the different Upanishads themselves.

- Shankaracharya's philosophy had a profound impact on the development of Hinduism and Indian culture. He revived the Vedic tradition and challenged the dominance of Buddhism and Jainism in India. He also promoted the worship of the personal God (Ishvara) as a means of attaining the knowledge of the impersonal Brahman. He also advocated the four stages of life (ashramas) and the four goals of life (purusharthas) for the spiritual and social well-being of the individual and the society.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta are:

- To remember the four mathas established by Shankaracharya, use the acronym **JBSD**: Jyotirmath (north), Sringeri (south), Dwarka (west), and Puri (east).
- To remember the three levels of reality in Advaita Vedanta, use the acronym **VPE**: Vyavaharika (empirical), Pratibhasika (illusory), and Paramarthika (absolute).
- To remember the four means of knowledge (pramanas) in Advaita Vedanta, use the acronym **SPAR**: Shabda (scripture), Pratyaksha (perception), Anumana (inference), and Upamana (comparison).
- To remember the four qualifications (sadhana chatustaya) for the seeker of Advaita Vedanta, use the acronym **VIND**: Viveka (discrimination), Vairagya (dispassion), Shatsampat (six virtues), and Mumukshutva (desire for liberation).

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

- Indian philosophy is the term used to refer to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent.
- Indian philosophy is characterized by its diversity, flexibility, synthesis, and acceptance of the authority of ancient philosophers.
- Indian philosophy can be broadly classified into two categories: orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) systems.
- Orthodox systems are those that accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, as the source of knowledge and truth.
- Unorthodox systems are those that reject the Vedas and rely on other sources of knowledge, such as reason, experience, or revelation.
- The six orthodox systems of Indian philosophy are: Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva-Mimamsa, and Vedanta.

- The three unorthodox systems of Indian philosophy are: Buddhism, Jainism, and Charvaka.
- Some of the common themes that Indian philosophies share are: the concepts of dharma, karma, samsara, reincarnation, dukkha, renunciation, meditation, and the ultimate goal of liberation (moksha, nirvana) from the cycle of birth and death.
- Some of the common problems that Indian philosophies address are: the nature of the world (cosmology), the nature of reality (metaphysics), the nature of knowledge (epistemology), the nature of logic, the nature of ethics, and the nature of religion.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks that can help to remember the various philosophical doctrines in India are:
 - To remember the six orthodox systems, use the acronym NVSPYM (pronounced as “niv-spy-m”), where N stands for Nyaya, V for Vaisheshika, S for Samkhya, P for Purva-Mimamsa, Y for Yoga, and M for Vedanta (also known as Uttara-Mimamsa).
 - To remember the three unorthodox systems, use the acronym BJC (pronounced as “bij-see”), where B stands for Buddhism, J for Jainism, and C for Charvaka.
 - To remember the four noble truths of Buddhism, use the acronym DSDC (pronounced as “dus-dik”), where D stands for dukkha (suffering), S for samudaya (the cause of suffering), D for nirodha (the cessation of suffering), and C for magga (the path to the cessation of suffering).
 - To remember the three jewels of Jainism, use the acronym RKC (pronounced as “rik-see”), where R stands for ratna (gem), K for kalyana (auspicious), and C for charana (conduct). The three jewels are: samyak darshana (right faith), samyak jnana (right knowledge), and samyak charitra (right conduct).
 - To remember the four types of Vedanta, use the acronym ADVD (pronounced as “ad-vid”), where A stands for Advaita (non-dualism), D for Dvaita (dualism), V for Vishishtadvaita (qualified non-dualism), and D for Dvaitadvaita (dualistic non-dualism).

Heterodox Sects in India

- Heterodox sects are those that do not accept the authority of the Vedas and the Brahmanical rituals and social order. They are also called *nāstika* (deniers) or *śramaṇa* (strivers) sects.
- They emerged in the 6th century BCE as a reaction to the rigid and oppressive Vedic religion and the emergence of new social and economic conditions. They challenged the caste system, the ritual sacrifices, the concept of God and the soul, and the supremacy of the Brahmins.

- They advocated a path of ethical conduct, asceticism, meditation, and liberation from the cycle of rebirth. They also developed their own metaphysical and cosmological views, such as the theory of karma, the doctrine of rebirth, and the concept of liberation (mokṣa or nirvāṇa).
- Some of the most prominent heterodox sects in India are:
 - Jainism: Founded by Mahāvīra, the 24th and last Tīrthaṅkara (ford-maker), who lived in the 6th-5th century BCE. Jainism teaches the principle of ahiṃsā (non-violence) towards all living beings, and the practice of five vows: non-violence, truthfulness, non-stealing, celibacy, and non-attachment. Jainism also believes in the existence of jīva (soul) and ajīva (non-soul), and the possibility of attaining kevala-jñāna (omniscience) and mokṣa (liberation) by following the three jewels: right faith, right knowledge, and right conduct. Jainism is divided into two main sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Śvetāmbara (white-clad), based on their differences in doctrine and practice.
 - Buddhism: Founded by Siddhārtha Gautama, also known as the Buddha (the awakened one), who lived in the 6th-5th century BCE. Buddhism teaches the four noble truths: the truth of suffering, the truth of the cause of suffering, the truth of the cessation of suffering, and the truth of the path leading to the cessation of suffering. The path consists of the eightfold path: right view, right intention, right speech, right action, right livelihood, right effort, right mindfulness, and right concentration. Buddhism also believes in the concept of anātman (no-self), the law of dependent origination, and the possibility of attaining nirvāṇa (extinction) by following the middle way between extremes. Buddhism is divided into many schools and traditions, such as Theravāda, Mahāyāna, and Vajrayāna, based on their differences in interpretation and practice.
 - Ājīvika: Founded by Makkhali Gosāla, a contemporary of Mahāvīra and the Buddha, who lived in the 6th-5th century BCE. Ājīvika teaches the doctrine of niyati (determinism), which holds that everything is predetermined by the cosmic force of nature, and that human actions have no effect on the course of events. Ājīvika also believes in the existence of 18 types of elements, six classes of living beings, and four stages of existence. Ājīvika practices include extreme asceticism, nudity, and ritual suicide. Ājīvika is considered to be extinct, as no authentic texts or followers have survived.
 - Cārvāka: Also known as Lokāyata (worldly), Cārvāka is a materialist and atheist school of thought that emerged in the 6th century BCE. Cārvāka teaches that the only source of knowledge is perception, and that there is no reality beyond the four elements: earth, water, fire, and air. Cārvāka also denies the existence of God, soul,

karma, rebirth, and liberation, and rejects the authority of the Vedas, the Brahmins, and the heterodox sects. Cārvāka advocates a hedonistic and pragmatic way of life, based on the maxim: “While life is yours, live joyously; none can escape Death’s searching eye: When once this frame of ours they burn, how shall it e’er again return?” Cārvāka is also considered to be

Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.
- The Bhakti movement in Hinduism refers to ideas and engagement that emerged in the medieval era on love and devotion to religious concepts built around one or more gods and goddesses.
- The Bhakti movement preached against the caste system using the local languages so that the message reached the masses.
- One who practices bhakti is called a bhakta.
- The Bhakti movement is believed to have originated in Tamil Nadu sometime around the 7th and 8th centuries.
- The Bhakti movement was a cultural, social and religious revolution, the ramifications of which are felt to this day as the movement gained impetus, galvanised the nation in waves and manifested its influence in India’s freedom struggle.
- According to the Bhagavadgita, a Hindu religious text, the path of bhakti, or bhakti-marga, is superior to the two other religious approaches, the path of knowledge (jnana-marga) and the path of ritual and action (karma-marga).
- The Bhakti movement was influenced by various factors, such as the rise of Islam, the influence of Sufism, the decline of Buddhism and Jainism, the revival of Vaishnavism and Shaivism, the emergence of regional languages and literature, and the socio-economic and political conditions of the time.
- The Bhakti movement was led by various saints and poets, who propagated their teachings through songs, hymns, stories, and legends. Some of the prominent bhakti saints and poets were Ramanuja, Basava, Ramananda, Kabir, Nanak, Chaitanya, Mirabai, Tulsidas, Surdas, and Tukaram.
- The Bhakti movement had a profound impact on the religious, social, and cultural life of India. It challenged the authority of the Brahmins and the rituals of the orthodox Hinduism. It promoted the idea of equality and brotherhood among all people, regardless of their caste, gender, or creed. It fostered a spirit of devotion, love, and compassion among the people. It enriched the regional languages and literature with the works of the bhakti saints and poets. It also contributed to the growth of various sects and cults within Hinduism, such as the Vaishnavas, Shaivas, Shaktas, and Sikhs.

: https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Bhakti_movement <https://www.indiatoday.in/news-analysis/story/bhakti-movement-and-its-role-in-india-s-freedom-struggle-that-pm-modi-talked-about-1741656-2020-11-17>
<https://www.britannica.com/topic/bhakti>

Sufi movement in India

- Sufism is a mystical branch of Islam that emphasizes the personal and spiritual experience of God.
- Sufism originated in Persia and spread to India in the 11th and 12th centuries, mainly through the travels of Sufi saints to Multan and Lahore.
- Sufism in India was influenced by the Vedantic philosophy and Buddhism of India, and also by the Bhakti movement of Hinduism.
- Sufism in India was organized into orders or silsilas, each with a spiritual leader or pir/sheikh/murshid, a disciple or murid, and a successor or khalifah.
- Some of the major Sufi orders in India were:
 - Chishti order: Founded by Khwaja Moinuddin Chishti in Ajmer, it was the most popular and influential order in India. It emphasized love, devotion, and service to humanity, and was tolerant of other religions. Some of the famous Chishti saints were Khwaja Qutbuddin Bakhtiyar Kaki, Baba Farid, Nizamuddin Auliya, and Amir Khusrau.
 - Suhrawardi order: Founded by Sheikh Shihabuddin Suhrawardi in Baghdad, it was introduced in India by Bahauddin Zakariya in Multan. It focused on strict observance of Islamic law and mystical exercises, and was patronized by the Delhi sultans and the nobility. Some of the notable Suhrawardi saints were Sheikh Hamiduddin Nagauri, Sheikh Ruknuddin, and Sheikh Naseeruddin Mahmud.
 - Qadiri order: Founded by Sheikh Abdul Qadir Jilani in Baghdad, it was brought to India by Sheikh Nizamuddin Auliya's disciple, Sheikh Nasiruddin Chiragh Dehlavi. It stressed on the importance of the Quran and the Hadith, and was known for its miracles and charismatic leaders. Some of the prominent Qadiri saints were Sheikh Abdul Haq Muhaddis Dehlavi, Sheikh Ahmad Sirhindi, and Sheikh Abdul Qadir Bedil.
 - Naqshbandi order: Founded by Khwaja Baha-ud-Din Naqshband in Bukhara, it was introduced in India by Khwaja Baqi Billah in Delhi. It advocated silent meditation and strict adherence to the Sunnah, and was opposed to the excessive rituals and music of other orders. Some of the eminent Naqshbandi saints were Sheikh Ahmad Sirhindi, Sheikh Mujaddid Alf Sani, and Sheikh Shah Waliullah.
- The Sufi movement in India had a significant impact on the religious, social, and cultural life of the people. It contributed to the spread of Islam, the synthesis of Hindu-Muslim culture, the development of regional languages and literature, the promotion of art and music, and the reform of society.

Socio religious reform movement of 19th century in India

- The socio religious reform movement of 19th century in India was a wave of reforming activities that aimed to improve the social, religious and cultural conditions of the Indian society.
- The main causes of the movement were:
 - The spread of western education and liberal ideas that exposed the Indians to the concepts of democracy, human rights, rationalism, nationalism and scientific temper.
 - The contact with the British rule and culture that made the Indians aware of the political, economic and social exploitation and oppression by the colonial power.
 - The influence of the Christian missionaries and the Islamic revivalists that challenged the Hindu orthodoxy and superstitions and provoked a defensive response from the Hindu reformers.
 - The emergence of a new middle class of educated, urban and professional Indians who were dissatisfied with the traditional social and religious norms and wanted to modernize and reform the society.
- The main types of the movement were:
 - The Hindu reform movements that aimed to reform the Hindu religion and society by removing the evils of caste system, untouchability, child marriage, sati, polygamy, idolatry, superstition and ritualism and promoting the ideals of monotheism, equality, education, social service and nationalism. Some of the prominent Hindu reform movements were:
 - * The Brahmo Samaj founded by Raja Ram Mohan Roy in 1828 that advocated the worship of one God, opposed idolatry, caste system, child marriage and sati and supported women's education and widow remarriage.
 - * The Arya Samaj founded by Swami Dayanand Saraswati in 1875 that propagated the doctrine of "back to the Vedas" and rejected the later Hindu scriptures, rituals, priesthood and caste system. It also encouraged the dissemination of western scientific knowledge and social service.
 - * The Prarthana Samaj founded by Atmaram Pandurang in 1867 that followed the Brahmo Samaj's principles of monotheism, rationalism and social reform and also worked for the upliftment of the depressed classes, women and the poor.
 - * The Ramakrishna Mission founded by Swami Vivekananda in 1897 that preached the message of Vedanta and universal brotherhood and engaged in various humanitarian and educational activities.
 - The Muslim reform movements that aimed to reform the Muslim religion and society by purifying the Islamic faith from the corruptions of the medieval period, reviving the Islamic learning and culture, and fostering a sense of Muslim identity and solidarity. Some of the

prominent Muslim reform movements were:

- * The Wahabi movement led by Syed Ahmed Bareilvi in the early 19th century that sought to restore the pure and original form of Islam and opposed the British rule, the Hindu influences and the Sufi practices.
 - * The Aligarh movement led by Sir Syed Ahmed Khan in the late 19th century that aimed to modernize the Muslim education and culture by establishing the Muhammadan Anglo-Oriental College (later Aligarh Muslim University) and promoting the western scientific and liberal education among the Muslims.
 - * The Deoband movement founded by Maulana Muhammad Qasim Nanautawi and Maulana Rashid Ahmed Gangohi in 1866 that focused on the revival of the Islamic theology and jurisprudence and the training of the Muslim religious scholars (ulama) and preachers (muballighin).
 - * The Ahmadiyya movement founded by Mirza Ghulam Ahmad in 1889 that claimed to be the true followers of Islam and the messiah of the latter days and propagated the peaceful and rational interpretation of Islam and the harmony of all religions.
- The Sikh reform movements that aimed to reform the Sikh religion and society by restoring the purity and originality of the Sikh faith and identity, removing the Hindu influences and practices, and strengthening the Sikh community and institutions. Some of the prominent Sikh reform movements were:
- * The Singh Sabha movement founded by Khem Singh Bedi and Thakur Singh Sandhanwalia in 1873 that worked for the revival of the Sikh scriptures, literature, history and culture and the reform of the Sikh religious and educational institutions.
 - * The Akali movement led by Master Tara Singh and Baba Kharak Singh in the early 20th century that fought for the liberation of the Sikh shrines (gurdwaras) from the corrupt and hereditary mahants (priests) and the establishment of the Shiromani Gurdwara Prabandhak Committee (SGPC) and the Shiromani

Modern religious practices in India

- India is a secular country with a diverse population that follows various religions, such as Hinduism, Islam, Christianity, Sikhism, Buddhism, Jainism, Zoroastrianism, and others .
- Religion plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians, influencing their culture, values, festivals, rituals, and social norms .
- Some of the common religious practices that are shared by different religious groups in India are:
 - Visiting houses of worship, such as temples, mosques, churches, gurdwaras, and monasteries, on a regular basis. According to a survey, 77% of Indians say they visit their place of worship at least once a

month.

- Giving to charitable causes, such as feeding the poor, donating to religious institutions, or supporting social movements. According to a survey, 80% of Indians say they have given money, food, or other goods to the needy in the past year.
- Celebrating festivals, such as Diwali, Eid, Christmas, Guru Nanak Jayanti, and Buddha Purnima, that mark important religious events or commemorate the lives of saints, prophets, or deities. These festivals often involve rituals, prayers, offerings, and social gatherings .
- Performing rites of passage, such as birth, naming, initiation, marriage, and death, that mark the transition from one stage of life to another. These rites often involve ceremonies, blessings, vows, and customs that vary according to the religion and region of the individual .
- Practicing meditation, yoga, or other forms of spiritual discipline, that aim to enhance one's physical, mental, and emotional well-being. These practices often draw from ancient traditions, such as Vedanta, Sufism, or Zen, that emphasize the connection between the self and the divine .
- Some of the distinctive religious practices that are specific to certain religious groups in India are :
 - Worshiping idols, images, or symbols of gods and goddesses, that represent various aspects of the supreme reality, such as Brahma, Vishnu, Shiva, Ganesha, Lakshmi, and Durga. This practice is common among Hindus, Jains, and some Buddhists .
 - Reciting the five pillars of Islam, that are the basic tenets of the faith, such as Shahada (declaration of faith), Salat (prayer), Zakat (almsgiving), Sawm (fasting), and Hajj (pilgrimage). This practice is obligatory for Muslims .
 - Following the teachings of Jesus Christ, that are based on the Bible, the holy book of Christianity, and the traditions of the church, such as baptism, communion, confession, and confirmation. This practice is essential for Christians .
 - Adhering to the code of conduct of Sikhism, that is derived from the Guru Granth Sahib, the sacred scripture of Sikhism, and the teachings of the ten Gurus, such as Nanak, Angad, and Gobind Singh. This practice includes wearing the five Ks, such as Kesh (uncut hair), Kangha (comb), Kara (steel bracelet), Kachera (cotton underwear), and Kirpan (sword) .
 - Following the eightfold path of Buddhism, that is the core doctrine of the religion, and consists of right view, right intention, right speech, right action, right livelihood, right effort, right mindfulness, and right concentration. This practice leads to the attainment of nirvana, the state of liberation from suffering .
 - Practicing non-violence, truthfulness, non-stealing, chastity, and non-

- attachment, that are the five vows of Jainism, and form the basis of the ethical code of the religion. This practice also involves respecting all forms of life, and avoiding harm to any living being .
- Worshiping fire, water, earth, air, and sky, that are the five elements of nature, and are considered sacred by Zoroastrians. This practice also involves praying in front of a fire temple, and wearing a sudreh

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

This module covers the various aspects of science, technology, and management in the Indian context, with a focus on the contributions of ancient and medieval India to various fields of knowledge. The module also explores the relevance and applications of Indian knowledge systems in the contemporary world.

The module consists of the following topics:

- **Astronomy in India:** The development of astronomy in India from the Vedic times to the modern era, with emphasis on the achievements of Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, and others. The concepts of sidereal and tropical zodiacs, lunar and solar calendars, eclipses, planetary motions, and cosmology in Indian astronomy. The influence of Indian astronomy on other civilizations and the challenges and opportunities for Indian astronomy today.
- **Chemistry in India:** The origin and evolution of chemistry in India, with reference to the concepts of panchabhuta, rasayana, and alchemy. The discoveries and inventions of Indian chemists, such as Nagarjuna, Kanada, Charaka, Sushruta, and others. The applications of chemistry in medicine, metallurgy, agriculture, cosmetics, and textiles. The legacy and significance of Indian chemistry in the modern world.
- **Mathematics in India:** The history and philosophy of mathematics in India, with reference to the concepts of zero, infinity, decimal system, algebra, geometry, trigonometry, and calculus. The contributions of Indian mathematicians, such as Baudhayana, Pingala, Panini, Katyayana, Apastamba, Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Mahavira, Madhava, and others. The impact of Indian mathematics on other cultures and the relevance and scope of Indian mathematics today.
- **Physics in India:** The emergence and development of physics in India, with reference to the concepts of atomism, motion, force, gravity, sound, light, heat, and electricity. The achievements and innovations of Indian physicists, such as Kanada, Gautama, Kapila, Patanjali, Bharata, Varahamihira, Aryabhata, Bhaskara, and others. The applications of physics in architecture, engineering, music, optics, and warfare. The challenges and prospects of Indian physics in the contemporary world.
- **Agriculture in India:** The origin and evolution of agriculture in India, with reference to the concepts of agro-ecology, crop rotation, irrigation, fertilization, pest control, and animal husbandry. The practices and techniques of

Indian farmers, such as Vrkshayurveda, Krishi-Parashara, Surapala, and others. The crops and products of Indian agriculture, such as rice, wheat, millets, pulses, spices, fruits, vegetables, cotton, silk, and sugar. The issues and opportunities for Indian agriculture in the current scenario.

- **Medicine in India:** The genesis and growth of medicine in India, with reference to the concepts of ayurveda, siddha, unani, and yoga. The discoveries and innovations of Indian physicians, such as Charaka, Sushruta, Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, Jivaka, and others. The diagnosis and treatment of various diseases and disorders in Indian medicine, such as fever, diabetes, leprosy, tuberculosis, cataract, and surgery. The benefits and challenges of Indian medicine in the modern world.
- **Metallurgy in India:** The origin and advancement of metallurgy in India, with reference to the concepts of loha, dhatu, and kritrima. The achievements and inventions of Indian metallurgists, such as Nagarjuna, Dharmottara, Rasa-Ratna-Samuccaya, and others. The production and properties of various metals and alloys in Indian metallurgy, such as iron, steel, copper, bronze, brass, zinc, and gold. The applications and implications of Indian metallurgy in art, architecture, coinage, and weaponry.
- **Geography in India:** The emergence and development of geography in India, with reference to the concepts of bhugola, jambudvipa, and sapta-dvipa. The contributions and explorations of Indian geographers, such as Varahamihira, Ptolemy, Alberuni, Ibn Battuta, and others. The description and classification of various regions and features of India and the world, such as mountains, rivers, lakes, oceans, islands, and continents. The challenges and prospects of Indian geography in the present context.
- **Biology in India:** The origin and progress of

Astronomy in India and Ancient India

- Astronomy in India has a long history that dates back to the pre-historic times. Some of the earliest references to astronomy are found in the Rig Veda, which are dated 2000 BC.
- Astronomy in India developed as a discipline of Vedanga, or one of the “auxiliary disciplines” associated with the study of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism. Vedanga astronomy dealt with the calculation of the calendar, the position of the sun, moon, planets and stars, and the determination of auspicious times for rituals.
- Astronomy in India also had outside influence from the third-century BCE, when India started having contact with Greece and other nations outside the subcontinent. The basic structure of Indian astronomy was influenced by the Greek, Babylonian and Persian astronomy, but the astronomical concepts and the major parameters were India’s own.
- Some of the notable astronomers of ancient India were Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Lalla, Sripati and Bhaskaracharya.

They made significant contributions to the fields of mathematics, trigonometry, algebra, geometry, and cosmology, as well as observational astronomy .

- Some of the achievements of ancient Indian astronomy are:
 - The discovery of the heliocentric model of the solar system by Aryabhata in the 5th century CE, which was later adopted by Copernicus in the 16th century CE.
 - The calculation of the value of π () by Aryabhata as 3.1416, which is accurate up to four decimal places.
 - The calculation of the sidereal year (the time taken by the earth to complete one revolution around the sun) by Aryabhata as 365.3586805 days, which is accurate up to six decimal places.
 - The calculation of the lunar eclipse and solar eclipse by Aryabhata using the shadow of the earth and the moon, respectively.
 - The calculation of the diameter of the earth by Aryabhata as 12,742 km, which is close to the modern value of 12,756 km.
 - The calculation of the circumference of the earth by Brahmagupta as 36,000 km, which is close to the modern value of 40,075 km.
 - The invention of the concept of zero and the use of decimal system by Brahmagupta in the 7th century CE, which was later adopted by the Arabs and the Europeans.
 - The invention of the sine, cosine and tangent functions by Aryabhata, which are the basis of trigonometry.
 - The invention of the quadratic equation and its solution by Brahmagupta and Bhaskara.
 - The invention of the concept of negative numbers and their operations by Brahmagupta.
 - The invention of the concept of infinity and its properties by Bhaskaracharya in the 12th century CE.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for astronomy in India and ancient India are:
 - To remember the names of the seven major ancient Indian astronomers, use the acronym AVBLSSB: Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Lalla, Sripati, Suryadeva and Bhaskaracharya.
 - To remember the value of π () by Aryabhata, use the phrase “Give me a circle, I’ll give you π ”: 3.1416.
 - To remember the value of the sidereal year by Aryabhata, use the phrase “Arya’s year is very precise”: 365.3586805.
 - To remember the diameter of the earth by Aryabhata, use the phrase “Arya’s earth is not so big”: 12,742 km.
 - To remember the circumference of the earth by Brahmagupta, use the phrase “Brahma’s earth is bigger than Arya’s”: 36,000 km.
 - To remember the concept of zero by Brahmagupta, use the phrase “Brahma’s zero is nothing and everything”: 0.

- To remember the quadratic equation and its solution by Brahmagupta and Bhaskara,

Chemistry in India and Ancient India

- Chemistry in ancient India was called **Rasayana** in Sanskrit, which means **extract** or **essence** of something .
- Chemistry in ancient India was not only a theoretical science, but also a practical one that found applications in various fields such as medicine, metallurgy, alchemy, cosmetics, perfumery, dyeing, agriculture, and warfare .
- Some of the achievements of chemistry in ancient India are:
 - The discovery of **zinc** and its extraction by the **distillation** process, which was unknown to the rest of the world until the 18th century . Zinc was called **yashada** or **jasta** in Sanskrit, and was used to make brass, coins, and alloys .
 - The invention of **wrought iron** or **steel** by heating iron with charcoal in a closed crucible, which was called **wootz** or **ukku** in the local languages. This steel was exported to various countries and was known for its hardness and quality . Wootz steel was used to make the famous **Damascus swords**.
 - The development of **Ayurveda**, the ancient system of medicine that used various herbs, minerals, metals, and animal products to treat diseases and promote health. Ayurveda also had a branch called **Rasashastra**, which dealt with the preparation and use of **mercury** and other metals for medicinal purposes . Mercury was called **rasa** or **parada** in Sanskrit, and was considered the essence of life.
 - The practice of **alchemy**, which aimed at the transmutation of metals, the production of the **elixir of life**, and the attainment of **spiritual enlightenment**. Alchemy was called **Rasavada** or **Rasakriya** in Sanskrit, and involved the use of various substances such as mercury, sulfur, arsenic, gold, silver, copper, lead, tin, and iron . Alchemists also experimented with various **chemical reactions**, such as oxidation, reduction, precipitation, sublimation, fusion, and fission.
 - The manufacture of various **cosmetics**, **perfumes**, and **dyes** using natural ingredients such as plants, flowers, fruits, minerals, and animal products. Cosmetics were called **Soundarya Shastra** in Sanskrit, and included products such as **kajal** (eye-liner), **kumkum** (vermilion), **chandan** (sandalwood paste), **haldi** (turmeric), **mehendi** (henna), and **multani mitti** (clay) . Perfumes were called **Gandha Shastra** in Sanskrit, and included products such as **attar** (essential oil), **agarbatti** (incense stick), **dhoop** (incense cone), and **gulab-jal** (rose water) . Dyes were called **Rangashastra** in Sanskrit, and included products such as **indigo** (blue dye), **manjistha** (red dye), **henna** (brown dye), and **kesari** (saffron) .

- The cultivation of various **crops** and the improvement of **soil fertility** using natural fertilizers and pesticides. Agriculture was called **Krishi Shastra** in Sanskrit, and involved the use of various substances such as **cow dung**, **cow urine**, **ash**, **bone meal**, **neem**, **tulsi**, and **turmeric** .
- The development of various **weapons** and **explosives** using chemical substances such as **saltpeter**, **sulfur**, **charcoal**, **arsenic**, **mercury**, and **gunpowder**. Warfare was called **Dhanur**

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

- Mathematics in India and Ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (around 2500 BCE) and continuing until the end of the 18th century CE.
- Mathematics in India and Ancient India was considered as one of the highest sciences, and was closely linked to astronomy, astrology, religion, philosophy, and art.
- Mathematics in India and Ancient India made significant contributions to various fields of mathematics, such as arithmetic, algebra, geometry, trigonometry, calculus, combinatorics, and number theory.
- Some of the notable mathematicians from India and Ancient India are:
 - Aryabhata (476-550 CE): He wrote the *Aryabhatiya*, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics, which contains the earliest known use of decimal place value system, the approximation of pi, the solution of linear and quadratic equations, the sine table, and the concept of zero.
 - Brahmagupta (598-668 CE): He wrote the *Brahmasphutasiddhanta*, a work on astronomy and mathematics, which contains the rules for arithmetic operations on zero, negative numbers, fractions, and surds, the solution of indeterminate equations, the formula for the area of a cyclic quadrilateral, and the Pythagorean theorem.
 - Bhaskara II (1114-1185 CE): He wrote the *Siddhanta Siromani*, a comprehensive treatise on astronomy and mathematics, which contains the concepts of differential calculus, infinite series, spherical trigonometry, the solution of Pell's equation, and the Chakravala method.
 - Varahamihira (505-587 CE): He wrote the *Panchasiddhantika*, a summary of five earlier astronomical works, which contains the trigonometric formulas for the sine and cosine functions, the calculation of eclipses, and the heliocentric model of the solar system.
 - Srinivasa Ramanujan (1887-1920 CE): He was a self-taught genius who made remarkable discoveries in number theory, modular forms, partition theory, continued fractions, and infinite series, some of which are still not fully understood. He collaborated with G.H. Hardy

and published several papers in prestigious journals.

- Some of the mathematical concepts and techniques that originated or developed in India and Ancient India are:
 - The decimal place value system and the use of zero as a number, which are the basis of modern arithmetic and numeration.
 - The concept of infinity and the use of infinitesimals, which are the foundation of calculus and analysis.
 - The concept of negative numbers and the rules for their arithmetic operations, which are essential for algebra and number theory.
 - The concept of fractions and the methods for their manipulation, which are important for rational numbers and proportions.
 - The concept of surds and the methods for their simplification, which are useful for irrational numbers and radicals.
 - The concept of algebra and the methods for solving linear, quadratic, cubic, and higher degree equations, which are fundamental for algebra and polynomials.
 - The concept of geometry and the methods for measuring lengths, areas, volumes, angles, and curves, which are basic for geometry and trigonometry.
 - The concept of trigonometry and the methods for calculating the sine, cosine, and tangent functions, which are vital for astronomy and spherical geometry.
 - The concept of combinatorics and the methods for counting permutations, combinations, and partitions, which are relevant for probability and discrete mathematics.
 - The concept of number theory and the methods for finding prime numbers, divisors, congruences, and Diophantine equations, which are related to cryptography and modular arithmetic.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for Mathematics in India and Ancient India are:
 - The Katapayadi system, which is a method of encoding numbers by using the consonants of the Sanskrit alphabet, where each consonant has a numerical value from 1 to 9, and the vowels have no value. For example, the word “gopi” (meaning cowherd) has the numerical value of 3, because the consonants g, p, and y have the values of 3, 1, and 4 respectively, and the vowel i has no value. This system was used to memorize astronomical constants, such as the value of pi, which was encoded as ”chaturadhikaṃ śatamaṣṭagaṇaṃ dvāṣaṣ

Physics in India and Ancient India

- Physics is the branch of science that deals with the nature and properties of matter and energy, and the interactions between them.

- Physics in India and Ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic era (1500-500 BCE), and continuing through the classical, medieval and modern periods.
- Some of the main achievements and contributions of Indian physics are:
 - The concept of **shunya** (zero) and its use in mathematics and astronomy. The decimal system and the place value notation were also developed by Indian mathematicians.
 - The discovery of the **law of gravity** by Bhaskara II (1114-1185 CE), who stated that the earth attracts every object with a force proportional to its mass and inversely proportional to the square of the distance.
 - The development of **astronomy** and **astrology**, which involved the observation and measurement of celestial phenomena, the calculation of planetary motions and eclipses, and the prediction of future events based on the positions of stars and planets.
 - The formulation of the **atomic theory** by the Vaisheshika school of philosophy, which proposed that all matter is composed of indivisible and indestructible atoms (anu) of different types and sizes, and that these atoms combine to form molecules (dwinuka) and larger aggregates (tryanuka).
 - The exploration of the **nature of light** and **optics** by various scholars, such as Aryabhata (476-550 CE), who suggested that light travels in straight lines and that the moon reflects the light of the sun; Varahamihira (505-587 CE), who described the rainbow, the halo, and the mirage; and Al-Biruni (973-1048 CE), who measured the speed of light and explained the phenomenon of refraction.
 - The study of **sound** and **acoustics** by several thinkers, such as Bharata Muni (2nd century BCE), who classified musical notes and scales; Pingala (3rd century BCE), who devised a binary system of notation for musical rhythms; and Nagarjuna (2nd century CE), who investigated the resonance and vibration of strings and drums.
 - The investigation of the **nature of matter** and **thermodynamics** by various schools of thought, such as the Sankhya, which postulated that matter consists of three qualities (gunas) of sattva (purity), rajas (activity), and tamas (inertia); and the Nyaya, which proposed that matter has four properties of shape, quantity, motion, and quality.
 - The application of physics to various fields of **technology** and **engineering**, such as metallurgy, architecture, medicine, agriculture, warfare, and transportation. Some of the inventions and innovations of Indian physics include the iron pillar of Delhi, which has resisted corrosion for over 1600 years; the Ajanta caves, which have a sophisticated system of natural lighting and ventilation; the surgical instruments and techniques of Sushruta (6th century BCE), who performed cataract surgery and plastic surgery; the water harvesting and irrigation systems of the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900

BCE); the rocket and missile technology of Tipu Sultan (1750-1799 CE); and the steam engine and railway locomotive of Jamsetji Tata (1839-1904 CE).

- Physics in India and Ancient India has influenced and been influenced by other cultures and civilizations, such as the Greeks, the Arabs, the Chinese, and the Europeans. Some of the notable examples of cross-cultural exchange are:
 - The transmission of Indian astronomy and mathematics to the Islamic world, which in turn influenced the development of science in Europe during the Renaissance and the Enlightenment.
 - The introduction of Indian numerals and the zero to Europe by the Arabs, which revolutionized the field of arithmetic and algebra.
 - The adoption of Indian musical instruments and scales by the Persians, the Turks, and the Mongols, which enriched the musical traditions of Asia and the Middle East.
 - The diffusion of Indian metallurgy and textiles to China, Southeast Asia, and Africa, which enhanced the quality and variety of products and crafts.
 - The collaboration of Indian and British scientists and engineers during the colonial period, which led to the advancement of physics and technology in both countries.
- Physics in India and Ancient India is a fascinating and inspiring subject, which reveals the creativity and curiosity of the human mind, and the diversity and unity of the human culture. It also offers valuable insights and lessons for the present

Agriculture in India and Ancient India

- Agriculture is one of the oldest and most important activities in human history. It involves the cultivation of plants and animals for food, fiber, fuel, medicine and other products.
- Agriculture in India and Ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Neolithic period (around 9000 BCE) when the first domestication of plants and animals occurred in the Indus Valley and other regions.
- Some of the main crops grown in ancient India were rice, wheat, barley, millets, pulses, sugarcane, cotton, oilseeds, spices, fruits and vegetables. Some of the main animals raised were cattle, sheep, goats, horses, elephants, camels, chickens and pigs.
- Agriculture in ancient India was influenced by various factors, such as geography, climate, soil, water, irrigation, ploughing, fertilization, crop rotation, pest control, storage, trade and taxation.
- Agriculture in ancient India was also closely linked to the social, cultural, religious and political aspects of life. Farmers were respected and revered for their contribution to the society and the economy. Agriculture was

considered a sacred duty and a way of worshiping the gods and the earth. Various rituals, festivals, hymns and scriptures were associated with agriculture and its cycles.

- Agriculture in ancient India was also a source of innovation and knowledge. The ancient Indians developed various techniques and tools for agriculture, such as the wooden plough, the iron sickle, the seed drill, the irrigation canal, the well, the water wheel, the dam, the reservoir, the aqueduct and the artificial lake. They also had a sophisticated understanding of the seasons, the stars, the plants, the animals, the soil, the water and the climate. They documented their agricultural practices and wisdom in various texts, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Arthashastra, the Manusmriti, the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, the Puranas and the Agni Purana.
- Agriculture in ancient India was also a catalyst for the development of civilization and culture. The surplus of food and wealth generated by agriculture enabled the growth of urbanization, trade, art, literature, science, technology, philosophy, religion and education. Agriculture also influenced the formation of social classes, castes, kingdoms, empires and wars.
- Agriculture in ancient India was a dynamic and diverse phenomenon that evolved over time and space. It reflected the diversity of the Indian sub-continent and its people, as well as the interactions with other regions and civilizations. Agriculture in ancient India was a legacy that continues to shape the present and the future of India and the world.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the topic are:

- To remember the main crops grown in ancient India, use the acronym RWSMPCOSFV (Rice, Wheat, Sugarcane, Millets, Pulses, Cotton, Oilseeds, Spices, Fruits, Vegetables).
- To remember the main animals raised in ancient India, use the acronym CSGHECCP (Cattle, Sheep, Goats, Horses, Elephants, Camels, Chickens, Pigs).
- To remember the main factors influencing agriculture in ancient India, use the acronym GCSWIPTST (Geography, Climate, Soil, Water, Irrigation, Ploughing, Fertilization, Crop rotation, Pest control, Storage, Trade, Taxation).
- To remember the main techniques and tools developed for agriculture in ancient India, use the acronym WISIWDRAA (Wooden plough, Iron sickle, Seed drill, Irrigation canal, Well, Water wheel, Dam, Reservoir, Aqueduct, Artificial lake).
- To remember the main texts documenting agriculture in ancient India, use the acronym VUARMMPA (Vedas, Upanishads, Arthashastra, Manusmriti, Ramayana, Mahabharata, Puranas, Agni Purana).

Medicine in India and Ancient India

- Medicine in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE) and continuing to the present day.
- The ancient Indian system of medicine is known as Ayurveda, which means “the science of life”. Ayurveda is based on the concept of balance among the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether) and the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha), which are the vital energies that govern the body and mind.
- Ayurveda uses various methods of diagnosis, such as pulse, urine, tongue, and eye examination, and prescribes treatments that include diet, lifestyle, herbs, minerals, metals, and surgical procedures. Ayurveda also emphasizes the importance of prevention, holistic health, and spiritual well-being.
- Some of the famous ancient Indian physicians and surgeons were Charaka, Sushruta, Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, and Dhanvantari. They wrote authoritative texts on Ayurveda, such as the Charaka Samhita, the Sushruta Samhita, the Ashtanga Hridaya, and the Rasaratnakara, which cover various aspects of medicine, such as anatomy, physiology, pathology, pharmacology, surgery, obstetrics, gynecology, pediatrics, and geriatrics.
- Charaka is considered the father of Indian medicine and the author of the Charaka Samhita, which is the oldest and most comprehensive text on Ayurveda. He classified diseases into eight categories and described the causes, symptoms, diagnosis, prognosis, and treatment of various disorders. He also gave detailed descriptions of the digestive system, the circulatory system, the nervous system, and the immune system.
- Sushruta is regarded as the father of Indian surgery and the author of the Sushruta Samhita, which is the oldest and most complete text on surgery. He described various surgical instruments, techniques, procedures, and operations, such as rhinoplasty, lithotomy, cataract extraction, caesarean section, and amputation. He also gave detailed descriptions of the skeletal system, the muscular system, the urinary system, and the reproductive system.
- Vagbhata is considered the author of the Ashtanga Hridaya, which is a concise and comprehensive text on Ayurveda. He summarized the teachings of Charaka and Sushruta and added his own observations and insights. He also gave detailed descriptions of the respiratory system, the endocrine system, the cardiovascular system, and the nervous system.
- Nagarjuna is regarded as the author of the Rasaratnakara, which is a text on alchemy and metallurgy. He described various methods of preparing and using metals, minerals, and gems for medicinal purposes. He also gave detailed descriptions of the chemical properties, reactions, and trans-

formations of various substances.

- Dhanvantari is revered as the god of medicine and the originator of Ayurveda. He is said to have emerged from the ocean of milk with a pot of nectar (amrita) that grants immortality. He is also said to have taught Ayurveda to his disciples, such as Sushruta and Charaka.
- A mnemonic to remember the names of the five ancient Indian physicians and surgeons is:
 - Charaka - Comprehensive medicine
 - Sushruta - Surgery
 - Vagbhata - Versatile summary
 - Nagarjuna - Novel alchemy
 - Dhanvantari - Divine origin
- A learning trick to remember the eight categories of diseases according to Charaka is:
 - The first letter of each category spells out the word **NIDANAS**, which means “causes” in Sanskrit.
 - The eight categories are:
 - * Nadi (vascular diseases)
 - * Indriya (sensory diseases)
 - * Doshaja (diseases caused by imbalance of doshas)
 - * Agantu (external diseases)
 - * Nija (internal diseases)
 - * Anukta (unexplained diseases)
 - * Swabhavika (natural diseases)

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

Metallurgy is the science and art of extracting metals from their ores and refining them for various purposes. Metallurgy in India and ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Chalcolithic period (around 2500 BCE) and continuing until the medieval times (around 1500 CE). Some of the salient features of metallurgy in India and ancient India are:

- Copper was one of the first metals to be used by humans, and copper metallurgy in India dates back to the Chalcolithic societies in the subcontinent, according to spectrometric tests on copper ore samples discovered from ancient mine pits at Khetri in Rajasthan and metal samples cut from representative Harappan artefacts unearthed from Mitathal in Haryana.
- The Rigveda, one of the oldest texts in the world, mentions the term *Ayas* (), which means metal, and refers to both copper and bronze. The Rigveda also describes the use of iron for making weapons, tools, and ornaments.

- The ‘seven metals of antiquity’, as they are sometimes called, were, more or less in order of discovery: gold, copper, silver, lead, tin, iron and mercury. For over 7,000 years, India has had a high tradition of metallurgical skills; let us see some of its landmarks.
- Gold and silver were used for making jewellery, coins, and other decorative items. India was one of the earliest sources of gold, and the ancient Indians had developed sophisticated methods of gold extraction, such as the use of fire-setting, hydraulic mining, and amalgamation.
- Lead and tin were mainly used for making alloys, such as bronze and pewter. Bronze was widely used for making statues, vessels, mirrors, and weapons. The ancient Indians had mastered the art of bronze casting, and produced some of the finest examples of bronze sculpture, such as the dancing girl of Mohenjo-daro and the Nataraja of Chola dynasty.
- Iron was the most important metal for the ancient Indians, as it revolutionized the fields of agriculture, warfare, and architecture. Iron working in India may have begun as early as 1800 BCE, and by the early 13th century BCE, iron smelting was definitely practiced on a large scale. The ancient Indians used iron for making tools, weapons, nails, beams, pillars, and bridges. The most famous example of ancient Indian iron metallurgy is the Delhi Iron Pillar, which is a 7.21 meter high, 6.5 tonne pillar of wrought iron that has withstood corrosion for over 1600 years .
- Zinc was another metal that the ancient Indians excelled in. Zinc was extracted in India as early as in the 4th to 3rd century BCE. Zinc production may have begun in India, and ancient northwestern India is the earliest known civilization that produced zinc on an industrial scale. The distillation technique was developed around 1200 CE at Zawar in Rajasthan. The ancient Indians used zinc for making brass, an alloy of copper and zinc, and for making medicinal and cosmetic products.

Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for metallurgy in India and ancient India are:

- To remember the order of discovery of the seven metals of antiquity, use the acronym GCSL TIM, which stands for Gold, Copper, Silver, Lead, Tin, Iron, and Mercury.
- To remember the main uses of the seven metals of antiquity, use the acronym JCAM AWS, which stands for Jewellery, Coins, Alloys, Medicine, Agriculture, Warfare, and Sculpture.
- To remember the location and date of the Delhi Iron Pillar, use the rhyme: In Delhi, there stands a pillar, made of iron in 400 CE.
- To remember the location and date of the zinc distillation technique, use the rhyme: In Zawar, they made zinc, by distilling it in 1200 CE.

Geography in India and Ancient India

- India is a large and diverse country in South Asia, with a total area of 3.28 million square kilometers and a population of about 1.38 billion people.

- India has a variety of physical features, such as mountains, plateaus, plains, coasts, islands, and deserts. It also has a range of climatic zones, from tropical to temperate, and a rich biodiversity of flora and fauna.
- India is bordered by the Himalayas in the north, the Indian Ocean in the south, the Arabian Sea in the west, and the Bay of Bengal in the east. It shares land borders with Pakistan, China, Nepal, Bhutan, Bangladesh, and Myanmar.
- India is divided into 28 states and 8 union territories, each with its own history, culture, language, and governance. The capital of India is New Delhi, which is also one of the largest and most populous cities in the country.
- India has a long and ancient history, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE), which was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world. India was also home to several other ancient cultures, such as the Vedic, Mauryan, Gupta, Harappan, and Chola civilizations, which made significant contributions to art, literature, science, mathematics, astronomy, religion, and philosophy.
- India was influenced by various external cultures and religions, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Islam, Christianity, Sikhism, Zoroastrianism, and Judaism, which shaped its diverse and pluralistic society. India also had extensive trade and cultural contacts with other regions, such as Central Asia, Southeast Asia, China, Europe, Africa, and the Middle East.
- India was colonized by the British from the 18th to the 20th century, which had a profound impact on its economy, politics, society, and culture. India fought for its independence through various movements and leaders, such as Mahatma Gandhi, Jawaharlal Nehru, Subhash Chandra Bose, and Bhagat Singh. India became a sovereign democratic republic in 1947, after partitioning with Pakistan and Bangladesh.
- India is one of the fastest-growing and most influential countries in the world, with a strong economy, a vibrant democracy, a diverse culture, and a prominent role in global affairs. India faces many challenges and opportunities, such as poverty, inequality, corruption, terrorism, climate change, urbanization, globalization, and regional integration.

Some mnemonics and learning tricks for the geography of India and ancient India are:

- To remember the names of the seven sister states in northeastern India, use the acronym ATM MAN U: Arunachal Pradesh, Tripura, Mizoram, Meghalaya, Assam, Nagaland, and Manipur.
- To remember the names of the four major rivers that originate from the Himalayas, use the acronym GIBS: Ganga, Indus, Brahmaputra, and Sutlej.
- To remember the names of the four ancient civilizations that flourished in India, use the acronym VEGH: Vedic, Mauryan, Gupta, and Harappan.
- To remember the names of the four major religions that originated in India, use the acronym BJJS: Buddhism, Jainism, Hinduism, and Sikhism.

Biology in India and Ancient India

- Biology is the science of life that studies living organisms and their interactions with each other and their environment.
- India has a rich and diverse biological heritage that dates back to ancient times.
- The Vedic period (3000-800 BCE) is considered the earliest phase of Indian civilization, and the source of the Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The Vedas contain many references to plants and animals, and their uses in medicine, agriculture, rituals, and cosmology.
- According to one source, 740 plants and 250 animals were recorded in the Vedic literature, proving that the ancient Indians observed and documented the natural world.
- Some of the plants and animals mentioned in the Vedas are still found in India today, such as the soma plant, the sacred fig tree, the lotus, the cow, the elephant, the lion, and the peacock.
- The Vedas also describe the concept of prana, the vital force or life energy that pervades all living beings and the universe.
- The Vedas also mention the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether) that constitute the material world, and the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha) that govern the health and temperament of living beings.
- The Ayurveda, the ancient system of medicine and wellness, is based on the principles of the Vedas, and uses plants and animals as sources of drugs and remedies.
- The Ayurveda also classifies living beings into eight categories: jarayuja (born of womb), andaja (born of egg), svedaja (born of sweat), udbhijja (born of earth), sthavara (immobile), jangama (mobile), dvipada (two-legged), and chatushpada (four-legged).
- The Ayurveda also describes the anatomy and physiology of the human body, and the functions of various organs, tissues, fluids, and channels.
- The Ayurveda also recognizes the importance of hygiene, diet, exercise, and mental health for the prevention and cure of diseases.
- The ancient Indians also made significant contributions to the fields of botany, zoology, and other branches of biology.
- The Charaka Samhita and the Sushruta Samhita are two of the most important texts of Ayurveda, and contain detailed descriptions of hundreds of plants and animals, and their medicinal properties.
- The Charaka Samhita also mentions the concept of germs and contagion, and the Sushruta Samhita describes various surgical procedures and instruments, including plastic surgery and cataract surgery.
- The ancient Indians also developed the science of genetics, and studied the inheritance of traits and characteristics in plants and animals.
- The ancient Indians also experimented with cross-breeding and hybridization of plants and animals, and produced varieties such as mules, ligers, and tigons.
- The ancient Indians also observed and documented the behavior and ecol-

ogy of various animals, and their roles in the food chain and the environment.

- The ancient Indians also revered and worshipped many animals as symbols of divinity, such as the cow, the monkey, the snake, the eagle, and the elephant.
- The ancient Indians also practiced animal welfare and conservation, and advocated for the protection and respect of all living beings.
- The ancient Indians also explored the origin and evolution of life, and proposed various theories and myths to explain the diversity and complexity of the natural world.
- The ancient Indians also recognized the interdependence and harmony of all living beings, and the concept of karma, the law of cause and effect that governs the cycle of birth and death.

: <https://www.hinduscriptures.in/vedic-knowledge/contribution-to-the-world/biology/the-science-of-life-in-the-vedic-age>

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

- The Harappan civilization, also known as the Indus Valley civilization, was a Bronze Age civilization that flourished in the Indus River basin from c. 3300 BCE to 1300 BCE .
- Some of the important innovations and achievements of this civilization include:
 - Standardized weights and measures, based on a decimal system and a binary subdivision, that facilitated trade and commerce.
 - Seal carving, using steatite or soapstone, that produced distinctive seals with animal motifs and pictographic script, used for identification, authentication, and ritual purposes.
 - Metallurgy, involving the use of copper, bronze, lead, and tin, to make tools, weapons, ornaments, and vessels . The Harappans also knew how to smelt zinc and produce brass.
 - Urban planning, featuring well-planned cities with grid-like layout, drainage systems, public baths, granaries, and fortifications . The Harappans built massive brick structures, using baked bricks of uniform size and shape.
 - Agriculture, irrigation, and animal husbandry, that supported a large and diverse population . The Harappans cultivated wheat, barley, rice, peas, sesame, and cotton, and domesticated animals such as cattle, sheep, goats, pigs, dogs, and elephants.
 - Maritime trade and navigation, that connected the Harappan civilization with other ancient civilizations such as Mesopotamia, Egypt, and Persia . The Harappans used boats and ships made of wood and reeds, and navigated by stars and landmarks.
 - Arts and crafts, that reflected the Harappan culture and religion .

The Harappans produced pottery, terracotta figurines, beads, jewelry, toys, and games, using various materials such as clay, stone, metal, shell, ivory, and bone.

- Writing system, that remains undeciphered to date . The Harappan script consisted of about 400 symbols, representing both phonetic and ideographic elements, and was written from right to left.
- A possible mnemonic to remember some of the Harappan technologies is:
 - **Standardized weights and measures**
 - **Exquisite seal carving**
 - **Advanced metallurgy**
 - **Logical urban planning**
 - **Sophisticated agriculture and irrigation**
 - **Extensive maritime trade and navigation**
 - **Artistic arts and crafts**
 - **Lost writing system**
 - **SEAL SEAL** the deal with Harappan technologies!

Water Management in India and Ancient India

- Water management is the art and science of planning, developing, distributing and managing the optimum use of water resources.
- Water management in India has a long history, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE) and beyond.
- Some of the features of water management in India and ancient India are:
 - **Traditional water conservation systems:** These are indigenous ways of capturing, storing and using rainwater, groundwater and surface water. They include tanks, ponds, wells, stepwells, check dams, bunds, canals, etc. They are designed according to the local geography, climate, culture and needs of the people.
 - **Hydraulic structures:** These are engineering works that control the flow and distribution of water for irrigation, drainage, flood control, navigation, etc. They include dams, barrages, sluices, aqueducts, bridges, etc. They are built with materials such as brick, stone, wood, metal, etc. They reflect the advanced knowledge of hydrology, hydraulics, mathematics and astronomy in ancient India.
 - **Wastewater disposal systems:** These are systems that collect, treat and dispose of domestic and industrial wastewater. They include sewers, drains, cesspits, soak pits, etc. They are designed to prevent pollution, disease and environmental degradation. They

show the high standards of sanitation and public health in ancient India.

- **Water treatment methods:** These are methods that purify water for drinking and other purposes. They include boiling, filtering, settling, coagulating, disinfecting, etc. They use natural materials such as sand, gravel, charcoal, clay, plants, etc. They demonstrate the scientific understanding of water quality and chemistry in ancient India.
- Some of the benefits of water management in India and ancient India are:
 - **Water security:** Water management ensures the availability and accessibility of water for various uses, especially during droughts and floods. It also reduces the dependency on external sources of water, such as rivers, lakes, etc.
 - **Agricultural productivity:** Water management enhances the irrigation potential and efficiency of the land, leading to higher crop yields and diversification. It also prevents soil erosion, salinization and waterlogging.
 - **Socio-economic development:** Water management supports the livelihoods and well-being of the people, especially the rural and poor communities. It also fosters trade, commerce, industry and urbanization.
 - **Cultural heritage:** Water management reflects the values, beliefs, traditions and aesthetics of the people. It also creates spaces for social, religious and recreational activities.
- Some of the challenges of water management in India and ancient India are:
 - **Water scarcity:** Water management faces the problem of insufficient and uneven distribution of water resources, due to factors such as population growth, climate change, overexploitation, pollution, etc.
 - **Water conflicts:** Water management leads to disputes and conflicts over the allocation and sharing of water resources, among different regions, sectors, groups and countries.
 - **Water degradation:** Water management causes the deterioration and depletion of water resources, due to factors such as deforestation, land use change, industrialization, urbanization, etc.
 - **Water governance:** Water management requires the effective and efficient coordination and regulation of water resources, among various stakeholders, institutions, policies and laws.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for water management in India and ancient India are:
 - **T.H.W.W.:** This stands for Traditional, Hydraulic, Wastewater and Water treatment, the four features of water management in India and

ancient India.

- **W.A.S.C.:** This stands for Water security, Agricultural productivity, Socio-economic development and Cultural heritage, the four benefits of water management in India and ancient India.
- **W.C.D.G.:** This stands for Water scarcity, Water conflicts, Water degradation and Water governance, the four challenges of water management in India and ancient India.

Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

- Textile technology is the science and art of producing fabrics from natural or synthetic materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, or polyester.
- India has a long and rich history of textile production and trade, dating back to prehistoric times. India was one of the first countries to cultivate cotton and weave it into cloth, and also developed techniques of dyeing, printing, and embroidery.
- Some of the main features of textile technology in India and ancient India are:
 - Cotton was the most widely used material for textiles, as it was suitable for the tropical climate and easy to grow and process. Cotton was also exported to other countries, such as Greece, Rome, China, and Egypt, where it was highly valued for its quality and fineness .
 - Silk was another important material for textiles, especially for the elite and the religious. Silk was produced from the cocoons of silk-worms, which were native to China and later introduced to India. Silk was also traded with other regions, such as Central Asia and Europe, and was used for making garments, tapestries, and carpets.
 - Wool was mainly used for making warm and coarse fabrics, such as blankets, shawls, and rugs. Wool was obtained from sheep, goats, and camels, and was dyed with natural colors, such as indigo, madder, and turmeric. Wool was also exported to colder regions, such as Tibet and Afghanistan.
 - Other materials used for textiles included jute, hemp, flax, and banana fibers, which were used for making ropes, mats, baskets, and sacks. Some of these fibers were also mixed with cotton or silk to create different textures and qualities of fabrics.
 - The main tools used for textile production were the spindle, the loom, the needle, and the scissors. The spindle was used for spinning fibers into yarns, which were then woven into fabrics on the loom. The loom could be horizontal or vertical, and could be operated by hand or by foot. The needle was used for sewing, embroidering, and quilting fabrics, and the scissors were used for cutting and shaping fabrics .

- The main techniques used for textile decoration were dyeing, printing, and embroidery. Dyeing involved soaking fabrics in natural or synthetic dyes, which could be derived from plants, animals, or minerals. Printing involved applying patterns or motifs on fabrics using wooden blocks, metal stamps, or stencils. Embroidery involved stitching designs or embellishments on fabrics using threads, beads, sequins, or shells .
- Some of the main types of textiles produced in India and ancient India were:
 - * Muslin: A fine and delicate cotton fabric, which was famous for its transparency and softness. Muslin was used for making garments, such as saris, dhotis, and turbans, and was also exported to other countries, such as Persia, Arabia, and Europe .
 - * Calico: A coarse and durable cotton fabric, which was printed with colorful and intricate patterns. Calico was used for making garments, such as kurtas, pajamas, and jackets, and was also exported to other countries, such as England, France, and America .
 - * Chintz: A glazed and polished cotton fabric, which was printed with floral and animal motifs. Chintz was used for making garments, such as coats, gowns, and skirts, and was also exported to other countries, such as Holland, Portugal, and Spain .
 - * Brocade: A rich and ornate silk fabric, which was woven with gold or silver threads. Brocade was used for making garments, such as robes, shawls, and scarves, and was also used for making religious and ceremonial items, such as banners, canopies, and curtains .
 - * Jamdani: A fine and elaborate cotton fabric, which was woven with supplementary weft threads to create geometric or floral designs. Jamdani was used for making garments, such as saris, dupattas, and lungis, and was also exported to other countries, such as Persia, Turkey, and Indonesia .
 - * Patola: A complex and expensive silk fabric, which was dy

Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

- Writing technology is the use of various tools and techniques to produce written communication.
- India has a rich and diverse history of writing technology, dating back to the ancient Indus Valley Civilization (IVC) and continuing to the present day.
- Some of the main features of writing technology in India and ancient India are:

- The Indus Script: This is the writing system developed by the IVC and it is the earliest form of writing known in the Indian subcontinent. It consists of about 400 symbols that are mostly pictographic and geometric. The script was used to write on seals, pottery, copper plates, and other objects. The script has not been deciphered yet, and its linguistic affiliation is unknown.
 - The Kharosthi Script: This is a syllabic script that was used to write various languages, such as Prakrit, Gandhari, Sanskrit, and Bactrian, in the northwestern regions of India and Central Asia. It was derived from the Aramaic script and was influenced by the Greek alphabet. It was written from right to left and had 35 consonants and 15 vowels.
 - The Brahmi Script: This is a semialphabetic script that was used to write various languages, such as Prakrit, Sanskrit, Pali, and Tamil, in the Indian subcontinent and Southeast Asia. It was derived from the Indus script or an unknown source and was influenced by the Kharosthi script. It was written from left to right and had 33 consonants and 12 vowels.
 - The Devanagari Script: This is an alphasyllabic script that is used to write various languages, such as Hindi, Sanskrit, Marathi, and Nepali, in the Indian subcontinent and beyond. It is derived from the Brahmi script and has a horizontal line at the top of each letter. It has 33 consonants and 11 vowels, and uses diacritics to modify the sounds of the letters.
 - The Indic Scripts: These are a group of scripts that are derived from the Brahmi script and are used to write various languages, such as Bengali, Gujarati, Kannada, Malayalam, Oriya, Punjabi, Tamil, and Telugu, in the Indian subcontinent and beyond. They have similar features, such as consonant clusters, vowel signs, and modifiers, but differ in their shapes, styles, and regional variations.
- Some of the advantages of writing technology in India and ancient India are:
 - It preserves the cultural and linguistic diversity of India and its regions.
 - It facilitates the transmission and dissemination of knowledge, literature, religion, and art across time and space.
 - It reflects the social and political changes and developments in India and its history.
 - It enables the expression and communication of ideas, emotions, and identities.
 - Some of the disadvantages of writing technology in India and ancient India are:
 - It poses challenges for the standardization, digitization, and accessibility of the written texts and scripts.

- It creates barriers for the literacy, education, and integration of the diverse linguistic communities in India.
- It may lead to the loss or marginalization of some languages and scripts due to the dominance or preference of others.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for writing technology in India and ancient India are:
 - To remember the order of the scripts from oldest to newest, use the acronym **IBKD** (Indus, Brahmi, Kharosthi, Devanagari).
 - To remember the direction of writing of the scripts, use the phrase **Right Left Left Right** (Kharosthi is right to left, the rest are left to right).
 - To remember the number of consonants and vowels in the Devanagari script, use the rhyme **Three Three Eleven** (33 consonants and 11 vowels).

Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India

- Pyrotechnics is the art and science of creating and using fireworks for entertainment, military, or ceremonial purposes.
- Fireworks are devices that produce light, sound, smoke, or flame effects by burning or exploding a mixture of chemicals, such as gunpowder, saltpeter, sulfur, and charcoal.
- The origin of fireworks is not clear, but some historians believe that they were invented in China around the 7th century CE, and later spread to other parts of Asia, Europe, and the Americas.
- In India, fireworks have a long and rich history, dating back to the medieval period, when they were used by various kingdoms and empires for royal celebrations, festivals, and events.
- One of the earliest records of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443. He wrote that he witnessed a magnificent display of fireworks on the occasion of the king's birthday, which lasted for several hours and filled the sky with various colors and shapes.
- Another source of information on fireworks in India is the Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Odisha. The book describes various formulas and methods for making and using fireworks, as well as the types and names of different fireworks, such as rockets, wheels, fountains, stars, snakes, and flowers .
- Fireworks were also used by the Mughal emperors, who were fond of lavish and spectacular displays of pyrotechnics. The most famous example is the celebration of the coronation of Emperor Jahangir in 1605, which was attended by thousands of people and featured a grand show of fireworks that lasted for three days and nights.
- Fireworks were also a part of the cultural and religious traditions of India,

especially during the festival of Diwali, which is also known as the festival of lights. Diwali is celebrated by Hindus, Sikhs, Jains, and Buddhists, and marks the victory of good over evil, light over darkness, and knowledge over ignorance. Fireworks are used to symbolize the joy and happiness of the occasion, as well as to ward off evil spirits and welcome prosperity and luck.

- However, in recent times, fireworks have also become a source of environmental and health problems, as they cause air and noise pollution, fire accidents, and injuries. The Supreme Court of India has imposed several restrictions and regulations on the use and sale of fireworks, especially during Diwali, to reduce the harmful effects of fireworks on people and the planet.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the topic are:

- To remember the name of the book that describes fireworks in India, think of **Kautuka** as a synonym for **wonder** or **curiosity**, and **chintamani** as a **gem** or **jewel**. So, the book is a **wonderful gem** of knowledge about fireworks.
- To remember the name of the Timurid ambassador who witnessed the fireworks in Vijayanagar, think of **Abdur Razzaq** as **Abdul** (a common Muslim name) and **Razzaq** as **Razak** (a common Indian surname). So, the ambassador is **Abdul Razak**.
- To remember the year of the coronation of Emperor Jahangir, think of **1605** as **16** (the age of many teenagers) and **05** (the number of fingers on one hand). So, the year is **teenage hand**.

Trade in Ancient India

- Trade and commerce were important aspects of ancient Indian civilization. India had extensive contacts with other regions through land and sea routes, and exchanged various goods, ideas, and technologies with them.
- Trade in ancient India can be divided into three periods: the pre-Vedic period (before 1500 BCE), the Vedic period (1500-600 BCE), and the post-Vedic period (600 BCE-300 CE).
- In the pre-Vedic period, India was mainly engaged in trade with the Indus Valley Civilization (IVC), which had developed a sophisticated urban culture and a network of trade with Mesopotamia, Egypt, and Central Asia. The IVC produced and exported cotton textiles, beads, pottery, metals, and seals, and imported gold, silver, copper, tin, ivory, and lapis lazuli. The IVC also had maritime trade with the Persian Gulf and the Arabian Sea, using boats made of reeds and wood.
- In the Vedic period, trade and commerce declined due to the collapse of the IVC and the rise of nomadic tribes. The Vedic people were mainly pastoralists and warriors, who valued cattle, horses, and chariots more than trade goods. However, some trade did exist within the Vedic society, as well as with the neighboring regions of Gandhara, Kamboja, and Mag-

adha. The Vedic people used barter system and cowrie shells as currency, and traded in grains, cattle, horses, honey, wool, leather, and iron.

- In the post-Vedic period, trade and commerce flourished again due to the emergence of powerful kingdoms, urbanization, and the development of coinage. India established trade relations with various regions, such as China, Central Asia, Persia, Greece, Rome, Southeast Asia, and Africa. India exported spices, textiles, gems, ivory, pearls, perfumes, medicines, and metals, and imported gold, silver, copper, silk, coral, glass, wine, and horses. India also developed a maritime trade with the Indian Ocean and the Mediterranean Sea, using ships made of wood and iron. The post-Vedic period also saw the rise of guilds, merchants, bankers, and traders, who played a vital role in the economy and society of ancient India.

Some mnemonics and learning tricks for the trade in ancient India are:

- To remember the three periods of trade in ancient India, use the acronym PVP: Pre-Vedic, Vedic, and Post-Vedic.
- To remember the main trade partners of the IVC, use the acronym MECCA: Mesopotamia, Egypt, Central Asia, and Arabian Sea.
- To remember the main trade goods of the IVC, use the acronym CBPMS: Cotton, Beads, Pottery, Metals, and Seals.
- To remember the main trade goods of the post-Vedic period, use the acronym STIGPM: Spices, Textiles, Ivory, Gems, Pearls, and Metals.

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India

- India has a long and rich history that spans from the prehistoric era to the modern times. India's dominance in various fields such as culture, religion, trade, science, art, and literature can be traced back to its ancient and medieval periods.
- Some of the major events and achievements that marked India's dominance up to pre-colonial times and ancient India are:
 - **Indus Valley Civilization:** One of the earliest and most advanced urban civilizations in the world, the Indus Valley Civilization flourished along the Indus River and its tributaries from about 2500 BCE to 1900 BCE. It had well-planned cities, sophisticated drainage and sanitation systems, standardized weights and measures, writing system, trade networks, and artistic and religious expressions.
 - **Vedic Period:** The period from about 1500 BCE to 500 BCE, when the Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism, were composed and transmitted orally by the Indo-Aryan people who migrated to the Indian subcontinent from Central Asia. The Vedic period saw the development of the caste system, the concept of karma and reincarnation, the rituals of fire sacrifice, and the emergence of various schools of philosophy.

- **Mauryan Empire:** The first pan-Indian empire that was founded by Chandragupta Maurya in the 4th century BCE, with the help of his mentor and advisor, Kautilya, who wrote the Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft and economics. The Mauryan Empire reached its peak under Ashoka, who ruled from 268 BCE to 232 BCE, and who is known for his edicts of dhamma, or moral law, that promoted peace, tolerance, and compassion. Ashoka also sent Buddhist missionaries to various parts of Asia and Africa.
- **Gupta Empire:** The golden age of Indian culture, science, and art, the Gupta Empire ruled most of northern India from the 4th century CE to the 6th century CE. The Gupta period witnessed the flourishing of classical Sanskrit literature, such as the epics Ramayana and Mahabharata, the plays of Kalidasa, and the fables of Panchatantra. The Gupta period also saw remarkable achievements in mathematics, astronomy, medicine, metallurgy, and architecture, such as the decimal system, the concept of zero, the heliocentric model of the solar system, the Ayurvedic system of medicine, the iron pillar of Delhi, and the Ajanta and Ellora caves .
- **Harsha's Empire:** The last great empire of northern India before the Islamic invasions, Harsha's Empire was founded by Harsha Vardhana, who ruled from 606 CE to 647 CE. Harsha was a patron of Buddhism, but also respected other religions. He held a grand assembly at Kannauj, where he invited scholars, monks, and dignitaries from different regions and countries. He also supported the famous Chinese pilgrim Xuanzang, who visited India during his reign and wrote a detailed account of the Indian society, culture, and religion.
- **Chola Empire:** The longest-ruling dynasty of southern India, the Chola Empire ruled from the 9th century CE to the 13th century CE, and extended its influence to Sri Lanka, Maldives, Malaysia, Indonesia, and Cambodia. The Chola Empire was known for its naval prowess, maritime trade, administration, and art. The Chola kings built magnificent temples, such as the Brihadeeswarar Temple in Thanjavur, which is a UNESCO World Heritage Site. The Chola period also saw the development of Tamil literature, music, and dance.
- **Mughal Empire:** The most powerful and influential empire of the medieval India, the Mughal Empire was founded by Babur, a descendant of Timur and Genghis Khan, who invaded India in 1526 CE and defeated the Delhi Sultanate. The Mughal Empire reached its zenith under Akbar, who ruled from 1556 CE to 1605 CE, and who is regarded as one of the greatest rulers in history. Akbar was known for his religious tolerance, cultural synthesis, patronage of arts and literature, and administrative reforms. The Mughal Empire also produced some of the finest examples of Indo-Islamic architecture, such as the Taj Mahal, the Red Fort,

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

- This module covers the various aspects of Indian culture and heritage, especially in the fields of painting, performing arts and architecture.
- The module aims to provide an overview of the historical development, major features, regional variations and contemporary trends of these art forms in India.
- The module also intends to foster an appreciation and awareness of the rich and diverse cultural heritage of India and its contribution to the world.

Painting

- Painting is one of the oldest and most expressive forms of art in India. It reflects the aesthetic sensibilities, religious beliefs, social values and historical events of the people who created it.
- Painting in India can be broadly classified into two categories: mural painting and miniature painting.
- Mural painting is the art of painting on walls, ceilings or other large surfaces, usually in temples, palaces, caves or public buildings. Some of the famous examples of mural painting in India are the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Brihadeshwara temple, the Lepakshi temple and the Mattancherry palace.
- Miniature painting is the art of painting on small surfaces, such as paper, cloth, palm leaf, wood or ivory, using fine brushes and bright colors. Miniature painting flourished in India from the 10th to the 19th centuries, especially under the patronage of various rulers and courts. Some of the prominent schools of miniature painting in India are the Pala, Rajasthani, Mughal, Deccani, Pahari and Bengal schools.
- Painting in India has also been influenced by various foreign and modern styles, such as Persian, European, Chinese, Japanese, Tanjore, Madhubani, Warli, Kalighat and Bengal Renaissance.

Performing Arts

- Performing arts are the art forms that involve the use of body, voice, gesture, music, dance or drama to convey a message, emotion, story or idea to an audience. Performing arts are an integral part of the intangible cultural heritage of India and reflect its diversity and dynamism.
- Performing arts in India can be broadly classified into three categories: music, dance and theatre.
- Music is the art of producing sounds in a harmonious and pleasing manner, using instruments, voice or both. Music in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic times. Music in India can be divided into two main traditions: Hindustani and Carnatic. Hindustani music is the classical music of North India, while Carnatic music is the classical music of South India. Both traditions have their own ragas, talas, instruments and styles. Music in India also includes various folk, devotional, regional

and popular genres, such as bhajan, qawwali, dhrupad, khyal, thumri, ghazal, bhangra, filmi, pop and rock.

- Dance is the art of moving the body in a rhythmic and graceful manner, using gestures, expressions, costumes and accessories to convey a theme, emotion, story or idea. Dance in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Harappan civilization. Dance in India can be divided into two main categories: classical and folk. Classical dance is the dance that follows the rules and principles of the *Natyashastra*, an ancient treatise on performing arts. There are eight recognized classical dance forms in India: Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kathakali, Kuchipudi, Manipuri, Mohiniyattam, Odissi and Sattriya. Folk dance is the dance that reflects the local culture, traditions, festivals and occasions of different regions and communities in India. There are hundreds of folk dance forms in India, such as Bhangra, Garba, Dandiya, Lavani, Bihu, Chhau, Ghoomar and Kalbelia.
- Theatre is the art of performing a scripted or improvised drama, comedy, tragedy or satire, using actors, dialogues, props, costumes, lights and sounds. Theatre in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic times. Theatre in India can be divided into two main categories: classical and folk. Classical theatre is the theatre that follows the rules and principles of the *Natyashastra*, an ancient treatise on performing arts. There are two major forms of classical theatre in India: Sanskrit theatre and Kutiyattam. Sanskrit theatre is the theatre that is performed in Sanskrit language, using elaborate costumes, masks, gestures and music. Kutiyattam is the theatre that is performed in Malay

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

- Indian architecture is as old as the history of the civilization and reflects the diversity of its culture, geography, climate, and religion.
- The earliest remains of recognizable building activity in India date back to the Indus Valley cities, which used corbel arches, drainage systems, and urban planning.
- The Mauryan period (4th-2nd century BCE) witnessed the development of stupas, caves, and residential buildings, as well as the use of stone pillars, rock-cut sculptures, and polished surfaces.
- The post-Mauryan period (2nd century BCE-3rd century CE) saw the emergence of various regional styles of architecture, such as the Gandhara style, which blended Indian and Greek elements, and the Amaravati style, which featured elaborate carvings and narrative reliefs.
- The Gupta period (4th-6th century CE) is considered the golden age of Indian art and architecture, as it produced some of the finest examples of temples, chaityas, viharas, and sculptures, with a focus on harmony, balance, and elegance.
- The medieval period (7th-13th century CE) witnessed the rise of several dynasties and kingdoms, each with their own distinctive architectural style and patronage. Some of the notable examples are the Pallava temples, the

Chola temples, the Hoysala temples, the Khajuraho temples, the Rajput forts and palaces, and the Qutub Minar.

- The Mughal period (16th-18th century CE) introduced a new style of architecture that combined Persian, Turkish, and Indian elements, and created some of the most iconic monuments of India, such as the Taj Mahal, the Red Fort, the Fatehpur Sikri, and the Jama Masjid.
- The colonial period (18th-20th century CE) saw the influence of European styles, such as Gothic, Neoclassical, and Victorian, on Indian architecture, as well as the emergence of new forms, such as the Indo-Saracenic style, which blended Islamic and Hindu motifs, and the Art Deco style, which reflected modernity and glamour.
- The post-independence period (20th-21st century CE) witnessed the development of various contemporary and experimental styles of architecture, such as the Modernist style, which emphasized functionality and simplicity, the Regionalist style, which incorporated local materials and traditions, and the Sustainable style, which focused on environmental and social issues.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the Indian architecture in ancient India and present times are:

- To remember the chronological order of the periods, use the acronym IMPPMCPC: Indus, Mauryan, Post-Mauryan, Gupta, Medieval, Mughal, Colonial, Post-independence.
- To remember the main features of the Indus Valley architecture, use the acronym CAD: Corbel arches, Drainage systems, urban planning.
- To remember the main features of the Mauryan architecture, use the acronym SPR: Stupas, Pillars, Rock-cut sculptures.
- To remember the main features of the Gupta architecture, use the acronym TCV: Temples, Chaityas, Viharas.
- To remember the main features of the Mughal architecture, use the acronym PTFR: Persian, Turkish, and Indian elements, Taj Mahal, Forts, Red sandstone and white marble.

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

- Engineering and architecture are two aspects of Indian cultural heritage that reflect the diversity, creativity, and innovation of the Indian civilization.
- Engineering and architecture in India have been influenced by various factors, such as geography, climate, religion, culture, history, politics, and foreign invasions.
- Engineering and architecture in India can be broadly classified into four periods: ancient, medieval, colonial, and modern.

Ancient Period

- The ancient period of Indian engineering and architecture spans from the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) to the Gupta Empire (c. 320-550 CE).
- The Indus Valley Civilization is known for its urban planning, drainage systems, granaries, baths, wells, and brick structures. Some of the notable sites are Harappa, Mohenjo-daro, Lothal, and Dholavira.
- The Vedic and post-Vedic period (c. 1500-600 BCE) saw the development of fire altars, sacrificial posts, and wooden structures. The Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism, contain references to various aspects of engineering and architecture, such as measurement, geometry, carpentry, and metallurgy.
- The Buddhist period (c. 600 BCE-320 CE) witnessed the emergence of stupas, viharas, and chaityas, which are circular, rectangular, and apsidal structures respectively, used for worship and monastic purposes. Some of the famous examples are Sanchi, Bharhut, Amaravati, and Ajanta.
- The Hindu period (c. 320-550 CE) marked the beginning of temple architecture, which evolved from simple shrines to elaborate complexes. The temples were built according to the principles of Vastu Shastra, a traditional system of architecture that prescribes the layout, design, and orientation of buildings. The temples were decorated with sculptures, paintings, and carvings depicting various gods, goddesses, and mythological scenes. Some of the prominent temples are Khajuraho, Konark, Kanchipuram, and Mahabalipuram.

Medieval Period

- The medieval period of Indian engineering and architecture spans from the Chola Empire (c. 850-1279 CE) to the Mughal Empire (c. 1526-1857 CE).
- The Chola Empire is renowned for its bronze casting, irrigation systems, and temple architecture. The Chola temples are characterized by their towering gateways called gopurams, pillared halls called mandapas, and sanctums called vimanas. Some of the notable temples are Brihadeeswarar, Gangaikonda Cholapuram, and Airavatesvara.
- The Vijayanagara Empire (c. 1336-1646 CE) is famous for its fortifications, waterworks, and temple architecture. The Vijayanagara temples are distinguished by their elaborate carvings, ornate pillars, and musical columns. Some of the remarkable sites are Hampi, Lepakshi, and Pattadakal.
- The Indo-Islamic period (c. 1206-1526 CE) saw the fusion of Hindu and Islamic elements in engineering and architecture. The Indo-Islamic structures are known for their arches, domes, minarets, and geometric patterns. Some of the prominent examples are Qutub Minar, Red Fort, Taj Mahal, and Fatehpur Sikri.

Colonial Period

- The colonial period of Indian engineering and architecture spans from the British Raj (c. 1858-1947 CE) to the Indian Independence (c. 1947 CE).
- The British Raj introduced various styles of engineering and architecture, such as Gothic, Victorian, Neo-Classical, and Art Deco. The British structures are marked by their symmetry, proportion, and ornamentation. Some of the notable buildings are Victoria Memorial, Gateway of India, Rashtrapati Bhavan, and Howrah Bridge.
- The Indian Independence movement also inspired some forms of engineering and architecture, such as Swadeshi, Gandhian, and Modernist. The Indian structures are characterized by their simplicity, functionality, and nationalism. Some of the remarkable examples are Sabarmati Ashram, India Gate, Lotus Temple, and Chandigarh.

Modern Period

- The modern period of Indian engineering and architecture spans from the post-Independence era (c. 1947 CE) to the present day.
- The post-Independence era witnessed the emergence of various trends and movements in engineering and architecture, such as Regionalism,

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

- Sculpture is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) and continuing to the present day.
- Sculpture in India reflects the rich cultural, religious, and historical diversity of the country, as well as the influences of various regions, dynasties, and foreign invaders.
- Sculpture in India can be classified into three broad categories: stone, metal, and terracotta. Each category has its own distinctive features, techniques, and styles.
- Stone sculpture is the most prevalent and enduring form of sculpture in India, especially in temples, caves, and monuments. Stone sculpture ranges from the intricate carvings of the Mauryan period (c. 322-185 BCE) to the colossal statues of the Chola period (c. 850-1279 CE).
- Metal sculpture is another important form of sculpture in India, especially in bronze and brass. Metal sculpture showcases the technical mastery and artistic creativity of Indian sculptors, who used the lost-wax casting method to create realistic and dynamic figures. Metal sculpture reached its zenith in the Gupta period (c. 320-550 CE) and the Chola period (c. 850-1279 CE).
- Terracotta sculpture is the oldest and most widespread form of sculpture in India, made from clay and baked in a kiln. Terracotta sculpture is often found in rural and folk contexts, depicting animals, humans, and deities.

Terracotta sculpture is also associated with the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) and the Mauryan period (c. 322-185 BCE).

- The subject matter of Indian sculpture is mainly derived from the Hindu, Buddhist, and Jain religions, as well as from mythology, history, and literature. Indian sculpture depicts the various gods and goddesses, their attributes, their incarnations, their legends, and their worshippers. Indian sculpture also portrays the life of the Buddha, the Jinas, and other religious figures, as well as scenes from the epics, the Puranas, and the Jatakas.
- Some of the most famous examples of Indian sculpture are:
 - The Dancing Girl, a bronze figurine from Mohenjo-daro, c. 2500 BCE, one of the earliest representations of a human figure in Indian art.
 - The Ashoka Pillar, a stone column with a four-lion capital from Sarnath, c. 250 BCE, one of the symbols of India and a testimony of the Mauryan empire.
 - The Great Stupa, a hemispherical mound with a stone railing and gateways from Sanchi, c. 3rd century BCE to 1st century CE, one of the oldest and most sacred Buddhist monuments in India.
 - The Ajanta Caves, a series of rock-cut caves with paintings and sculptures from Ajanta, c. 2nd century BCE to 6th century CE, one of the finest examples of ancient Indian art and a UNESCO World Heritage Site.
 - The Sarnath Buddha, a sandstone statue of the Buddha from Sarnath, c. 5th century CE, one of the most iconic and influential images of the Buddha in Indian art.
 - The Nataraja, a bronze statue of Shiva as the lord of dance from Thanjavur, c. 11th century CE, one of the most celebrated and revered icons of Hinduism and a masterpiece of Chola art.
 - The Khajuraho Temples, a group of stone temples with erotic sculptures from Khajuraho, c. 10th to 12th century CE, one of the most remarkable and controversial examples of medieval Indian art and a UNESCO World Heritage Site.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for remembering the sculptures as cultural heritage of India are:
 - DASH: Dancing Girl, Ashoka Pillar, Sarnath Buddha, and Nataraja are four famous sculptures from different periods and regions of India.
 - GASK: Great Stupa, Ajanta Caves, Sarnath Buddha, and Khajuraho Temples are four examples of Buddhist art and architecture in India.
 - MINT: Mauryan, Indus Valley, Nataraja, and Terracotta are four keywords related to different types of sculpture in India.

Seals as Cultural Heritage of India

- Seals are small objects made of stone, metal, clay, or other materials that have a carved or engraved design on one side and are used to make an impression on another surface, such as clay, wax, or paper.
- Seals have been used in India since ancient times for various purposes, such as trade, administration, religion, art, and personal identity.
- Seals are important sources of information about the history and culture of India, as they reveal aspects of the economy, society, politics, religion, language, and script of different periods and regions.
- Some of the most famous and ancient seals of India belong to the Indus Valley Civilization (IVC), which flourished from about 2500 to 1900 BCE in the northwest of the Indian subcontinent.
- The IVC seals are mostly made of steatite, a soft stone that can be easily carved and baked to make it harder and more durable. They are usually square or rectangular in shape, measuring about 2 to 3 cm on each side, although some are larger or smaller, or even circular or cylindrical.
- The IVC seals have a distinctive design that consists of two parts: an upper part that depicts an animal, a human, or a mythical creature, and a lower part that contains a series of symbols or signs that are considered to be a form of writing, known as the Indus script.
- The most common animals depicted on the IVC seals are the unicorn (a single-horned bull), the humped bull, the elephant, the rhinoceros, the tiger, the buffalo, and the crocodile. Some seals also show composite animals, such as the elephant-bull or the tiger-bull, or rare animals, such as the zebu, the antelope, or the giraffe. The animals are usually shown in a naturalistic and realistic manner, with attention to detail and proportion.
- The human figures on the IVC seals are less common and less realistic than the animals. They are often shown in a seated or standing posture, wearing elaborate headdresses, ornaments, and garments. Some of them are interpreted as deities, priests, or rulers, while others are unclear in their identity and function. One of the most famous human figures on the IVC seals is the so-called Pashupati seal, which shows a man with horns, surrounded by four animals, and sitting in a yogic pose.
- The Indus script on the IVC seals is one of the most intriguing and mysterious aspects of the civilization. It consists of about 400 different signs or symbols, some of which resemble objects, animals, or human body parts, while others are abstract or geometric. The script is written from right to left, and usually occupies one or two lines on the lower part of the seal. The meaning and function of the script are still unknown, as no bilingual inscription or decipherment has been found. Some scholars suggest that the script represents a language, while others argue that it is a non-linguistic system of communication, such as a logo-syllabic or a numerical system.
- The IVC seals were used to mark and seal various items, such as clay tablets, pottery, cloth, baskets, or wooden containers, that were involved

in trade, administration, or storage. The seals were also used as amulets, tokens, or badges of identity, as they often bear personal names, titles, or symbols of affiliation. The seals were carried by the seal owners or their agents, who would press them on soft clay or wax to create an impression, known as a seal impression or a seal impression. The seal impressions served as a form of authentication, identification, or ownership, as well as a protection against tampering or theft.

- The IVC seals were not only used within the civilization, but also across a wide network of trade and exchange that connected the Indus cities with other regions and cultures, such as Mesopotamia, Persia, Central Asia, and the Arabian Peninsula. The seals and seal impressions have been found in many sites outside the Indus region, such as Harappa, Mohenjodaro, Lothal, Dholavira, and Kalibangan, as well as in sites in the Gulf region, such as Bahrain, Oman, and Kuwait. The finds suggest that the IVC seals were recognized and valued by other peoples and civilizations, and that they played a role in facilitating and regulating the movement of goods, people, and ideas across long distances.
- The IVC seals are not only remarkable for their age, quantity, and

Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

- Coins are one of the most important sources of information about the history and culture of India. They provide evidence of the political, economic, social, religious, and artistic aspects of various dynasties and regions that ruled or influenced India over the centuries.
- Coins can be classified into different types based on their metal, shape, size, weight, design, inscription, mint, and period. Some of the common metals used for coinage in India are gold, silver, copper, lead, tin, zinc, iron, and alloys. Some of the common shapes are circular, square, rectangular, oval, irregular, and scalloped. Some of the common designs are symbols, figures, legends, motifs, and portraits.
- Coins can also be categorized into different periods based on the chronology of the rulers or dynasties that issued them. Some of the major periods of coinage in India are:
 - Ancient period (6th century BCE to 6th century CE): This period witnessed the emergence of the first coins in India, known as punch-marked coins, which were made of silver or copper and had various symbols punched on them. Later, coins of the Mauryan, Indo-Greek, Kushan, Satavahana, Gupta, and other dynasties were issued, which had more elaborate designs and inscriptions in various scripts and languages, such as Brahmi, Kharoshthi, Greek, and Pahlavi. Some of the famous coins of this period are the Karshapana, the silver Drachma, the gold Dinar, and the copper Pana.
 - Medieval period (7th century CE to 15th century CE): This period

saw the introduction of Islamic coinage in India by the Arab, Turkish, Afghan, and Mongol invaders and rulers, who brought new metals, such as gold and silver, and new styles, such as the Arabic script and the Kalima (Islamic creed). Some of the prominent coins of this period are the gold Dinar, the silver Dirham, the copper Jital, and the Tanka. The Hindu kingdoms of South India, such as the Chola, Chalukya, Pallava, and Vijayanagara, also issued their own coins, which had distinctive features, such as the Nagari script, the temple architecture, and the royal portraits. Some of the notable coins of this period are the gold Fanam, the silver Kasu, and the copper Massa.

- Modern period (16th century CE to 20th century CE): This period marked the arrival of the European powers, such as the Portuguese, the Dutch, the French, and the British, who established their trade and political presence in India and issued their own coins, which had European influences, such as the Latin script, the Christian symbols, and the portraits of the monarchs. Some of the common coins of this period are the gold Mohur, the silver Rupee, and the copper Paisa. The Mughal empire, which ruled most of India for about three centuries, also issued coins, which had Persian influences, such as the Persian script, the floral motifs, and the titles of the emperors. Some of the famous coins of this period are the gold Ashrafi, the silver Rupiya, and the copper Dam. The Maratha, Sikh, and other regional powers also minted their own coins, which had local characteristics, such as the Devanagari script, the religious symbols, and the military insignia. Some of the remarkable coins of this period are the gold Hon, the silver Rupee, and the copper Anna.
- Coins are valuable as cultural heritage of India because they reflect the diversity, richness, and continuity of the Indian civilization. They also serve as a medium of communication, exchange, and expression of the values, beliefs, and aspirations of the people who issued and used them. They are a testimony of the artistic, linguistic, and technological achievements of the Indian society. They are a source of inspiration and pride for the present and future generations of Indians.

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

- Pottery is one of the most ancient and enduring forms of artistic expression in India. It reflects the cultural diversity, creativity and history of the Indian subcontinent.
- Pottery is the process of forming vessels and other objects with clay and other ceramic materials, which are fired at high temperatures to give them a hard, durable form.
- Pottery in India has been found in the early settlements of Lahuradewa and Mehrgarh, dating back to the Neolithic period (7000-3300 BCE).

- Pottery reached its peak of development during the Indus Valley Civilization (3300-1300 BCE), which produced a variety of pottery types, such as plain, painted, perforated, incised and glazed. The pottery of this civilization is known for its geometric designs, animal motifs and use of terracotta. Some of the famous sites where pottery has been excavated are Mohenjo-daro, Harappa, Lothal and Kalibangan.
- Pottery in India continued to evolve and diversify after the decline of the Indus Valley Civilization, influenced by various cultural and historical factors, such as the arrival of the Aryans, the Mauryan and Gupta empires, the Islamic invasions, the Mughal rule, the British colonization and the modern era.
- Pottery in India is not only a functional craft, but also a symbolic and ritualistic one. Pottery is used for various purposes, such as cooking, storing, serving, decorating, worshipping and gifting. Pottery is also associated with various festivals, ceremonies and traditions, such as Diwali, Karwa Chauth, Durga Puja, Ganesh Chaturthi and Pongal.
- Pottery in India is also a reflection of the regional and local variations, preferences and styles of the different communities and groups that practice it. Pottery in India can be classified into various types, such as earthenware, stoneware, porcelain, blue pottery, black pottery, red pottery, terracotta, glazed pottery and studio pottery. Each type has its own characteristics, techniques, materials and designs.
- Pottery in India is also a living and dynamic craft, that is still practiced extensively by thousands of potters across the country. Pottery in India is facing various challenges, such as competition from cheaper and mass-produced alternatives, lack of recognition and support, environmental issues and loss of traditional skills and knowledge. However, pottery in India is also adapting to the changing times and demands, by incorporating new forms, functions, innovations and markets.
- Pottery in India is a rich and vibrant cultural heritage, that showcases the artistic genius, aesthetic sensibility and cultural diversity of the Indian people. Pottery in India is a valuable source of information and inspiration for historians, archaeologists, artists, designers and enthusiasts. Pottery in India is a craft that deserves to be preserved, promoted and celebrated.

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

- Puppetry is an ancient and diverse art form that has been used for entertainment, education, cultural and religious dissemination in India .
- Puppetry is one of the richest heritages of India, with several regional genres that reflect the local history, culture, language, music and aesthetics .
- Some of the common traits of Indian puppetry are :
 - The use of epics, myths, legends, folktales and social issues as the themes of the puppet shows.
 - The integration of music, dance, dialogue, narration and gesture in

the puppet performances.

- The involvement of the puppeteer as a performer, narrator, singer, musician and manipulator of the puppets.
- The participation of the audience in the puppet shows, either by responding to the puppeteer's cues, joining in the songs, or interacting with the puppets.
- Some of the major types of Indian puppetry are :
 - String puppets: These are puppets that are controlled by strings attached to their limbs and head. They are also known as marionettes or kathputli. They are found in Rajasthan, Orissa, Karnataka, Tamil Nadu and Kerala. They are usually made of wood, cloth, leather or paper. They can perform complex movements and expressions. Some examples are Rajasthani kathputli, Orissa's kundhei, Karnataka's gombeyatta, Tamil Nadu's bommalattam and Kerala's nul pavakoothu.
 - Shadow puppets: These are flat puppets that are made of leather, paper or cardboard and are held behind a translucent screen. They are illuminated by a light source, creating shadows on the screen. They are also known as chhaya natak or tolubommalata. They are found in Andhra Pradesh, Karnataka, Kerala, Maharashtra, Orissa and Tamil Nadu. They are usually painted or perforated with intricate designs. They can depict scenes from epics, myths and folktales. Some examples are Andhra Pradesh's tholu bommalata, Karnataka's togalu gombeyatta, Kerala's tolupavakoothu, Maharashtra's chamadyache bahulya, Orissa's ravanachhaya and Tamil Nadu's tholupavakoothu.
 - Rod puppets: These are puppets that are controlled by rods attached to their limbs, head or body. They are also known as danda natak or putul natak. They are found in West Bengal, Bihar, Orissa and Assam. They are usually made of wood, bamboo, cloth or paper. They can perform elaborate movements and gestures. Some examples are West Bengal's putul natak, Bihar's yampuri, Orissa's kathi kandhei and Assam's putala nach.
 - Glove puppets: These are puppets that are worn on the hand like a glove. They are also known as hath kandhei or pavakoothu. They are found in Uttar Pradesh, Orissa, West Bengal and Kerala. They are usually made of cloth, leather or paper. They can perform simple movements and expressions. Some examples are Uttar Pradesh's kathitholi, Orissa's hath kandhei, West Bengal's benir putul and Kerala's pavakoothu.
- Apart from traditional puppetry, India also has a thriving contemporary puppetry culture that experiments with new forms, materials, techniques, themes and media .
- Some of the contemporary puppetry forms are :
 - Modern rod puppets: These are rod puppets that are made of foam, rubber, plastic or metal. They are controlled by rods or wires. They

can perform realistic movements and expressions. Some examples are Ishara Puppet Theatre Trust's puppets, Dadi Pudumjee's puppets and Anurupa Roy's puppets.

- Modern string puppets: These are string puppets that are made of synthetic materials, such as nylon, polyester or acrylic. They are controlled by strings or wires. They can perform acrobatic movements and expressions. Some examples are Meena Naik's puppets, Varun Narain's puppets and Ranjana Pandey's puppets.
- Modern shadow puppets: These are shadow puppets that are made of transparent or translucent materials, such as

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

- Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India that reflects the diversity and richness of its people, history and culture.
- Dance in India can be classified into two broad categories: classical and folk. Classical dances are based on ancient texts and codified rules, while folk dances are spontaneous and regional expressions of the local communities.
- Classical dances of India are usually performed in temples, courts, festivals and theatres, and are accompanied by classical music, costumes and ornaments. There are eight recognized classical dances in India: Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kathakali, Kuchipudi, Manipuri, Mohiniyattam, Odissi and Sattriya.
- Folk dances of India are diverse and vibrant, reflecting the local traditions, customs and beliefs of the different regions and communities. Folk dances are usually performed in social occasions, such as weddings, harvests, fairs and religious events, and are often influenced by the local music, dialect and environment. Some examples of folk dances are Bhangra, Garba, Lavani, Chhau and Bihu.
- Dance in India is not only a form of entertainment, but also a way of expressing emotions, values, stories and spirituality. Dance in India is a living heritage that connects the past with the present and the future.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for the topic are:

- To remember the eight classical dances of India, you can use the acronym **Be Kind Keep Kissing My Mother On Saturdays** (**B**haratanatyam, **K**athak, **K**athakali, **K**uchipudi, **M**anipuri, **M**ohiniyattam, **O**dissi and **S**attriya).
- To remember some of the folk dances of India, you can use the rhyme **Bhangra Garba Lavani Chhau Bihu**, **B**hangra **G**arba **L**avani **C**hhau **B**ihu (**B**hangra from Punjab, **G**arba from Gujarat, **L**avani from Maharashtra, **C**hhau from eastern India and **B**ihu from Assam).
- To remember the difference between classical and folk dances of India, you can use the contrast **Classical Folk**, **C**odified **F**ree, **C**eremonial **F**estive, **C**ultured **F**olklore (**C**lassical dances are based on **c**odified rules and per-

formed in ceremonial occasions, while folk dances are free expressions of the folklore and performed in festive occasions).

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

- Music is an integral part of the cultural heritage of India. It reflects the diversity, history, and identity of the Indian people.
- Music in India can be broadly classified into two categories: classical and folk. Classical music is based on a system of ragas (melodic modes) and talas (rhythmic cycles) that have been developed over centuries. Folk music is more regional and diverse, reflecting the local traditions, languages, and instruments of different communities.
- Classical music in India has two main traditions: Hindustani and Carnatic. Hindustani music originated in northern India and was influenced by Persian and Islamic cultures. Carnatic music originated in southern India and was influenced by Hinduism and Sanskrit literature. Both traditions share some common elements, such as the use of a drone (a continuous note) and the concept of sruti (microtones), but they also have distinct features, such as the use of different ragas, talas, and instruments.
- Some of the prominent instruments used in classical music are the sitar, sarod, veena, tabla, mridangam, bansuri, shehnai, and harmonium. Some of the famous classical musicians are Ravi Shankar, Ali Akbar Khan, M.S. Subbulakshmi, Bismillah Khan, Zakir Hussain, and Lata Mangeshkar.
- Folk music in India is very diverse and varies from region to region. Some of the popular forms of folk music are bhangra, dandiya, lavani, baul, qawwali, bhajan, and ghazal. Some of the common instruments used in folk music are the dhol, dholak, ektara, sarangi, harmonium, and tabla. Some of the famous folk musicians are Nusrat Fateh Ali Khan, Gurdas Maan, Falguni Pathak, Lata Mangeshkar, and Kailash Kher.
- Music in India is not only a form of entertainment, but also a medium of expression, communication, and education. Music is used to convey emotions, stories, values, and beliefs. Music is also used to celebrate festivals, rituals, and ceremonies. Music is also a source of inspiration, creativity, and innovation. Music is also a way of preserving and promoting the cultural heritage of India.

Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India

- Theatre is a composite art form that combines music, dance, dialogue, and spectacle to create a dramatic representation of human experience.
- Theatre in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (around 1500 BCE), when ritual performances were used to invoke the gods and celebrate the seasons.
- The earliest text on theatre in India is the Natya Shastra, written by Bharata Muni around 500 BCE. It is a comprehensive treatise on the theory and practice of theatre, covering topics such as stage design, costumes,

makeup, music, dance, acting, and dramaturgy.

- The Natya Shastra defines the two main genres of theatre in India: natya and nataka. Natya is a stylized form of theatre that uses symbolic gestures, movements, and expressions to convey the emotions and actions of the characters. Nataka is a realistic form of theatre that uses naturalistic dialogue and situations to depict the lives and conflicts of the characters.
- The Natya Shastra also classifies the theatre into four regional styles: bharati, avanti, dakshinatyā, and oudra. Each style has its own distinctive features, such as language, dialect, music, dance, and costumes.
- The classical period of theatre in India lasted from the 3rd century BCE to the 10th century CE, and produced many renowned playwrights, such as Kalidasa, Bhasa, Shudraka, Vishakhadatta, and Harsha. Some of the famous plays from this period are Abhijnana Shakuntalam, Swapnavasavadatta, Mrichchhakatika, Mudrarakshasa, and Ratnavali.
- The traditional period of theatre in India lasted from the 11th century CE to the 18th century CE, and witnessed the development of various regional forms of theatre, such as Kutiyattam, Koodiyattam, Kathakali, Yakshagana, Bhavai, Tamasha, Nautanki, Jatra, and Ramlila. These forms of theatre are based on local myths, legends, folktales, and epics, and are performed in vernacular languages, with the use of masks, puppets, and elaborate costumes.
- The modern period of theatre in India began in the 19th century CE, and was influenced by the Western theatre, especially the British theatre. The modern theatre in India experimented with new themes, forms, and techniques, and addressed the social, political, and cultural issues of the contemporary society. Some of the prominent playwrights and theatre practitioners of this period are Rabindranath Tagore, Bharatendu Harishchandra, Jaishankar Prasad, Mohan Rakesh, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad, Badal Sircar, Habib Tanvir, and Satyadev Dubey.
- Theatre in India is a cultural heritage that reflects the diversity, creativity, and vitality of the Indian people. It is a living tradition that adapts to the changing times and contexts, and continues to entertain, educate, and inspire the audiences.

Drama as Cultural Heritage of India

- Drama is one of the oldest forms of performing arts in India, dating back to the Vedic period.
- Drama in India has a rich and diverse history, influenced by various religious, linguistic, and regional traditions.
- Drama in India can be broadly classified into two categories: classical and folk.
- Classical drama refers to the plays written and performed according to the rules and conventions of Sanskrit drama, as codified by Bharata Muni

in his treatise *Natyashastra*.

- Classical drama in India is mainly based on the epics, myths, and legends of Hinduism, Buddhism, and Jainism. Some of the famous playwrights of classical drama are Kalidasa, Bhasa, Sudraka, Vishakhadatta, and Harsha.
- Classical drama in India is characterized by the use of elaborate costumes, masks, makeup, gestures, music, dance, and poetry. The actors are trained in various skills such as voice modulation, facial expressions, and body movements.
- Classical drama in India is performed in various styles such as *Natya* (drama), *Nritta* (pure dance), *Nritya* (expressive dance), and *Abhinaya* (acting). The four types of *Abhinaya* are *Angika* (physical), *Vachika* (verbal), *Aharya* (costume), and *Satvika* (emotional).
- Classical drama in India is also divided into two types based on the mood or sentiment (*rasa*) that they evoke: *Nataka* (heroic) and *Prakarana* (social). *Nataka* deals with the exploits of gods, kings, and heroes, while *Prakarana* deals with the lives of ordinary people.
- Folk drama refers to the plays that are performed by the rural and tribal communities of India, reflecting their local culture, customs, and beliefs.
- Folk drama in India is more spontaneous, flexible, and interactive than classical drama. It often incorporates elements of comedy, satire, and social criticism.
- Folk drama in India is performed in various languages and dialects, using simple props, costumes, and instruments. The actors are usually amateurs, who improvise and adapt the script according to the audience and the situation.
- Folk drama in India is performed in various forms such as *Tamasha* (Maharashtra), *Nautanki* (Uttar Pradesh), *Jatra* (West Bengal), *Bhavai* (Gujarat), *Yakshagana* (Karnataka), *Therukoothu* (Tamil Nadu), and *Bhaona* (Assam).
- Folk drama in India is also influenced by the regional forms of music, dance, and puppetry. Some of the examples are *Kathakali* (Kerala), *Chhau* (Odisha), *Koodiyattam* (Kerala), and *Ramlila* (North India).
- Drama as cultural heritage of India is important because it preserves and promotes the diversity, creativity, and identity of the Indian people. It also reflects the social, political, and religious aspects of the Indian society.
- Drama as cultural heritage of India is also valuable because it entertains, educates, and inspires the audience. It also provides a platform for dialogue, expression, and empowerment of the marginalized and oppressed groups.

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India

- Painting is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India. It reflects the rich cultural, religious and historical heritage of the country.
- The earliest known paintings in India date back to the prehistoric times, such as the rock paintings found in the Bhimbetka caves in Madhya Pradesh. These paintings depict scenes of hunting, dancing, animal figures and geometric patterns.
- Over the centuries, various styles and schools of painting emerged in different regions of India, influenced by local traditions, foreign invasions, religious movements and patronage. Some of the most prominent types of Indian paintings are:
 - Madhubani: A folk art form from the Mithila region of Bihar, characterized by bright colors, intricate patterns, floral motifs and symbolic images of gods, goddesses, animals and nature. Madhubani paintings are usually done on walls, floors, paper or cloth using natural dyes and brushes made of bamboo or cotton.
 - Warli: A tribal art form from the Maharashtra state, featuring simple and monochromatic figures of humans, animals, trees and geometric shapes. Warli paintings depict the daily life, rituals and beliefs of the Warli people, who live in harmony with nature. Warli paintings are usually done on mud walls using rice paste or white paint.
 - Mughal: A refined and elegant style of painting that flourished under the Mughal emperors, who ruled India from the 16th to the 19th century. Mughal paintings are influenced by Persian, Indian and European art, and depict scenes of court life, history, literature, religion and nature. Mughal paintings are usually done on paper or cloth using fine brushes and rich colors.
 - Rajput: A style of painting that developed in the Rajput kingdoms of Rajasthan and the Himalayan regions, from the 16th to the 19th century. Rajput paintings are inspired by Hindu mythology, legends, poetry and music, and portray the royal and romantic life of the Rajput rulers and their beloveds. Rajput paintings are usually done on paper or cloth using bright colors and gold or silver embellishments.
 - Tanjore: A style of painting that originated in the Tanjore or Thanjavur region of Tamil Nadu, in the 16th century. Tanjore paintings are known for their rich and vivid colors, intricate details, gold foil work and precious stones. Tanjore paintings depict Hindu gods and goddesses, saints and scenes from Hindu scriptures.
 - Bengal: A style of painting that emerged in the Bengal region of eastern India, in the late 19th and early 20th century. Bengal paintings are influenced by the Indian nationalist movement, the revival of folk art and the modernist trends of the West. Bengal paintings are expressive, experimental and diverse, and cover themes such as social realism, rural life, spirituality and nature. Some of the famous

Bengal painters are Abanindranath Tagore, Nandalal Bose, Jamini Roy and Rabindranath Tagore.

- Indian paintings are not only a source of aesthetic pleasure, but also a valuable document of the cultural heritage of India. They reflect the diversity, creativity and identity of the Indian people, and their interaction with the world. Indian paintings are a living and evolving art form, that continues to inspire and influence artists and art lovers across the globe.

Martial Arts Traditions of India

- Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practised for a variety of reasons – self-defence, competition, physical health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development.
- India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts, dating back to the Vedic period and influenced by the geography, culture, and history of the subcontinent.
- Some of the prominent and ancient martial art forms of India are:
 - **Kalaripayattu:** It is a famous Indian martial art from the land of Kerala and one of the oldest fighting systems in the world. It is practised in most of the parts of south India. It draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile. It involves strikes, kicks, grappling, weaponry, and healing methods.
 - **Silambam:** It is a weapon-based martial art of Tamil Nadu, which uses a bamboo staff as the primary weapon. It is one of the oldest martial arts in India and has influenced many other Asian martial arts. It also incorporates animal styles, such as snake, tiger, eagle, and monkey, and unarmed techniques, such as locks, throws, and pressure points.
 - **Thang-Ta:** It is the ancient Manipuri martial art, also known as Huyen Lallong, which means “the art of the sword and the spear”. It is a powerful yet gracefully complex technique, which uses swords and spears as the main weapons. It also includes unarmed combat, such as kicks, punches, blocks, and evasions.
 - **Gatka:** It is a traditional martial art of the Sikhs, which originated in Punjab. It is a style of stick fighting, which uses wooden sticks to simulate swords. It also involves the use of other weapons, such as daggers, axes, and shields. It is a highly spiritual art, which is based on the principles of courage, loyalty, and service.
 - **Lathi:** It is India’s oldest armed martial art, which uses a bamboo stick or a metal-tipped cane as the weapon. It is also regarded as one of the world’s earliest martial arts weapons. It is mainly practised in rural areas of northern and eastern India, especially in Bihar, Uttar

Pradesh, and West Bengal. It involves striking, blocking, thrusting, and sweeping techniques, as well as wrestling and acrobatics.

- **Malla-yuddha:** It is the traditional form of wrestling in India, which dates back to the epic era of Mahabharata and Ramayana. It is also known as Pehlwani or Kushti, and is considered as the ancestor of modern wrestling. It is practised on a clay or dirt pit, which is sprinkled with oil and turmeric. It involves grappling, striking, joint locks, and chokeholds, as well as mental and spiritual training.
- Some of the mnemonics and learning tricks for the martial arts traditions of India are:
 - To remember the names of the six martial arts, you can use the acronym **KSTGLM**, which stands for **K**alaripayattu, **S**ilambam, **T**hang-Ta, **G**atka, **L**athi, and **M**alla-yuddha.
 - To remember the states where the martial arts originated, you can use the following phrases:
 - * **K**erala is the **K**ing of **K**alaripayattu.
 - * **S**ilambam is the **S**pecialty of **T**amil Nadu.
 - * **T**hang-**T**a is the **T**reasure of **M**anipur.
 - * **G**atka is the **G**lory of **P**unjab.
 - * **L**athi is the **L**egacy of **B**ihar, **U**ttar **P**radesh, and **W**est **B**engal.
 - * **M**alla-yuddha is the **M**other of **W**restling in **I**ndia.
 - To remember the weapons used in the martial arts

Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

- India is a land of diverse cultures, religions, languages, and traditions. It is also a land of vibrant celebrations, where various fairs and festivals are held throughout the year to mark important occasions, honor deities, commemorate saints, express gratitude, showcase arts and crafts, and promote unity and harmony among people.
- Fairs and festivals are an integral part of the cultural heritage of India, as they reflect the rich and varied history, beliefs, customs, and values of the people. They also provide an opportunity for people to interact, exchange, and enjoy with each other, as well as to showcase their talents and skills to the world.
- Some of the major fairs and festivals that are celebrated in India are:
 - **Makar Sankranti:** It is a harvest festival celebrated in mid-January, when the sun enters the zodiac sign of Capricorn. It is also known as Pongal in Tamil Nadu, Lohri in Punjab, Bihu in Assam, and Ut-tarayan in Gujarat. People fly kites, light bonfires, prepare and distribute sweets, and worship the sun god on this day.

- **Holi:** It is a festival of colors and joy, celebrated in late February or early March, on the full moon day of the Hindu month of Phalguna. It marks the arrival of spring and the victory of good over evil. People smear each other with colored powder and water, play with water guns and balloons, and dance and sing to the tunes of folk songs.
- **Navratri:** It is a nine-day festival dedicated to the worship of the goddess Durga and her nine forms, celebrated in late September or early October, during the Hindu month of Ashwin. It is also known as Durga Puja in West Bengal, Dussehra in North India, and Garba in Gujarat. People fast, perform rituals, dance, and enact the epic Ramayana on this festival.
- **Diwali:** It is the festival of lights, celebrated in late October or early November, on the new moon day of the Hindu month of Kartik. It signifies the triumph of light over darkness, and the return of Lord Rama to Ayodhya after defeating the demon king Ravana. People decorate their homes with lamps and candles, burst crackers, exchange gifts, and worship the goddess Lakshmi and the god Ganesha on this day.
- **Guru Nanak Jayanti:** It is the birth anniversary of Guru Nanak, the founder of Sikhism, celebrated in late November or early December, on the full moon day of the Hindu month of Kartik. It is also known as Gurpurab or Prakash Utsav. Sikhs visit the gurudwaras, recite the holy scriptures, sing hymns, and take out processions on this day.
- **Christmas:** It is the celebration of the birth of Jesus Christ, the son of God, celebrated on December 25 by Christians all over the world. People decorate their homes and churches with lights and stars, put up Christmas trees and cribs, exchange gifts and cards, and attend the midnight mass on this day.
- **Pushkar Mela:** It is a famous camel fair held in the town of Pushkar in Rajasthan, in late October or early November, during the Hindu month of Kartik. It attracts thousands of tourists, traders, and pilgrims, who come to witness the spectacle of thousands of camels, horses, and cattle being traded, raced, and decorated. The fair also features cultural programs, folk dances, and competitions.
- **Goa Carnival:** It is a four-day extravaganza of fun, music, and dance, held in the state of Goa in February or March, before the start of Lent. It is a legacy of the Portuguese rule in Goa, and showcases the fusion of Indian and European cultures. People dress up in colorful costumes, masks, and wigs, and participate in parades, floats, and street parties.
- **Konark Dance Festival:** It is a classical dance festival held in the backdrop of the magnificent Sun Temple in Konark, Odisha, in February or March. It showcases the various forms of Indian classical dance, such as Odissi, Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, and Manipuri, performed by renowned artists from across the country.

- **Jaisalmer Desert Festival:** It is a three-day cultural festival held in the golden city of Jaisalmer in Rajasthan, in February

Current developments in Arts and Cultural in India

- India has a rich and diverse cultural heritage that includes various forms of art, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings and writings. These are known as the ‘Intangible Cultural Heritage’ (ICH) of humanity.
- India has 37 world heritage sites that showcase the architectural and artistic excellence of the country. Some of these sites are Taj Mahal, Khajuraho, Hampi, Ajanta and Ellora caves, Mahabalipuram, Konark, etc.
- India also has a vibrant and thriving film industry, popularly known as Bollywood, that produces the highest number of films in the world. India also has many regional film industries, such as Tollywood, Kollywood, Mollywood, etc, that cater to the diverse linguistic and cultural preferences of the people.
- India has been actively promoting its art and culture both within and outside the country through various initiatives and schemes. Some of these are:
 - National Mission on Cultural Mapping and Roadmap, which aims to document and showcase the cultural diversity and heritage of India through web-based platforms and events. It targets to cover 6.40 lakh villages in 3 years.
 - Financial Assistance for Cultural Activities in Performing Arts, which provides grants to individuals and institutions for organizing cultural events, festivals, workshops, seminars, etc. It also supports the construction of studio theatres and cultural complexes.
 - Scheme of Scholarship and Fellowship for Promotion of Art and Culture, which offers scholarships and fellowships to young and senior artists in various fields of art and culture, such as music, dance, theatre, literature, visual arts, etc.
 - Indian Festivals Abroad, which organizes cultural festivals in foreign countries to showcase the rich and diverse art and culture of India. Some of the recent festivals were held in Australia, Japan, Russia, etc.
- India has also been actively participating in the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities, which is a platform for sharing best practices and innovations in promoting lifelong learning and sustainable development through culture and education. Recently, three cities in India, namely Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala and Warangal in Telangana, have joined the network .
- India has also been making efforts to preserve and protect its cultural heritage from damage and theft. Recently, India has successfully retrieved a 10th century goat-headed Yogini statue from France, which was stolen from a temple in Bihar in 1991. India has also nominated the Hoysala

temples of Karnataka for inscription in the World Heritage List.

Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World

India is a country of diverse and rich cultural heritage, with a history of more than 5000 years. India has made many contributions to the world in various fields, such as mathematics, science, medicine, art, literature, architecture, music, dance, and spirituality. Some of the major contributions of India to the world are:

- **Mathematics:** India is the birthplace of many mathematical concepts and discoveries, such as the decimal system, the concept of zero, the place value system, algebra, trigonometry, geometry, calculus, and the binary system. India also invented the concept of infinity, the Fibonacci sequence, the Pythagorean theorem, and the value of pi. India also developed the concept of negative numbers, fractions, logarithms, and quadratic equations. India is also credited with the invention of the numeral system that is used worldwide today, known as the Hindu-Arabic numerals.
- **Architecture:** India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage, with influences from various cultures and religions. India is home to many ancient and medieval monuments, temples, forts, palaces, mosques, churches, and tombs, that showcase the artistic and engineering skills of the Indian architects and craftsmen. Some of the examples of the architectural marvels of India are the Taj Mahal, the Qutub Minar, the Khajuraho temples, the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Hampi ruins, the Konark Sun Temple, the Brihadeshwara Temple, and the Mahabalipuram rock-cut temples. India is also known for its urban planning and design, as seen in the Indus Valley Civilization, which had well-planned cities with drainage systems, granaries, public baths, and standardized weights and measures .
- **Textiles:** India is one of the oldest and largest producers of textiles in the world, with a history of more than 5000 years. India is famous for its cotton, silk, wool, and jute fabrics, which are known for their quality, variety, and design. India is also the origin of many techniques of dyeing, printing, weaving, and embroidery, such as tie-dye, batik, block printing, ikat, brocade, chikankari, kantha, and zardozi. India has also influenced the fashion and clothing of many regions and cultures, such as the sari, the salwar kameez, the kurta, the dhoti, the turban, the shawl, and the bandana .
- **Medicine:** India is the source of many ancient and traditional systems of medicine, such as Ayurveda, Siddha, Unani, and Yoga. These systems are based on the holistic approach of balancing the body, mind, and spirit, and use natural herbs, minerals, and metals as remedies. India also pioneered many surgical and medical techniques, such as plastic surgery, cataract surgery, rhinoplasty, dental surgery, anesthesia, vaccination, and caesarean section. India also discovered many medicinal plants and substances, such

as turmeric, ginger, garlic, neem, basil, aloe vera, and opium .

- **Language:** India is a multilingual country, with 22 official languages and hundreds of regional and local languages and dialects. India is also the origin of many languages and scripts that are spoken and written in various parts of the world, such as Sanskrit, Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Tamil, Telugu, Malayalam, Kannada, Gujarati, Marathi, Punjabi, and Sindhi. India also influenced the development of many languages and scripts, such as Pali, Prakrit, Persian, Arabic, Tibetan, Thai, Khmer, Lao, Malay, Indonesian, and English. India is also the source of many literary and grammatical works, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, the Bhagavad Gita, the Panchatantra, the Kamasutra, the Arthashastra, and the Ashtadhyayi .
- **Art:** India has a rich and diverse artistic heritage, with influences from various cultures and religions. India is known for its painting, sculpture, pottery, metalwork, jewelry, and handicrafts, which reflect the aesthetic and spiritual values of the Indian people. Some of the examples of the artistic expressions of

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

- Indian cinema is one of the most popular and influential forms of performing arts in India, as well as in the world. It is a medium of expression, entertainment, education, and social commentary that reflects the diversity and dynamism of Indian culture and society.
- Indian cinema has a long and rich history that dates back to the early 20th century, when the first silent films were made by pioneers like Dadasaheb Phalke, who is considered the father of Indian cinema. His film *Raja Harishchandra* (1913) was the first full-length feature film made in India.
- The advent of sound in 1931 with *Alam Ara*, directed by Ardeshir Irani, marked the end of the silent era and the beginning of the talkies. The film was a musical drama that introduced songs and dialogues to the Indian audience. The film was a huge success and spawned many genres and styles of filmmaking in India, such as social realism, mythological, historical, fantasy, comedy, romance, thriller, horror, and musical.
- Indian cinema has also been influenced by various regional, national, and international movements and trends, such as the Indian freedom struggle, the Partition, the Nehruvian era, the Emergency, the globalization, the New Wave, the Parallel Cinema, the Art Cinema, the Masala Cinema, the Bollywood, the Hollywood, and the World Cinema. Indian cinema has also incorporated elements from various forms of Indian performing arts, such as classical and folk music, dance, theater, puppetry, and storytelling.
- Indian cinema has produced many legendary and iconic figures, such as actors, directors, writers, composers, singers, dancers, and technicians, who have contributed to the artistic and technical excellence of the medium. Some of the most celebrated names in Indian cinema are

Prithviraj Kapoor, Devika Rani, Raj Kapoor, Nargis, Dilip Kumar, Guru Dutt, Meena Kumari, Satyajit Ray, Rajesh Khanna, Amitabh Bachchan, Shyam Benegal, Smita Patil, Naseeruddin Shah, M.G. Ramachandran, Sivaji Ganesan, Rajinikanth, Kamal Haasan, K. Balachander, Mani Ratnam, A.R. Rahman, Aamir Khan, Shah Rukh Khan, Salman Khan, Madhuri Dixit, Aishwarya Rai, Priyanka Chopra, and many more.

- Indian cinema has also received recognition and appreciation from various national and international platforms, such as the National Film Awards, the Filmfare Awards, the International Film Festival of India, the Cannes Film Festival, the Berlin Film Festival, the Venice Film Festival, the Academy Awards, the BAFTA Awards, and the Golden Globe Awards. Indian cinema has also influenced and inspired many filmmakers and audiences across the world, such as Akira Kurosawa, Martin Scorsese, Steven Spielberg, Quentin Tarantino, Danny Boyle, Ang Lee, and many more.
- Indian cinema is a dynamic and evolving art form that continues to experiment and innovate with new themes, genres, styles, techniques, and technologies. It is also a diverse and inclusive art form that represents the voices and visions of various communities, regions, languages, religions, genders, and classes of India. It is a performing art that celebrates the beauty, complexity, and diversity of India and its people.

Some possible mnemonics and learning tricks for Indian cinema as a performing art in India are:

- To remember the name of the first full-length feature film made in India, think of Raja Harishchandra as the king who never lied.
- To remember the name of the first sound film made in India, think of Alam Ara as the light of the world.
- To remember the name of the father of Indian cinema, think of Dadasaheb Phalke as the grandfather of Indian films.
- To remember some of the genres and styles of Indian cinema, think of SMASH: Social realism, Mythological, Historical, Fantasy, Comedy, Romance, Thriller, Horror, and Musical.
- To remember some of the influential movements and trends in Indian cinema, think of NEW PAM: New Wave, Parallel Cinema, Art Cinema, Masala Cinema, Bollywood, Hollywood, and World Cinema.